Confined Nanoparticle Diffusion Imaging via iSCAT Microscopy

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Martin Jasinski

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Committee

Sabrina R. Leslie, Ph.D. — *Advisor* — Department of Physics and Astronomy, University of British Columbia, Vancouver

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Abstract

The understanding of characteristics of the thermal movement of particles within a confined space has been studied extensively in order to understand biological, chemical, and physical processes. Although the theoretical behavior of this confined diffusion is well defined in literature, not much work has been done to understand the effects of electrostatic and hydrodynamic contributions to the particle size measurements derived from the motion of nanoparticles, as measurements are often intrinsically performed under confinement. This is due to the fact that 3D particle-tracking is not used as often as other, higher throughput sizing techniques. By employing common techniques of nanoparticle tracking in tandem with a full theoretical model, the non-trivial effects of confinement on size-diffusivity were directly investigated and characterized. The work described in this thesis advances the method and tools of 3D nanoparticle analysis both theoretically and in application.

The first section of the thesis describes a theoretical model of Brownian motion based on the confined-Langevin model using a Debye-Hückel electrostatic potential. The model was implemented, based on literature [1], into a computer-based Python simulation in order to parameterize and create probability distributions of predicted particle motion.

The second section describes a modified method of 3D tracking to obtain faster calculations of particle position from optical microscopy images. This was based on an algorithm described in literature [2]. The validation of the method was done on exact point-spread function simulation data with an accuracy of 1 nm.

The third section describes the acquisition of experimental data using a custom interferometric scattering microscope (iSCAT) with image pixel resolution 55 nm acquiring images between 400 and 1000 frames per second. The data consisted of images of scattering fringes from nanoparticle species and was analyzed using the algorithm developed in Chap. 7. The resultant information was accurate 3D particle tracks. The models developed in Chap. 2 were applied to the tracks to obtain infer particle size and charge as shown in Chap. 8.

Layman Summary

Physical objects are understood to be comprised of smaller subunits. A majority of physically important molecules, such as plastic subunits, medicines, and food particles, are known as nanoparticles, which have diameters ranging from 20 nm to 200 nm. To ensure nanoparticles that are used in products are correctly produced, it is important to be able to measure their functional properties, and their size.

This thesis develops a method to measure the 3D position of nanoparticles using the scattering of light and applies the method to learn about how nanoparticles interact in confined volumes.

This method has potential applications in nanoparticle production. The particle-surface interactions can be directly measured and quantified. Applications include lipid-nanoparticle based medicines, such as the COVID-19 mRNA-Vaccine [3], genetic targeted Onpattro vaccine [4], and most recently, novel cancer targeted mRNA-based immunotherapies vaccines. [5]

Preface

Before you lies the master's thesis *Studies of Nanoparticle Confined Diffusion using iSCAT Microscopy*, written to fulfill the graduation requirements of the Master of Applied Science in Engineering Physics at the University of British Columbia in Vancouver, British Columbia, Canada.

My interest in nanoparticle diffusion developed from prior nanoparticle research that I had worked on as an undergraduate thesis student at the Leslie lab. This study acted as a catalyst which inspired me to further investigate the physical laws and principles of confined single-particle diffusion.

At the time of the thesis start, the iSCAT microscope was recently assembled. The parts were ordered by Dr. Eric Boateng with help from the Grant lab in the department of chemistry at UBC. The system was assembled by Dr. Erik Olsén. The software, written in LabView, was programmed and set up by Dr. Erik Olsén.

The diagrams and plots in this thesis were illustrated by the author using INKSCAPE, PYTHON, and the MATPLOTLIB library [6–8].

In this thesis, the experimental plan and study outline was developed by the author. Simulations in Chap. 6, computational analysis method in Chap. 7, and experimental data in Chap. 8 are original work. Experimental data were acquired with help from Dr. Erik Olsén. Dr. Olsén aided in optical alignment, preliminary data analysis, and overall project guidance. The samples used in chapter 8 were selected by the author and formulation of the lipid-nanoparticles was carried out by Yao Zhang of the Cullis lab at UBC.

I would like to thank Dr. Erik Olsén for project guidance, mentorship, and support during my time as a master's student, Dr. Cynthia Shaheen for support and management support, and all of my colleagues at the Leslie Lab and the department of Physics. Lastly, I would like to thank Dr. Sabrina R. Leslie for the continued support towards academic and professional development. Without these individuals, this thesis would have not been possible.

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List of Symbols

Symbol	Description
B	Electrostatic Confinement Potential Amplitude
C_{onc}	Concentration
C_{str}	Contrast
C_{pw}	Electrostatic Amplitude Term
D	Diffusion coefficient
e_0	Elementary charge
f_{ocal}	focal length
h	Length
H_{PSF}	Point spread function
h_l	Optical transfer function
$\Im$	Imaginary part
j	Probability current
k	Wave vector
k_b	Boltzmann constant
m	Mass
M	Magnification
N	Number
n_m	Refractive index
r	Polar distance
$\Re$	Real part
R_l	Lens radius
Re	Reynolds number

Symbol	**Description**
t	Time
T	Temperature
V	Volume
$\vec{E}(\vec{x})$	Electric Field
$\vec{H}(\vec{x})$	Magnetic Field
$\vec{v}$	Velocity vector
W	Probability Transition Rate
W_t	Gaussian white-noise process
$\vec{x}$	Position vector
Z	Ion valence number
α	Polarizability
β	$1/k_bT$
γ	Velocity dependent friction
δ_{ij}	Kronecker delta
$\delta(\cdot)$	Dirac delta distribution
ε_0	Permittivity of free space
ε_r	Relative permittivity of the material
ζ_p	Particle zeta potential
η	Fluid viscosity
κ	Inverse Debye length
λ	Wavelength of light
λ_D	Debye-Length
μ	Mobility Coefficient
μ_0	Vacuum magnetic permittivity
$\mu_\parallel$	Parallel (axial) mobility coefficient
$\mu_\perp$	Perpendicular (transverse) mobility coefficient
ρ	Volumetric charge density
σ	Drift coefficient
σ_w	Surface charge density

Symbol	**Description**
τ	Camera exposure time
$\phi(\Delta)$	Probability of particle in space Δ
$\psi_g(z)$	Guoy Phase
ψ_w	Wall zeta potential
ω	Angular Frequency
Γ	Fluctuation–dissipation magnitude
Γ_i	Stern layer of species i
Ψ	Electrostatic potential
$\mathcal{O}(\cdot)$	Time complexity function

Chapter 1

Introduction

Objects in nature fall into approximately two size-categories: the macroscopic and the microscopic. Macroscopic objects can be directly measured with a ruler or a photograph. However, as the size drops below the wavelength of visible light, they become un-resolvable by light alone. Atomic methods such as x-ray diffraction neutron scattering, or super-resolution fluorescent microscopy, although able to obtain size and structure information, require prepared or artificially perturbed samples. Visible light, however, does not have this limitation and can observe particles in their natural, unperturbed state. Due to the Abbe diffraction limit, the smallest optical resolvable size of a particle is half of the wavelength of light [9, 10]. Recovering the dimensions of anything smaller, known as sub-diffraction, requires indirect measurements.

The Abbe diffraction limit plays a significant role in observing biological systems with sizes that are sub-diffraction. In biological systems, the sizes of proteins, enzymes, and organelles are not only a structural property, but they are also relate to functional properties [11]. Thus, the size is a critical parameter for biological systems.

For mRNA-lipid nanoparticles (mRNA-LNP), whose therapeutic efficacy depends on how efficiently the mRNA is released into the cellular environment, size is of utmost importance. The release of mRNA into the cytoplasm depends on a size-selective biological process known as endosomal escape [12–16]. Since the potency of the mRNA-LNP varies with a parameter related to the size of the particle, observing it in the biological environment gives incredible insight into how it is chemically and structurally regulated [17]. Thus, the precise measurement of particle size is essential to reliable pharmacological production, quality control, and rational design.

One universal property of sub-micron particles is that they undergo an apparent size-related stochastic motion when suspended in media [18–20]. At the nano-scale, thermal energy, k_bT, is the dominant force that acts on the particle. The gravitational and inertial energy, that typically govern macroscopic dynamics, are negligible in this length-scale. In liquid, considered continuous media, the viscous drag dominates over the inertial force, which constitutes a memory-less,

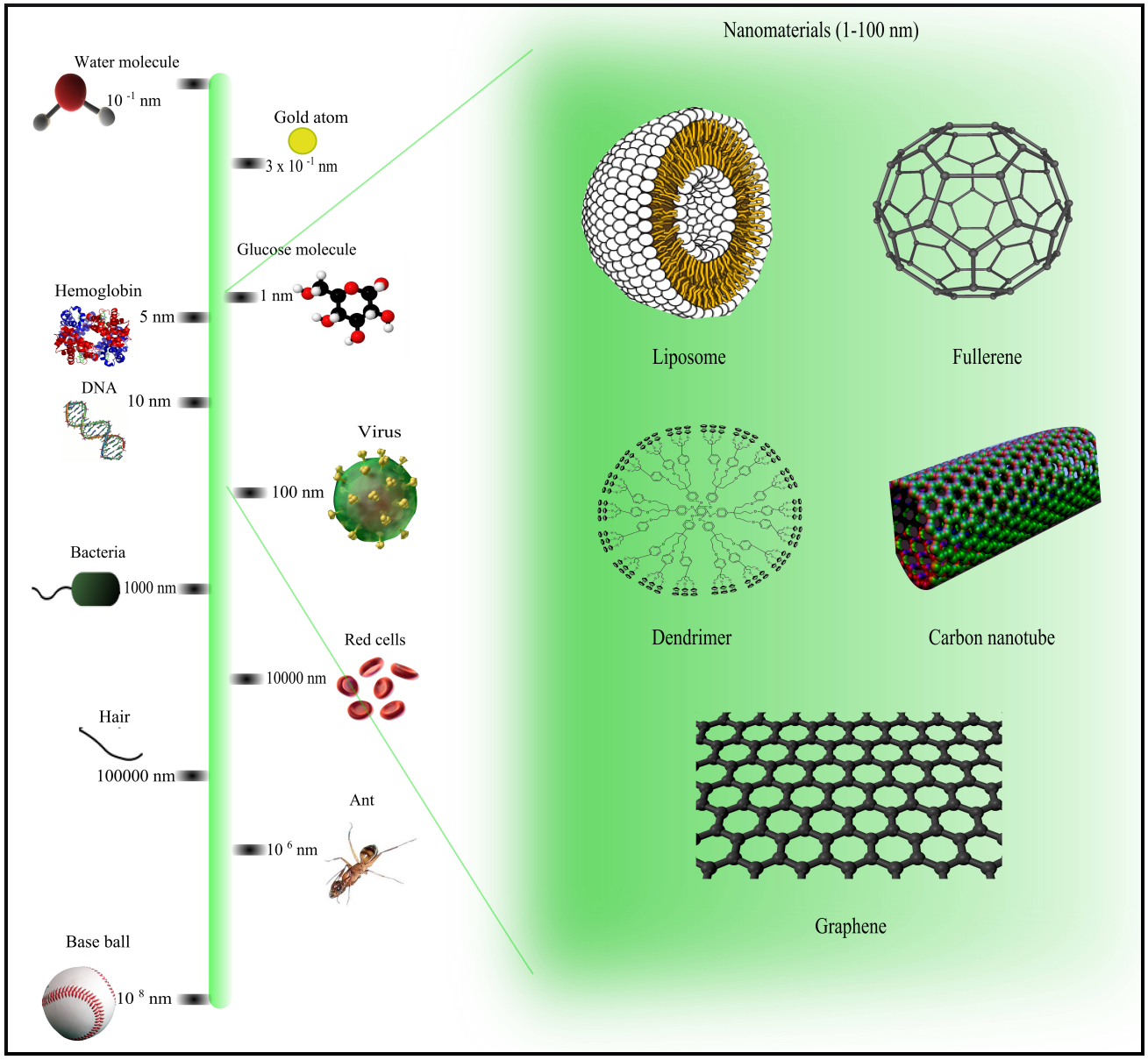


Figure 1.1: Size comparison of various particles. Nanoparticles are defined as particles where the largest dimension is at most $\sim$ 200nm. Figures taken from "Comparison of nanomaterials sizes" by Sureshbup, available under CC BY-SA 3.0 at URL

random motion [1]. The emergence of this thermal motion occurs when the ratio of the inertial forces to viscous forces in a particular media, known as the Reynold's number, is much lower than one [20],

$$\Re \ll 1.$$

The relation between the particle's size and its motion is explained in Einstein's seminal paper on Brownian motion [19]. Einstein showed that the diffusion coefficient, and implicitly the size of a particle, can be extracted from the variance of particle displacement.

[1] This is also a function of temporal resolution [20].

In order for the size estimate obtained from stochastic particle trajectories to be statistically relevant, the number of data points in the positional trajectory must be sufficient. Since the statistical uncertainty of the diffusion coefficient scales as $\sim\sqrt{N}$, a higher number of particle locations yields a more precise size inference [21].

Long particle trajectories are typically obtained by imaging the particle position over a period of time using optical microscopy. One common method of optical microscopy is to use fluorescence microscopy. Fluorescence microscopy utilizes covalently bonded fluorophore dyes to produce optical signal under laser excitation. Although fluorescence signal is high, the fluorophores have finite lifetimes, during which they oxidize and stop producing light, known as photobleaching [22]. Alternatively to fluorescence microscopy, scattering microscopy is a technique that utilizes the scattering of light off of particle boundaries to obtain signal. This technique requires computational processing to realize images. This process can be imaged indefinitely without loss in signal as particles are not damaged by the light alone.

In order to obtain the requisite large number of particle positions while maintaining independent particle specificity, particles are often spatially confined within the field of view of an optical imaging system for an extended period of time [11]. Without axial confinement, particles rapidly diffuse out of the focal plane. In recent scientific publications, convex-lens induced confinement (CLiC) measurements have typically utilized micro-geometries of volume $\sim 1.5\,\mu m^3$ in order to confine single particles for temporally extended measurements via fluorescence microscopy [23–25]. In complement, nanoparticle tracking analysis (NTA) measurements follow the same principles; where flow is applied to particles confined between two plates and they are imaged using side-scattering microscopy [26]. In NTA, however, particles are still able to diffuse in and out of the focal volume.

Although experimentally feasible, confinement in small spaces influences the motion of particles near surfaces. This property intrinsically modifies the size-diffusivity relation. This effect is non-trivial, introducing a position dependent viscous drag that has been shown to significantly alter the measured diffusivity [20, 27].

To account for near-wall effects, the particle must be tracked in three-dimensions with respect to the confinement barriers. Two dimensional tracking, which is commonly performed with optical microscopy alone, is theoretically insufficient to recover the true size and to find spatially varying diffusion coefficient [28]. Without tracking the axial dimensions, the spatially dependent correction is uncertain.

To measure the nanoparticle properties, such as diffusivity and size, this thesis presents an advancement of the iSCAT technique allowing for rapid and accurate three-dimensional tracking reconstruction. From the three-dimensional trajectory, the diffusivity, size, and environment conditions can be easily determined. Additionally, the confined axial size-measurement technique is shown to be a media insensitive approach; complementary to trajectory-based methods.

The thesis consists of 8 chapters. Chapter 2 provides a description of the literature of confined brownian motion over the last century. Chapter 3 describes the theoretical description of interferometric scattering microscopy (iSCAT) and physical limits that apply in optical theory. Chapter 4 discusses the application of Brownian motion and iSCAT in a biological context, with details regarding lipid-nanoparticles and why they need to be studied on the single-molecule level. Chapter 5 consists of investigations of confined diffusion using Langevin simulations. A simulated system was developed and the size-diffusivity relation in an electrostatic-ally screened system was investigated. Chapter 6 describes the 3D iSCAT tracking technique developed during this work. Chapter 7 describes the method applied to experimental data and utilizes various nanoparticle species, highlighting their varied diffusions. Chapter 8 concludes the work and provides a future outlook on the topic and steps which need to be advanced.

Chapter 2

Brownian Motion

The physical phenomenon of irregular movements of nanoparticles in liquid is known as Brownian motion. The observation of this motion originated around the year 1827 when Robert Brown observed a stochastic motion of clay particles originating from plant pollen under his microscope [18]. This stochastic motion, coined as *Brownian Motion*, was discovered to be invertibly related to the size of the particle by Albert Einstein in 1926[19].

This chapter aims to establish the theoretical background underlying the relationships between the diffusivity, particle size, and spatial coordinate in order to be applied to experimental data analysis in further chapters. This process requires sufficient mathematical detail as no single displacement carries enough information to define the whole trace, however, as one observes this motion for a longer period of time, the randomness tends to converge to a lawful, physical origin.

This chapter introduces the mathematics of Brownian motion and diffusion-type processes. Einstein's diffusion- equation argument and Langevin's stochastic equation of motion are discussed and shown to be equivalent through the Fokker-Planck formalism. In the case of diffusion under confinement, where hydrodynamic wall effects modify the mobility and electrostatic interactions, described by the Debye-Hückel interactions, govern particle-wall interactions in ionic solution. Finally, the subject of equilibrium distributions are discussed with regards to spatial probability distributions arising in confined diffusion processes.

2.1 Einstein's Brownian Motion

The physical phenomenon of diffusion can be rigorously described by the emergent behavior that occurs in particles of atomic length when undergoing random collisions with members of the surrounding environment. In the microscopic limit, where the radius of an approximately spherical particle is sufficiently small and thermal fluctuations dominate its dynamics, this erratic motion is referred to as Brownian motion or a diffusion process [18].

The classical treatment of Brownian motion describes how the molecular-kinetic theory of heat relates with microscopic particle suspensions in liquid or gas [19, 29]. Einstein's argument is one of macroscopic motion. Using Einstein's original notation, suppose that $\phi(\Delta)$ denotes the probability to find a particle in some space Δ subject to the normalization

$$\int \phi(\Delta) d\Delta = 1. \tag{2.1}$$

Einstein then assumes that the medium is isotropic, such that ϕ is an even function, $\phi(\Delta) = \phi(-\Delta)$ and a function $f(x,t)$ denotes some number of particles at the point x. Einstein then takes a finite slice of this volume and equates it to a probability space;

$$f(x, t+\delta t) = \int f(x+\Delta, t)\phi(\Delta) d\Delta. \tag{2.2}$$

The argument here is demonstrated by a Taylor-expansion of both sides of this equation,

$$f(x, t+\delta t) \approx f(x,t) + \delta t \frac{\partial f(x,t)}{\partial t}. \tag{2.3}$$

Similarly in the spatial dimensions;

$$f(x+\Delta, t) \approx f(x,t) + \Delta \frac{\partial f(x,t)}{\partial x} + \frac{\Delta^2}{2}\frac{\partial^2 f(x,t)}{\partial x^2}. \tag{2.4}$$

Adding together these terms and cancelling out the opposites, the resultant equation is known as the classical diffusion equation, and is shown to nearest order;

$$\frac{\partial f(x,t)}{\partial t} = \underbrace{\left[\frac{1}{\delta t}\int \frac{\Delta^2}{2}\phi(\Delta) d\Delta\right]}_{D} \frac{\partial^2 f(x,t)}{\partial x^2}, \tag{2.5}$$

where the diffusion coefficient is associated with the second moment of the probability distribution

$$D = \frac{1}{\delta t}\int \frac{\Delta^2}{2}\phi(\Delta) d\Delta. \tag{2.6}$$

The friction coefficient is physically related to the solution of the Navier-Stokes equations at a low Reynolds number[1]. Specifically, when the inertial forces are negligible and $\Re \ll 1$, then the drag force on a particle,

$$\vec{F}_d = 6\pi\eta a v, \tag{2.7}$$

where $\gamma_0 = 6\pi\eta a$, η is the fluid viscosity, and a is the spherical particle's radius. This relation can be directly applied to the form of the diffusion coefficient to recover Einstein's famous formula;

[1]Which describes the relative inertial forces to the viscous forces.

$$D = \frac{k_b T}{6\pi\eta a}. \tag{2.8}$$

Additionally, solutions to Eqn. 2.5 describe the probabilistic time evolution of given particles. Given one knows the solution to this equation, a diffusive process can be statistically estimated completely by the rate of diffusion. In certain boundary conditions, such as the free-space example, the solution is described by a gaussian distribution with zero mean and finite variance;

$$f(\vec{x}, t) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{4\pi d D \Delta t}} \exp\left(-\frac{|\vec{x}|^2}{4dD\Delta t}\right), \tag{2.9}$$

where d is the number of dimensions, and Δt is the difference from a known initial condition. Here it is assumed the initial position is known and is centered around zero. The variance of this distribution is referred to as the mean-squared displacement and described the relation between the variance of the diffusion steps and the diffusion coefficient.

$$\langle x^2 \rangle_c = 2dD\Delta t. \tag{2.10}$$

Einstein's theory of diffusion instantiates a partial differential equation that describes how the size of a particle relates to a thermodynamic motion. In addition, the Einstein-Stokes relation directly relates the rate of diffusion to the size of the particle. Paired with the solutions to the diffusion equation [30], the size of particles can be directly measured from time-series position information, such as concentration maps or particle trajectories [20].

Einstein's original paper directly motivated the sizing of particles using statistical estimates of their random motion, specifically with the existence of the mean-squared displacement relation. This relation allows one to utilize a particle trajectory, or single-particle motion as an indirect measurement of size; one of the cornerstone concepts of single-molecule optical measurement.

2.2 Langevin Dynamics

In single-particle movement-based experiments, such as observations of Robert Brown's particulates or tracking of diffusing lipid-nanoparticles, the observed Brownian particle typically within a fluid[2] volume. If one assumes that this particle exists in the thermodynamic equilibrium, it should obey the equipartion theorem [29, 31]. However, the observed motion appears to have more energy than predicted by the equipartion at certain times, indicating that an additional contribution to the dynamics must be considered [32, 33].

This missing component of motion can be described by the bombardment of the surrounding particles in the liquid. In particular, the system experiences a *random* force on it at every time

[2]This thesis assumes Newtonian fluids as they are experimentally relevant.

step.

$$m\ddot{\vec{x}} = -\frac{\dot{\vec{x}}}{\mu} + \vec{F}(t) \tag{2.11}$$

where μ is the fluid mobility which is represented in the viscous friction term, $-\frac{\dot{\vec{x}}}{\mu}$. Lastly, $\vec{F}(t)$ is the stochastic force term, which strictly speaking is a random function, taking a random value from a distribution, p_F for each time step, t. This model, although easily written, is quite profound and its analytical treatment is non-trivial. Here, $x(t)$ is a stochastic process, where each realization of $F(t)$ produces a unique trajectory of $x(t)$.

The statistical content of $\vec{F}(t)$ is determined by the moments and auto-correlation. Notably, this relation is physically described by the fluctuation-dissipation theory, which relates the drag force to the random force [29]. In Brownian motion, this takes the form

$$\langle \vec{F}(t) \rangle = 0, \quad \langle \vec{F}_i(t) \vec{F}_j(t') \rangle = \Gamma \delta_{ij} \delta(t - t') \tag{2.12}$$

Which stands in as delta-correlated noise, or that of a Wiener process. Notably, Γ is constrained by the equipartion theorem. This can be shown by calculating the velocity autocorrelation function and choosing the large t limit to agree with the equipartion theorem in 3-dimensions [29]. This fixes the fluctuation constant to being

$$\Gamma = \frac{2k_bT}{\mu}. \tag{2.13}$$

One can take the ensemble average of this device, and notably, extract correlation information. Rewriting in terms of velocity, and assuming zero drift velocity one finds

$$m\dot{\vec{v}} = -\frac{\vec{v}}{\mu} + \vec{A}(t), \quad \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} A(t)dt = 0. \tag{2.14}$$

This represents a linear differential equation with a solution hat defines the velocity autocorrelation function. This solution is

$$\langle \vec{v}(0) \cdot \vec{v}(t) \rangle = \frac{1}{m\mu} e^{-t/(m\mu)}. \tag{2.15}$$

Furthermore, when one averages the product of the above equation with $\vec{x}$ and integrates over time, the form of the mean-square displacement is found. Note that $\langle v^2 \rangle = \frac{3k_bT}{m}$, then the

solutions of the position mean-squared displacement are written as

$$\begin{aligned}\langle x^2\rangle &= 6k_bTm\mu^2\left[\frac{t}{m\mu} - (1-e^{-t/(mB)})\right] \\ &\begin{cases} \xrightarrow{t\ll m\mu} \frac{3k_bTt^2}{m} & = \langle v^2\rangle t^2 \\ \xrightarrow{t\gg m\mu} \frac{6k_bTm\mu}{m}t & = (6\mu k_bT)t \end{cases}.\end{aligned} \tag{2.16}$$

Letting $D = \mu k_bT$, Einstein's relation is recovered where the mobility, being the inverse of the friction, can be substituted by the Stokes friction,

$$\mu = \frac{1}{6\pi\eta a}. \tag{2.17}$$

The unique advantage of the Langevin formulation is that it is relatively easy to simulate [1, 34]. It can be shown that using an Euler-Maruyama scheme[3], the stochastic differential equation can be integrated over realizations of $F(t)$ using a random number generator, recovering the dynamics of an ideal brownian system [1].

2.3 From Master Equation to Fokker-Planck

To show that the Langevin formulation and Einstein's formulation are equivalent, the master equation can be shown to validate equilibrium probability distributions of particle motion. Suppose that $f(x,t)dx$ represents the probability of an arbitrary particle in the ensemble that has a displacement between x and $x+dx$. Let W represent the traditional probability transition rate between positions, then the master equation is written as

$$\frac{\partial f(x,t)}{\partial t} = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty}\left[f(x',t)W(x'|x) - f(x,t)W(x|x')\right]dx'. \tag{2.18}$$

This equation is a statement about the probability of positional transitions, which is fundamentally equivalent to the Langevin equation[4] The right hand side can be expanded using the Kramer-Moyal expansion and truncated at second order, yielding the Fokker-Planck Equation [35];

$$\frac{\partial f(x,t)}{\partial t} = -\frac{\partial}{\partial x}\left[\sigma(x)f(x,t)\right] + \frac{1}{2}\frac{\partial^2}{\partial x^2}\left[D(x)f(x,t)\right], \tag{2.19}$$

[3]The EM scheme is chosen due to relevance in Ref. [1].
[4]Given a Markovian system.

where the diffusive and drift terms are parameterized over the transition probabilities,

$$\begin{aligned} \sigma(x) &= \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \xi W(x|\xi) d\xi \\ D(x) &= \int_{-\infty}^{\infty} \xi^2 W(x|\xi) d\xi. \end{aligned} \tag{2.20}$$

In the case of zero drift, the form of this equation equates to the diffusion equation of the Langevin formulation. Thus, the Einsteinian and Langevin formulation are the same. This important property allows us to investigate solutions and dynamics of the two systems interchangeably. In particular, relating expected results from simulation-based behavior of Langevin problems.

Additionally, the results from either formulation are intrinsically the same, which implies that the probabilistic distributions of the Einsteinian formulation can be recovered from running Langevin simulations over a long time-course. Thus, non-analytical systems, such as non-homogenous cases of the diffusion equation, can be investigated in this context using simulations without a loss of applicability.

2.4 Confined Diffusion Processes

The effect of diffusion near an interface on a nearby particle is non-negligible [20]. The effect on confinement can be first imagined as the effect from frictional fluid flow. Notably, the particle being immersed in a fluid invites a Stokes friction which affects the perpendicular and parallel motion. Swedish physicist Hilding Faxén derived the relations in no-slip boundary conditions near a brownian particle [20, 36];

$$\begin{aligned} \mu_{\parallel}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right) &\approx \mu_{\infty}\left[1 - \frac{9}{16}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right) + \frac{1}{8}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right)^3 - \frac{45}{256}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right)^4 - \frac{1}{16}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right)^5\right] \\ \mu_{\perp}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right) &\approx \mu_{\infty}\left[1 - \frac{9}{8}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right) + \frac{1}{2}\left(\frac{a}{h}\right)^3\right] \end{aligned} \tag{2.21}$$

In the case of a two-wall confinement, there is much theoretical discussion on the confinement coefficient in hydrodynamic boundary conditions [37–39]. In application, it has been shown that the form of the Onseen drag shows experimental agreement [40] and can be expressed in a linear-superposition of linear mobility coefficients,

$$\gamma_2(z) \approx \gamma_0 + [\gamma_1(z) - \gamma_0] + [\gamma_1(H - z) - \gamma_0]. \tag{2.22}$$

In context of single-particle sizing measurements, the distance between the particle and nearby surfaces is often small [24, 25, 41]. Thus, this correction term must be applied in confinement-based methods in order for sizing estimations to be considered valid with respect to the true

size.

Additionally, confined diffusion processes are one such example of non-trivial diffusion equations [35]. It has been shown in literature this form of a system can be simulated using a Langevin equation [1].

2.5 Self-Consistent Confinement Coefficient

A consequence of the confined mobility relations presented by Faxén is the diffusion correction, which relates the bulk diffusivity to the confined axial or transverse diffusion coefficients.

$$D_0 = \mu_{\parallel}^{-1} D_{\parallel} = \mu_{\perp}^{-1} D_{\perp}. \tag{2.23}$$

The values of the corrections are, however, functions of the particle radius. For the Stokes-Einstein relation and the Faxén mobility corrections to be consistent, the following relation must hold.

$$\frac{k_b T}{6\pi\eta a} = \mu_{\parallel}^{-1}(a,h)\,\hat{D}_{\parallel} = \mu_{\perp}^{-1}(a,h)\,\hat{D}_{\perp}, \tag{2.24}$$

where the $\hat{\cdot}$ indicates measured values. This condition is self-consistent with a general mobility that is dependent on the particle radius if the particle height is known[5]. One useful property of the Faxén relations, as well as the linear-superposition approximations are that they are monotonically decreasing, illustrated in Fig. 2.1.

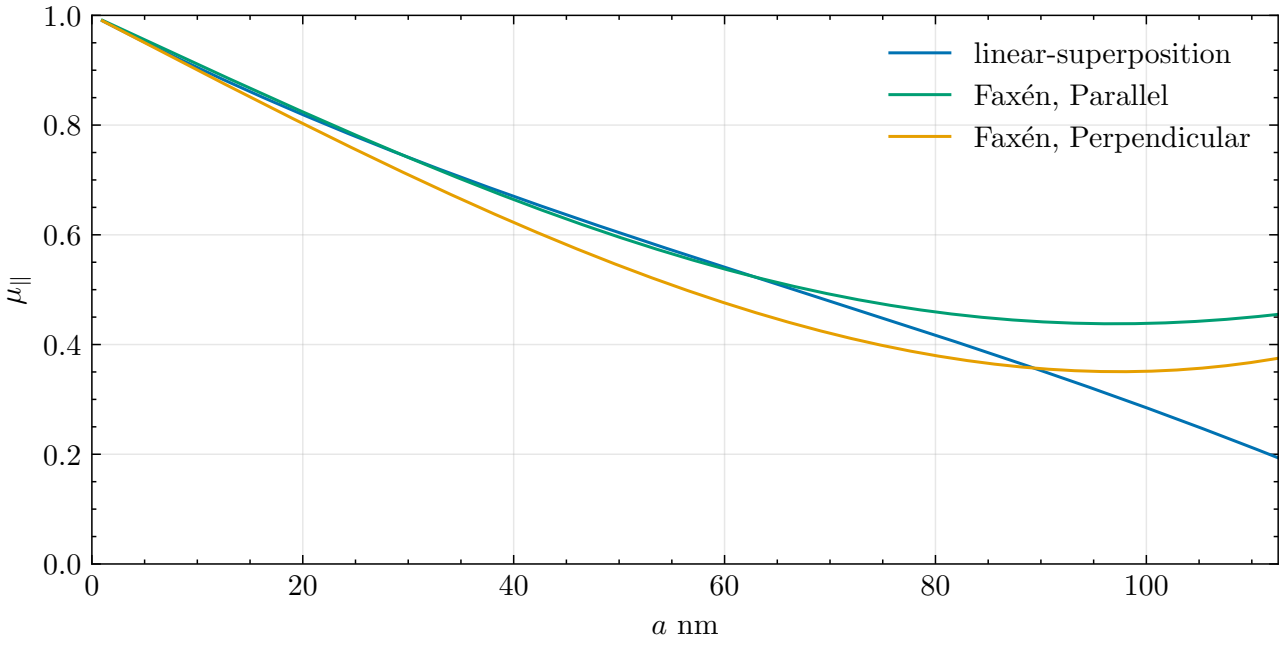


Figure 2.1: Linear-superposition mobility curve for linear-superposition and Faxén relations. $h = 225\,\text{nm}$.

[5] As was applied in Ref. [24]

To computationally calculate this relation, the relation equates itself to a recursive equation:

$$a_* = \arg\min_{a_*} \left| \frac{\hat{a}}{\mu_{\parallel,\perp}} - a_* \right|, \tag{2.25}$$

as derived in B. To demonstrate the self-consistency, the figure of a grid-search over optimal radii is presented in Fig. 2.2.

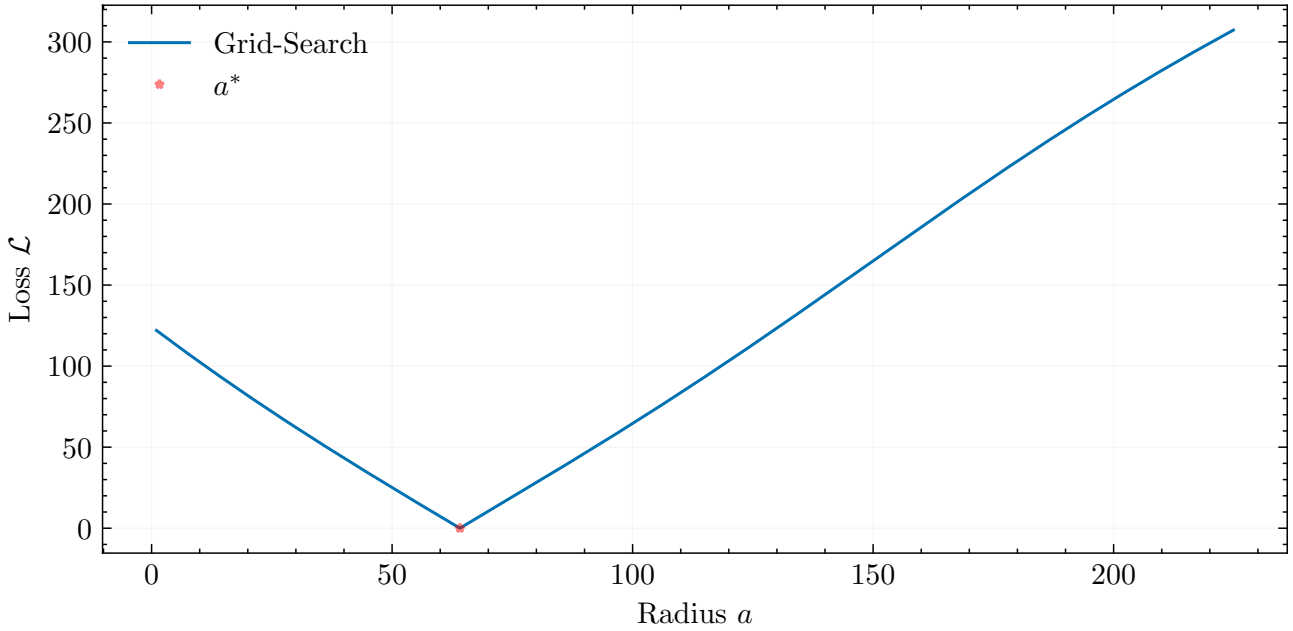


Figure 2.2: Cost-vector for self-consistent diffusion estimation in confinement. Here, a $\sim 100\,\text{nm}$ Polystyrene bead was imaged and tracked in the transverse plane. The initial size estimate before confinement analysis was $\hat{a} = 124.30\,\text{nm}$. Post self-consistency, applying a linear superposition theory estimate of the confinement effects, $a^* = 64.1\,\text{nm}$.

The development of this relation allows for the size estimate to be calculated using an estimator of the mobility coefficient as well as the radius. This relation has been previously used in analytical single-molecule measurements for size measurements in a confined environment [24].

2.6 Electrostatic Potentials

A particle diffusing near a charged wall in an electrolyte will feel a screened electrostatic interaction. The Debye-Hückel theory is a description of the electromagnetic interactions between ions in a solution of ionic compounds [42, 43]. The potential in a field of ions must be solved in terms of electrostatics in a media. This is described by Poisson's equation [44]

$$\nabla^2\Psi(\vec{x}) = -\frac{\rho(\vec{x})}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}. \tag{2.26}$$

In a general solution of ions, there will be j species of ions.

$$\nabla^2\Psi(\vec{x}) = -4\pi\frac{\rho_j(\vec{x})}{\varepsilon}$$

The charge distribution of a single ion concentration is essentially the density of the ionic positions. Rather than counting all ionic positions, a canonical ensemble is used,

$$\rho_i(\vec{x}) = \sum_i C_i e_0 Z_i \exp\left[-\beta Z_i e_0 \Psi(\vec{x})\right]. \tag{2.27}$$

Here the energy of the system is defined as the potential energy scaled by the charge defined as $U = qV$. The full equation is known as the Poisson-Boltzmann equation, where $\Psi(\mathbf{r})$ is the potential for all space [45, 46],

$$\nabla^2\Psi(\vec{x}) = -\frac{1}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} C_i e_0 Z_i \exp\left[-\beta Z_i e_0 \Psi(\vec{x})\right]. \tag{2.28}$$

There is a first-order linearization approximation to this equation where the potential is small,

$$\begin{aligned}
\nabla^2\Psi(\vec{x}) &\approx -\frac{1}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}\sum_{i=1}^{\infty} C_i e_0 Z_i \left[1 - \beta Z_i e_0 \Psi(\vec{x})\right] \\
&= -\frac{1}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}\sum_{i=1}^{\infty}\left[C_i e_0 Z_i - \beta C_i Z_i^2 e_0^2 \Psi(\vec{x})\right] \\
&= -\sum_{i=1}^{\infty}\left[\frac{C_i e_0 Z_i}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r} - \kappa_i^2\Psi(\vec{x})\right].
\end{aligned}$$

Where κ_i^2 is related to the Debye-length, a unit of the electrostatic screening caused by the ionic interactions. The Debye length is defined as $\lambda_D = \kappa^{-1}$.

When the bulk solution is electro-neutral, $\sum_i C_i Z_i = 0$, then the zeroth therm can cleanly drop

out, leaving only the approximation;

$$\nabla^2\Psi(\vec{x}) = \kappa^2\Psi(\vec{x}), \quad \kappa_i^2 = \frac{\beta e_0^2}{\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r}\sum_i C_i Z_i^2. \tag{2.29}$$

This equation has an obvious solution which are the real exponential functions;

$$\Psi(\vec{x}) = Ae^{-\kappa\vec{x}} + Be^{\kappa\vec{x}}. \tag{2.30}$$

The pre-factor A, B is the strength of the electric potential. In the case of ionic potentials, the strength of the pre-factor is a number of the number of ions and their charge density surrounding the surface. Thus, one can parameterize this pre-factor based on the geometry.

In the approximations done in this thesis, a linear symmetric potential, as well as a spherical particle between the potential is assumed. The form of this potential is chosen as

$$B = C\Gamma_p\Gamma_w, \tag{2.31}$$

where $|\psi|$ is a fixed amplitude due to charge density, and Γ_w, Γ_p are terms associated with the Stern layers of the wall and the particle [43, 47];

$$\begin{aligned} C_{\text{pw}} &= \frac{64\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r a k_b T}{e_0^2} \\ \Gamma_w &= \tanh\left(\frac{e\psi_w}{4k_bT}\right) \\ \Gamma_p &= \tanh\left(\frac{e\zeta_p}{4k_bT}\right) \\ \psi_w &= \frac{2k_bT}{e}\text{asinh}\frac{e\lambda_D\sigma_w}{2\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r k_bT}. \end{aligned} \tag{2.32}$$

Note that ψ_w is the Stern layer of the wall related to the surface charge density of the wall [43]. This is chosen for a more intuitive measurable of a wall-like structure.

These electrostatic potentials are important for estimation and simulation of confined Langevin dynamics in environments with highly charged particles and boundaries. For instance, the system containing a negatively charged diffusing particle in between two negatively charged glass surfaces. Given the hyperbolic form of the drift, estimation of the surface charge and particle charge can be discussed. These equations are necessary for extraction of more information from three-dimensional particle tracking information.

Chapter 3

Sizing of Biological Particles

The diffusivity of a spherical particle is directly linked to a motion that is thermally driven [19, 29]. It happens that in the nature of biological cells, this diffusive motion is a driver for many reactions, such as enzyme-protein coupling, protein-protein coupling, and vesicle binding [48, 49]. Thus, it is of utmost importance to adequately understand the confinement effects on diffusion in a given system.

Application-wise, the confinement of nanoparticles is directly related to fabrication and development research. Notably, since nanoparticle fabrication involves methods of quality control, these methods must be able to quantify between different measures of noise impending their measurement. In the case of confinement effects, these effects often hinder diffusion, as described, which can indirectly bias the final reported measurement.

3.1 Brownian motion as a method for measurements of size in biology

As previously shown, the Stokes-Einstein diffusion relation is inferred to directly measure the size of a biological diffusing particle. In particular, this relation can be explicitly formalized for the hydrodynamic radius of a spherical nanoparticle.

$$a = \frac{k_b T}{6\pi\eta D(\vec{x})} \tag{3.1}$$

Methods such as nanoparticle-tracking analysis (NTA) or single-molecule particle tracking (SPT) are based on this method [26, 50].

However, there are other methods that can be used. As this thesis is not concerned with fluorescent methods, they will not be explained in depth, however, fluorescence correlation spectroscopy (FCS) works on similar ideas of measuring diffusion autocorrelation curves using a

fluorescent probe.

In compliment to single molecule, there are bulk methods as well. In particular, dynamic light scattering (DLS) allows to measure the size of molecules based on their shape function. In particular, the scattering intensity can be weighting to the inverse of a^6, which in turn returns the size of the sample. However, these methods are ill-posed for poly-disperse sample, which is one of the weaknesses of the DLS method.

3.2 Lipid Nanoparticles

The biological molecule of choice for this investigation of confinement is a useful one with lots of applications - the lipid nanoparticle (LNP).

The liposome is a spherical membrane of lipid subunit, each carrying a charge and hydrophobicity. The size of a single sub-unit is around 19 Å [51, 52]. Liposomes, however, are found to be between 20 nm – 3000 nm [53]. Liposomes and cellular vesicles are very similar, which naturally posed the question of drug delivery using a liposome model [54].

In recent years, the LNP was formulated - a collection of lipid based walls that are used to encapsulate a drug or cargo [55, 56]. These have applications in drug delivery and have been using in the SARS-Covid vaccine in 2020 [3, 57–59]. A diagram of a standard LNP, as well as CRYO-EM photographs are shown in Fig. 3.1 and Fig. **??**.

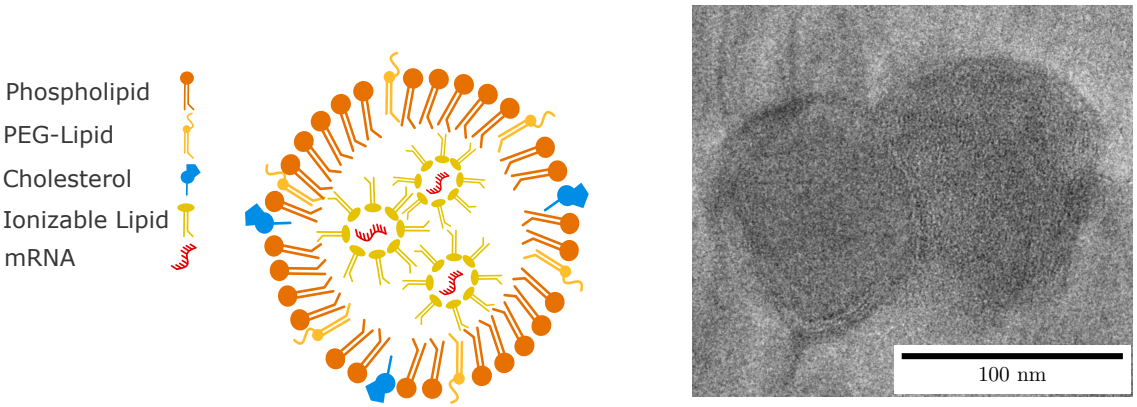


Figure 3.1: Lipid nanoparticle diagram and CRYO-EM image. CRYO-EM image obtained from the NIST Segmentation of Lipid Nanoparticles dataset (https://data.nist.gov/od/id/mds2-2753) [60]. Shown are KC2 LNPs at pH 7, with RNA taken at 0.223 nm per pixel.

One recent investigation of LNP research is within the functional differences based on the LNP topology type [61, 62]. These topologies have many different types, but typically the topologies are grouped into three main types - liposomal, spherical, and bleb-like. These three topologies not only have different structures, but also different length scales. The topologies are visualized in Fig. 3.2. and 3.3.

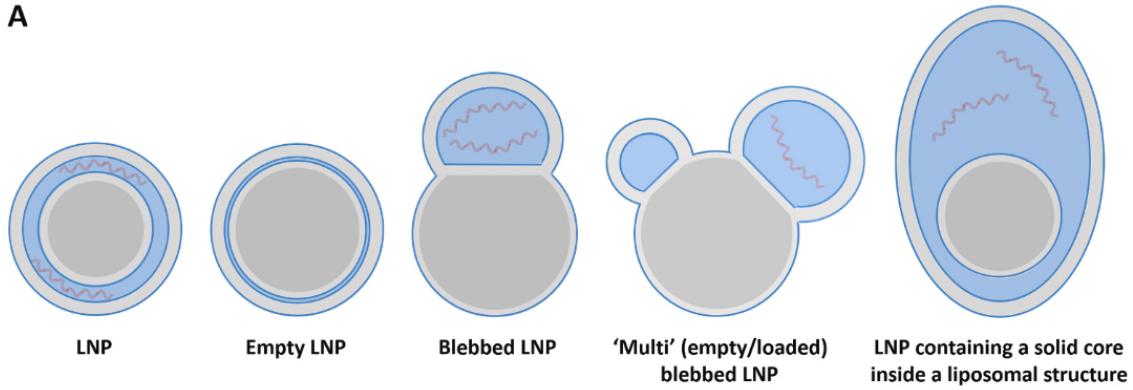


Figure 3.2: mRNA-LNP types diagram. Black is lipids, grey is hydrophobic region, red is mRNA, orange is oil-core. Taken from Fig. 2 of Simonsen, 2024 [61]. Creative Commons license.

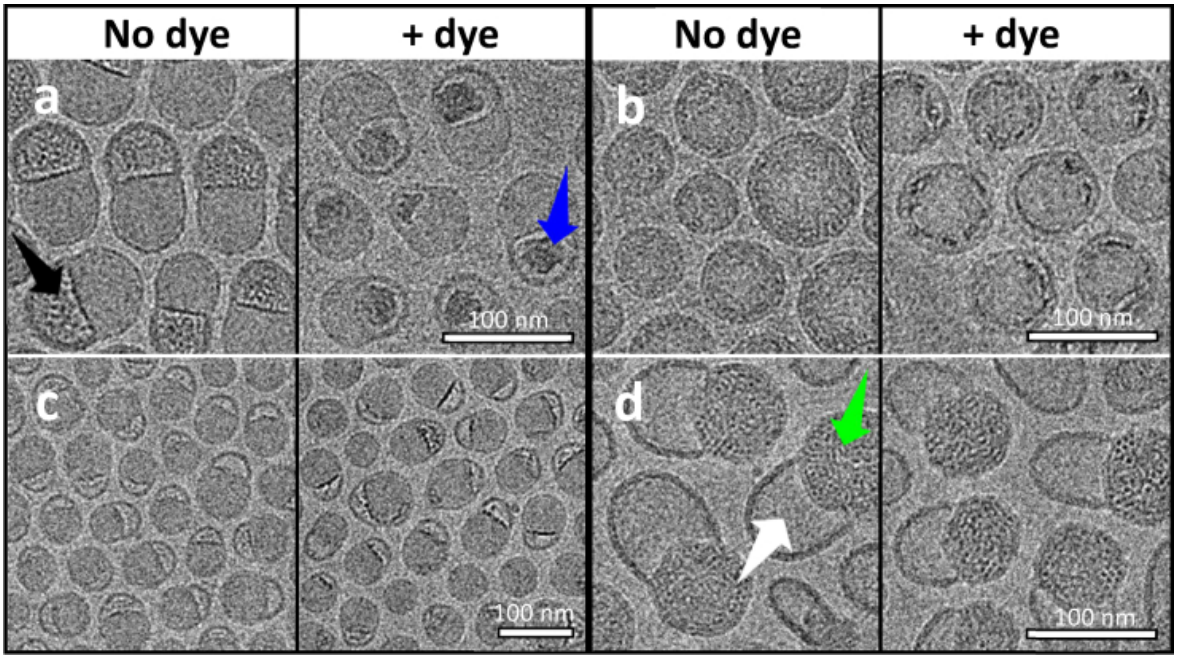


Figure 3.3: Locating encapsulated mRNA in LNPs by cryo-EM. Taken directly from Kloczewiak, 2022[62]. Creative Commons license.

Modern tools to image and characterize the LNP are split into single-molecule techniques and bulk assays [63, 64]. In the realm of single-molecule methods, CLiC has been shown to be a high-throughput, accurate, and reliable method to characterize these particle's properties [23–25, 41]. CLiC utilizes the confinement of particles to observe their untethered, random motion [65].

Chapter 4

Interferometric Scattering Microscopy Principles

To determine the physical properties of nanoparticles suspended in a fluid media, tracking movement of nanoparticles and reconstructing their spatial trajectories must be performed. To achieve this, a particle localization method that maintains a consistent signal over extended measurement periods is required. One method that enables such localization of particle traces is interferometric scattering microscopy, iSCAT [22].

iSCAT is an optical imaging technique that utilizes light scattering contrast to localize particle signal[22]. The particle's transverse position can be directly rendered by utilizing the scattering pattern's angular symmetry [2, 22, 66, 67]. Similarly, utilizing the phase difference in the scattering pattern between series of images, the relative axial distance can be measured[68]. The 3D positional information is encoded in the scattering pattern in iSCAT.

4.1 Light as a Casual field

On the quantum level, electromagnetic wave fields consist of photons [69]. This fact motivates the use of the theory of electromagnetic waves, in particular Maxwell's equations, to be applied to optical field. The optical field is defined with respect to light intensity, which is defined as the modulus of itself,

$$I = |\vec{E}(\vec{x}, t)|^2, \tag{4.1}$$

where $\vec{E}(\vec{x}, t)$ is defined as the optical field[1]. This principle relation allows us to form models using electromagnetic theory to map out how the optical fields behave.

[1]As opposed to an electric field, where $\vec{E}_{\text{optic}}(\vec{x}, t) = \sqrt{\varepsilon_0 n_m c/2}\vec{E}_{\text{elec}}(\vec{x}, t)$. The normalization constant affects how the fields relate to the measured light intensity [70]

4.2 Electromagnetic Scattering of Homogenous Spheres

When a homogenous particle is subjected to light produced by a monochromatic laser, a diffractive pattern is produced upon scattering [9, 44, 71]. These patterns can be captured by a camera, however, to extract positional information from this pattern, a mathematical model is required to describe it.

The optical theory of light will obey the Maxwell's equations, which motivates solutions to obey the wave equation for the electric and magnetic fields

$$\nabla^2 \vec{E} + k^2 \vec{E} = 0, \quad \vec{H} = \frac{1}{i\omega\mu_0} \nabla \times \vec{E}. \tag{4.2}$$

The eigenfunctions of the wave equation are the harmonics of the Laplacian operator, ∇^2, in an arbitrary coordinate basis [44, 72, 73]. For isotropic scattering, radial scattering, the spherical basis has been used in the literature [71]. The solutions of the vector-wave equation are known as the vector spherical harmonics.

Let ψ be a solution to the scalar wave equation,

$$\nabla^2 \psi + k^2 \psi = 0, \tag{4.3}$$

then the function generator of the general solution is taken by the sum of the components. This solution is given by the separable form [44],

$$\begin{aligned} \psi(r, \theta, \phi) &= \Phi(\phi)\Theta(\theta)R(r), \\ \Phi(\phi) &\in \{\cos(m\phi), \sin(m\phi)\}, \\ \Theta(\theta) &= P_n^m(\cos\theta), \\ R(r) &\in \{j_n, y_n, j_n + iy_n, j_n - iy_n\}. \end{aligned} \tag{4.4}$$

The symbols j_n, y_n represent the spherical Bessel functions. Their complex sums, $j_n \pm iy_n$, are the Hankel functions. The vector spherical harmonics are best described by separating these solutions into even and odd solutions as their pre-factor will be cos or sin respectively. This is found in Eqn. 4.17 to 4.20 in book written by Bohren [71],

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{M}_{emn} = \vec{\nabla} \times (\vec{r}\psi_{emn}), \quad \vec{M}_{omn} = \vec{\nabla} \times (\vec{r}\psi_{omn}), \\ \vec{N}_{emn} = \frac{1}{k}\vec{\nabla} \times \vec{M}_{emn}, \quad \vec{N}_{omn} = \frac{1}{k}\vec{\nabla} \times \vec{M}_{omn.} \end{aligned} \tag{4.5}$$

A scattering solution will consist of incident and scattering light. The incident light is assumed to be a polarized plane wave along the x axis without loss of generality. The general form of these equations are then the sum of the spherical vector harmonics. When subjected to the energy

conservation boundary condition written as

$$(\vec{E}_i + \vec{E}_s - \vec{E}_1) \times \hat{r} = (\vec{H}_i + \vec{H}_s - \vec{H}_1) \times \hat{r} = 0, \tag{4.6}$$

and the orthogonality of the spherical vector harmonics is utilized, the exact solution can be found. This is known as the Mie Theory form of the scattering of light off of a dielectric sphere [71],

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{E}_i &= E_0 e^{ikr\cos\theta}\hat{x} \\ \vec{E}_s &= \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} E_n(ia_n \vec{N^{(1)}}_{e1n} - b_n \vec{M^{(1)}}_{o1n}), \\ \vec{E}_1 &= \sum_{n=1}^{\infty} E_n(ic_n \vec{M^{(1)}}_{o1n} - d_n \vec{N^{(1)}}_{e1n}). \end{aligned} \tag{4.7}$$

In this thesis, only the scattering field was taken into consideration. The amplitude factors of interest are,

$$\begin{aligned} a_n &= \frac{m\Psi(mx)\Psi'(x) - \Psi(x)\Psi'(mx)}{m\Psi(mx)\xi'(x) - \xi(x)\Psi'(mx)}, \\ b_n &= \frac{\Psi(mx)\Psi'(x) - m\Psi(x)\Psi'(mx)}{\Psi(mx)\xi'(x) - m\xi(x)\Psi'(mx)}, \end{aligned} \tag{4.8}$$

where Ψ, ξ are the Riccatti-Bessel functions [71].

The formulation of such a system allows for discussion of scattering in full generality. However, due to computational and time limitations, Mie theory is often not the most optimal choice unless necessary. In the context of iSCAT microscopy, the size of the particle can be compared to that of the size of the wavelength of light. However, Mie theory is the most utilized theory in the literature [67, 74, 75].

4.3 Rayleigh Scattering

As particle size decreases and is observed from far away, approximations can be made to simplify the form of the scattering equations. As commonly done in theoretical physics, approximations can be taken without degrading the quality of approximation in the length-scale of interest [44, 73]. Notably, as the product, $kr \ll 1$, the Hankel function in Eqn. 4.7 approaches the form of a spherical wave function,

$$h_n(kr) \xrightarrow{kr\gg 1} (-i)^{n+1}\frac{e^{ikr}}{kr}. \tag{4.9}$$

In the length-scale where particles are of comparable size to the wavelength of light, $a_1 \approx \frac{-2i}{3}(ka)^3\frac{m^2-1}{m^2+2}$, and $b_1 \approx 0$. Thus for $n = 1$, $\pi_1 = 1, \tau_1 = \cos\theta$. Thus, the vector spherical harmonics are approximated by the spherical wave forms,

$$\begin{aligned} M^{(3)} &\approx (-i)^{n+1}\frac{e^{ikr}}{kr}\left(\cos\phi\pi_n\hat{\theta} - \sin\phi\tau_n\hat{\phi}\right), \\ N^{(3)} &\approx (-i)^{n+1}\frac{e^{ikr}}{kr}\left(\cos\phi\pi_n\hat{\theta} - \sin\phi\tau_n\hat{\phi}\right). \end{aligned} \tag{4.10}$$

Using these two equations, the scattering equation, known as the Rayleigh approximation, describes the full scattering field as a simple sum,

$$\vec{E}_s = \frac{iE_0e^{ikr}}{kr}\left[\hat{\theta}\cos\phi\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\frac{2n+1}{n(n+1)}(a_n\tau_n + b_n\pi_n) + \hat{\phi}\sin\phi\sum_{n=1}^{\infty}\frac{2n+1}{n(n+1)}(a_n\pi_n + b_n\tau_n)\right]. \tag{4.11}$$

After substituting the terms for $n = 1$, the sum reduces significantly to the equations for transverse and axial scattering fields,

$$\begin{aligned} \vec{E}_{s,\perp} &= \vec{E}_{i,\perp}\frac{k^2\alpha e^{ikr}}{r}, \\ \vec{E}_{s,\parallel} &= \vec{E}_{i,\parallel}\frac{k^2\alpha e^{ikr}}{r}\cos\theta. \end{aligned} \tag{4.12}$$

Singling out the scattering field and noting the form of the wave-vector, $k = \frac{2\pi}{\lambda/n}$, the scattering field of spheres on the order of the length of the wavelength of the incident light is written in the commonly referenced form,

$$\vec{E}_s = \vec{E}_0e^{ikr}\frac{\sqrt{8}\alpha\pi^2n_m^2}{\lambda^2r}\sqrt{1+\cos\theta}. \tag{4.13}$$

This equation is the scattering field of an ideal Rayleigh particle. This equation has been used in the literature for axial estimation of iSCAT particles [2]. In addition, this equation provides a easily computable form of the scattering pattern for a general Rayleigh scatterer. This equation

is plotted for a various set of conditions as shown in Fig. 4.1.

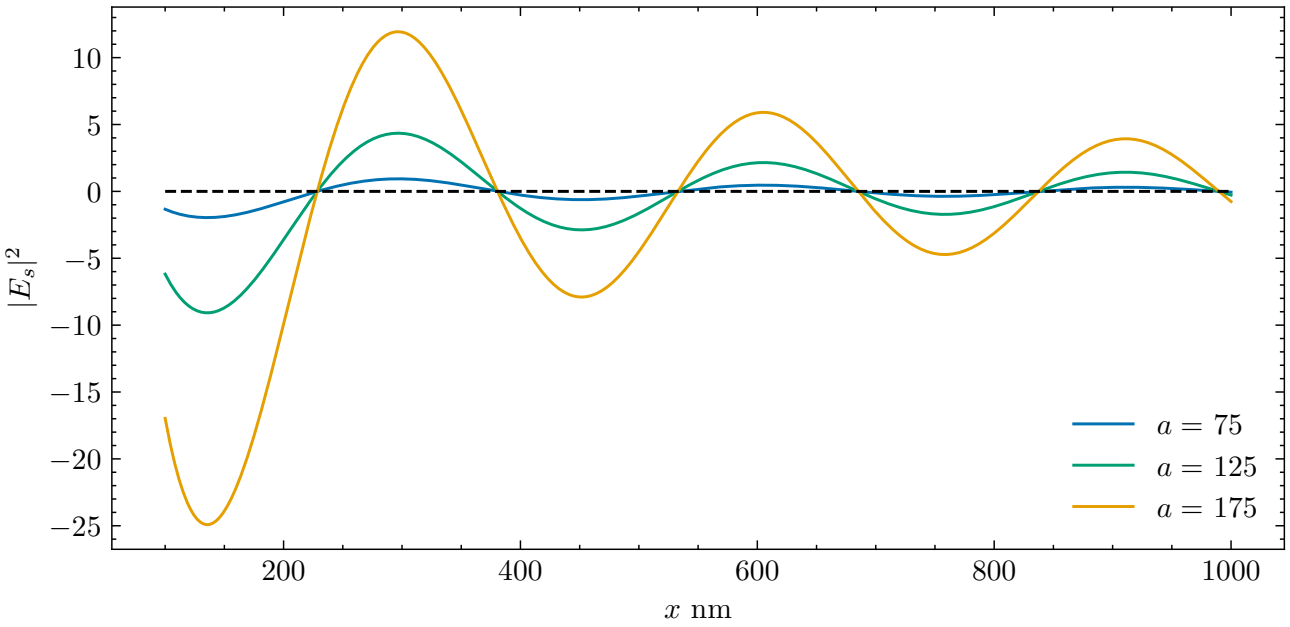


Figure 4.1: Rayleigh scattering pattern, Eqn. 4.13, plotted for various sized particles. Parameters fixed such that $\lambda = 405\,\text{nm}, n_m = 1.33, E_0 = 1, \theta = 0$. Particle parameters set as $n_p = 1.59, \alpha \propto V$. As the particle volume increases, the scattering pattern increases in amplitude.

4.4 Scattering Microscopy

As previously shown, the description of the scattered light from a sphere is fully described by Eqn. 4.7, known as the Lorenz-Mie scattering theory [71]. In the limit of particles on the order of the size of the wavelength of light, the Rayleigh model is an easier, equivalent method derived from Mie theory.

To collect the light, there have been three main schemes available; forward, side, and back-scattering microscopy schemes.

As shown in Fig. 7.7, the scattering distribution taken at different projections widely varies. In addition, the amount of light that gets collected in each of these length-scales also varies.

In the back-scattering scheme, the light collected is the sum of the incident light and the scattered light,

$$I(x, y) = |\vec{E}_r + \vec{E}_s|^2. \tag{4.14}$$

Given that the incident wave is known as a polarized plane wave, this equation can be rewritten for the scattered light;

$$I = E_r E_r^* + E_s E_s^* + 2\Re\left[E_r E_s\right]. \tag{4.15}$$

The incident field will be modulated by a scattering term, which is the Rayleigh scattering amplitude, S, as well as the reference term, R. Thus, the total intensity will be the sum of the scattering amplitude, reference amplitude, and the phase interference between the two fields;

$$I = |E_i|^2 \left[|R|^2 + |S|^2 + 2|R||S| \cos \Delta\varphi\right], \quad \Delta\varphi = \varphi_s \varphi_r. \tag{4.16}$$

Thus, the raw signal obtained by a camera is the total of the reference and scattered light. If this equation can be inverted to isolate the phase interference patterns of the scattered light, images of scatterers are able to be resolved.

4.5 Interferometric Light Scattering (iSCAT)

The principle operation in the iSCAT methodology is the relative magnitude of mathematical terms in the optical field [2, 22]. Here, the reference field can be assumed to be constant. The scattering field $R \approx k^4\alpha^2 = \frac{V^2}{\lambda^4}$. Similarly, the interference term scales as the square root of of the radius. Thus, the scattering term is dominated by the two terms, background and interference.

To accurately detect the particles, implying that the scattering term is neglected, the contrast metric can be used. This metric relates the total field to that of a reference field;

$$\begin{aligned} C &= \frac{I - |E_r|^2}{|E_r|^2} \\ &= \frac{|S|^2 + 2|R||S| \cos \Delta\varphi}{|R|^2}, \\ &\xrightarrow{|S| \ll |R|} \frac{2|S|}{|R|} \cos \Delta\varphi. \end{aligned} \tag{4.17}$$

The phases in the interference field consists of a sum of optical fields. These fields acquire phase differences as they traverse through space. Aberration effects from optical transformations are also acquired as spatial and phase terms.

The total phase is dominated by the Guoy phase, which is the sum of accumulated phase as the light passes through a converging or diverging lens [22]. The de-focusing phase is a relative phase shift due to misalignment in lens position which is described by the imaging condition equation [9].

Lastly, the phase difference from the inference term, which is compared to a Michelson-interferometer type system, is a dominant signal present directly in the iSCAT equation [22].

The final image consists of the collected phase modulated optical fields and the aberrations from optical misalignment. These parameters must be considered when performing analysis on iSCAT images.

4.6 3D Position Information from Optical Signal

To obtain information from the iSCAT technique, the holographic images obtained by from the iSCAT metric must be related to the theoretical scattering pattern from Maxwell's relation [2]. Specifically, this involves approximating the image captured on the camera to Eqn. 4.13.

The interferometric point spread function is defined as the contrast metric of the scattering off of a sub-diffraction sized particle,

$$\text{iPSF} \equiv \frac{2E_r E_s \cos\phi_d}{E_r^2}. \tag{4.18}$$

The Rayleigh scattering pattern has several parameters that have a degenerate effect on the iPSF [2]. To avoid problems in the image to equation fitting, the parameterization developed in Ref. [2] is used. This parameterization redefines the axial height and phase,

$$z_p' = z_p - z_f \tag{4.19}$$

$$\phi_0 = -\phi_{\text{ref}} + 2n_m k z_f + \arg(\alpha) \tag{4.20}$$

$$E_0 = \frac{E_i 4\sqrt{2}\pi^3|\alpha|}{E_r(\lambda/n_m)^3}. \tag{4.21}$$

This re-parameterization has been shown to have good agreement to complex models as demonstrated in Ref. [2]. The final model is presented as the following equation,

$$\text{iPSF} = 2E_0 \frac{1}{n_m k r_p}\sqrt{1+\left(z_p'/r_p\right)^2}\cos\left[-\left(\phi_0 + n_m k z_p' + n_m k r_p\right)\right]. \tag{4.22}$$

This function allows one to obtain the z position of a particle with respect to the objective from image data.

4.7 Resolution Limits of Optical Microscopy

There is a limit of resolution that can be achieved through optical methods [76]. The limit is described by the Abbe diffraction limit which states that the minimum distance between two resolvable particle is fixed by the light wavelength and objective's numerical aperture [76, 77].

Optical fields consists of a sum of plane waves that construct and deconstruct. The electric field can be decomposed into a Fourier series of exponential harmonics. [9]

To understand how the optical field modulates as it travels, the propagation equation can be written in a plane-wave basis [78],

$$\vec{E}(x,y,z) = \iint_\Omega \vec{E}_0(k_x,k_y)e^{-i\left(xk_x+yk_y+\sqrt{k^2-k_x^2-k_y^2}\right)}dk_x dk_y, \quad \Omega = \{x\in\mathbb{R} : x^2 \le k^2\}. \tag{4.23}$$

The energy of the wave is fixed by the trigonometric relation of the transverse wave vectors, fixed by the relation $|k| = \frac{2\pi}{\lambda}$.

The propagated wave passes through an objective which can be modeled by a lens. Using the standard ABCD matrix formulation, the imaging condition must be satisfied,

$$\frac{1}{z_1} + \frac{1}{z_2} = \frac{1}{f_{\text{lens}}}, \tag{4.24}$$

where z_1, z_2 are the positions of the observer and the object, and f_{lens} is the focal distance of the lens [9]. The magnification of the lens is defined as $M = z_2/z_1$.

To define a field formulation for this system, the propagation equation can be used. The incoming light that passes through the finite area of a lens is defined a pupil function $P(x, y)$ which is unitary if $r \leq R$, where R is the radius of lens. The point spread function of the object is then defined as a delta-function through a two lens system. The measured optical field is given by the Fourier transform of the product of the pupil function and the delta-function [78],

$$H(x, y) = \iint_{\Omega} P(x', y') e^{\frac{ik}{2}\left(\frac{1}{z_1} - \frac{1}{f_1} - \frac{1}{f_2} + \frac{1}{z_2}\right)\sqrt{x'^2} + y'^2} e^{-\frac{ik}{z_2}(xx' + yy')} dx' dy'. \tag{4.25}$$

Expanding this field, one can use a zero-order Hankel transform to integrate over the radius and find that the point-spread function, H, is defined in terms of the numerical aperture and the magnification;

$$H(r, z) = \int_0^1 e^{-\frac{ik}{2}\frac{\text{NA}^2}{n}\rho^2 z} J_0\left(\frac{k\text{NA}}{M}\rho r\right) \rho d\rho, \tag{4.26}$$

where ρ is the rescaled radial vector $\rho = r'/R$, $\text{NA} = nR/f_1$, and $M = nf_2/f_1$ [78].

In perfect focus, $z = 0$, and the image is the point spread function. For $z \neq 0$ there is a defocusing aberration which is defined as the secondary exponential. For a point source, which is diffraction limited, the following is the limit of the optical microscope,

$$H(r, 0) = \left| \frac{J_1(k\text{NA}r)}{k\text{NA}r} \right|^2. \tag{4.27}$$

Solving for the minimum distance between the peak of the PSF and the minimum, the relation $k\text{NA}r = x_0$ defines the minimum transverse imaging condition, where x_0 is the first root of $J_1(x)$. This is known as the transverse Abbe diffraction limit,

$$r_{\text{min}} = 0.61\frac{\lambda}{\text{NA}}. \tag{4.28}$$

Similar results are found for the minimum axial imaging criterion by setting $r = 0$ and integrating.

$$z_{\text{min}} = \frac{2\lambda n}{\text{NA}^2} \tag{4.29}$$

These equations impose fundamental resolution limitations to general optical microscopes and must be taken into account when interpretting microscopy data.

4.8 Sources of Noise in Optical Imaging

In imaging, there is a number of sources of aberrations that one must account for. The sources of noise depend on the optical system used. For a general imaging system, one only requires a single lens for imaging. This simple setup is shown in Fig 4.2.

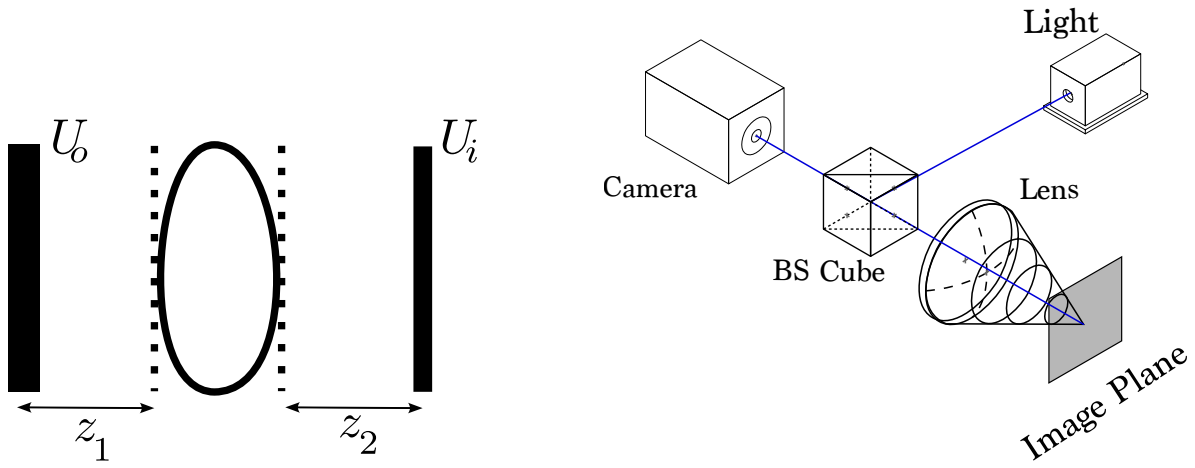


Figure 4.2: Simple imaging setup. Left, a lens is placed before an object. The light focuses on an imaging plane. The schematic consists of a feasible setup. Right, an image consists of a plane wave illumination, a lens, and a camera.

For such a system, the sources of noise are the point spread function noise, Guoy phase aberrations, background noise, electronic noise, and spherical aberrations [79, 80].

The optical point spread noise originates from the transformations of light passing through optical components.

Each lens used in an optical path will collect light from the object plane, U_o to a transformed plane, U_i. The propagation of that wave will collect aberration from the lens point spread function, as well as phase accumulation. The traversal over the point spread function is given by the equation,

$$U_i(x_i, y_i) = \iint_{\mathbb{R}^2} h(x_i, y_i, x_o, y_o) U_o(x_o, y_o) dx_o dy_o, \tag{4.30}$$

where $h(x_i, y_i, x_o, y_o)$ is known as the optical transfer function, or the response of a lens to a point-source. The lens magnification is incorporated into this using the following approximation;

$$h(x_i, y_i, x_o, y_o) \approx K\delta(x_i \pm Mx_o, y_i \pm My_o) \tag{4.31}$$

where K is a complex constant and M is a real-valued magnification. Each lens causes a small amount of aberration and misalignment which spatially limits the final optical field.

The phase accumulation, known as the Guoy phase, originates from plane waves converging to a gaussian beams when passed through a lens [9]. The plane wave is tightened and forms a beam-waist around the lens focal point. As this focusing occurs, there is a phase that is accumulated and equal to

$$\psi_g(z) = \arctan\left(\frac{z}{z_R}\right), \quad z_r = \frac{\pi w_0^2 n}{\lambda}, \tag{4.32}$$

where w_0 is the waist of the final beam, n is the refractive index, and λ is the wavelength of light. In imaging, as long as the refractive index is constant, the phase is shift is equal to π.

In optical microscopy where a reference or excitation field is used, a background beam or illumination is present. The background noise profile will take the shape of the illumination profile alongside the intensity of the power density [2, 22].

The camera noise consists of electronic noise associated with the model and electronic design. For general CMOS cameras, the noise present will consist of photon noise from the detectors and readout noise from the data-transfer. These noises can be modeled as Poisson noise from the photon detections and a gaussian for the readout noise [79].

In the case of using an imperfect lens, or a set of lenses as one has with an objective as one does in high magnification microscopy, there is a risk of spherical aberration. Spherical aberrations are caused by imperfections and misalignments in the lens itself. This cases the focal point of the lens to be slightly different depending on which area the light is focused by lens [81]. For imaging purposes, spherical aberrations cause various parts of the image to be out of focus, while others are in focus, creating non-uniform images.

Chapter 5

Interferometric Scattering Microscope Optical System

To observe single nanoparticle diffusion, an iSCAT microscope system was developed[1]. A scattering microscope is able to resolve nanoparticle three-dimensional position without a loss of signal over time, as presented in Chap. 4. The presented microscope optical system is able to track nanoparticles in three-dimensions by capturing a series of interference images with a CMOS camera. The table in Tab. 5.1 shows the iSCAT microscope component list.

Component	**Product ID**	**Manufacturer**
Laser head	LDM-405-500-C	Lasertack GMBH
Mirror	BB1-E02P	Thorlabs
SF Lens 1 ($f = 40\,\mathrm{mm}$)	AC254-040-A-ML	Thorlabs
SF Pinhole ($20\,\mu\mathrm{m}$)	P20K	Thorlabs
SF Lens 2 ($f = 250\,\mathrm{mm}$)	AC508-250-A-ML	Thorlabs
Objective focusing lens	BB1-E02P	Thorlabs
Polarizing beam splitter	05BC15PH.13	Newport
Beam splitter mount	9411	New Focus
Quarter-wave plate	WPQ10E-405	Thorlabs
$60\times/1.42$ Oil-immersion objective	MRD71670	Nikon
Tube lens ($f = 40\,\mathrm{mm}$)	AC254-040-A-ML	Thorlabs
sCMOS camera	PCO.EDGE 4.2	Excelitas

Table 5.1: Optical components of the iSCAT microscope.

[1]The iSCAT microscope was built as a collaborative effort as part of two CFI grants before the start of the author's thesis period. The first CFI grant was written in 2020 and awarded in 2021. The second was written in 2022 and awarded in 2023. The microscope parts were ordered by Dr. Eric Boateng as based on Ref. [82–84]. The assembly and software was completed by Dr. Erik Olsén with assistance from the Grant lab at UBC. Schematics and figures in this thesis were developed by the author.

5.1 Optical System Diagram

The iSCAT microscope system was designed based on prior work by the Kukura lab [83, 84]. The iSCAT microscope is a wide-field optical system that illuminates the whole field of view with a coherent laser light. The iSCAT diagram was shown in Fig. 5.1.

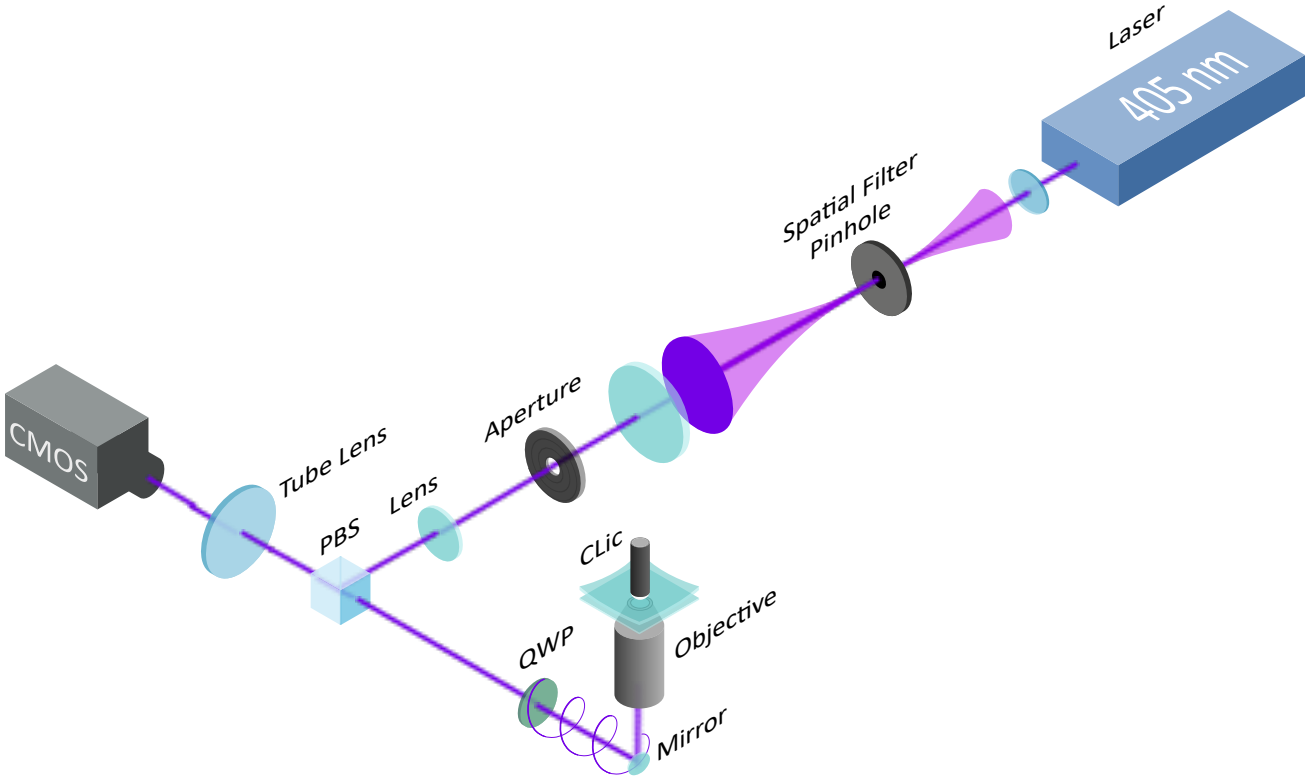


Figure 5.1: Isometric iSCAT Schematic. A laser is first shaped using a spatial filter for a gaussian beam profile. The gaussian beam is sized by an aperture and focused into the back-plane of an objective. During the focusing, the light is circularily polarized. At the sample plane, two coverslips are placed for sample containment. To control the gap between the two coverslips, the convex-lens induced confinement (CLiC) system is used. The scattered and reflected light is collected through a polarizing beam-splitter and the final image is focused on a CMOS camera array.

The laser illumination is provided by a 405 nm laser with a beam-width of 1 mm. The laser beam travels through a $4f$-lens system, consisting of a spatial filter, to optimize beam shape, and a beam expander, to enlarge the beam diameter. The shaped beam is then passed through an aperture, which is used to adjust for various camera array sizes. The beam then is passed into a focusing lens, which directs it towards the objective. The beam first passes through a polarizing beam splitter, which partially reflects the linearly polarized light. The reflected light passes through a quarter-wave plate, which circularly polarizes the light. The circularly polarized light is then focused on the back plane of the objective. The objective focuses the light onto the sample plane, and the sample scatters the light back into the objective. The scattered light is then passed back through the quarter-wave plate, linearly polarizing it. The light is then transmitted through the beam splitter and focused onto the CMOS camera.

The sample is contained between two glass cover-slips separated by a plastic spacer. To control the gap between the two coverslips, the convex-lens induced confinement (CLiC) system is used. The CLiC device is manually controlled with a control-box, which is not shown on the diagram. The control-box connects to a piezo controlled actuator and regulates the pushing force with fine precision.

5.2 Experimental Optical Table Overview

The laboratory implementation shown in Fig. 5.1, was assembled on an optical table. Fig. 5.2 and 5.3 show the lab setup.

The 405 nm laser, fabricated by Coherent, was controlled by a Thorlabs laser driver, which varies the output power. The laser driver was set to 850 mW which outputted a laser light intensity of ~ 220 mW.The Thorlabs power meter was able to measure the output light intensity with high accuracy. The laser driver is shown in Fig. 5.4.

Imaging was performed with an oil-immersion objective with magnification factor 60× and numerical aperture NA = 1.4. The immersion oil was used required to match the refractive-index of the coverglass to the objective. The tube lens, located in front of the CMOS camera, was selected with a magnification factor of 2×. The total optical magnification factor was 120×. The final image was digitally zoomed such that each pixel represents 55×55 nm. Since the camera pixel array is 6.5 µm in size, it produces a total magnification of 118×.

The camera used was the PCO.EDGE 4.2. This camera has a pixel array of 2048×2048 with pixel size 6.5×6.5 µm. The camera can produce images of the full field of view at a maximum rate of 40 fps. When a smaller field of view is used, the camera can reach up to 1000 fps. The camera saves the images with the timestamps to provide precise frame-rates.

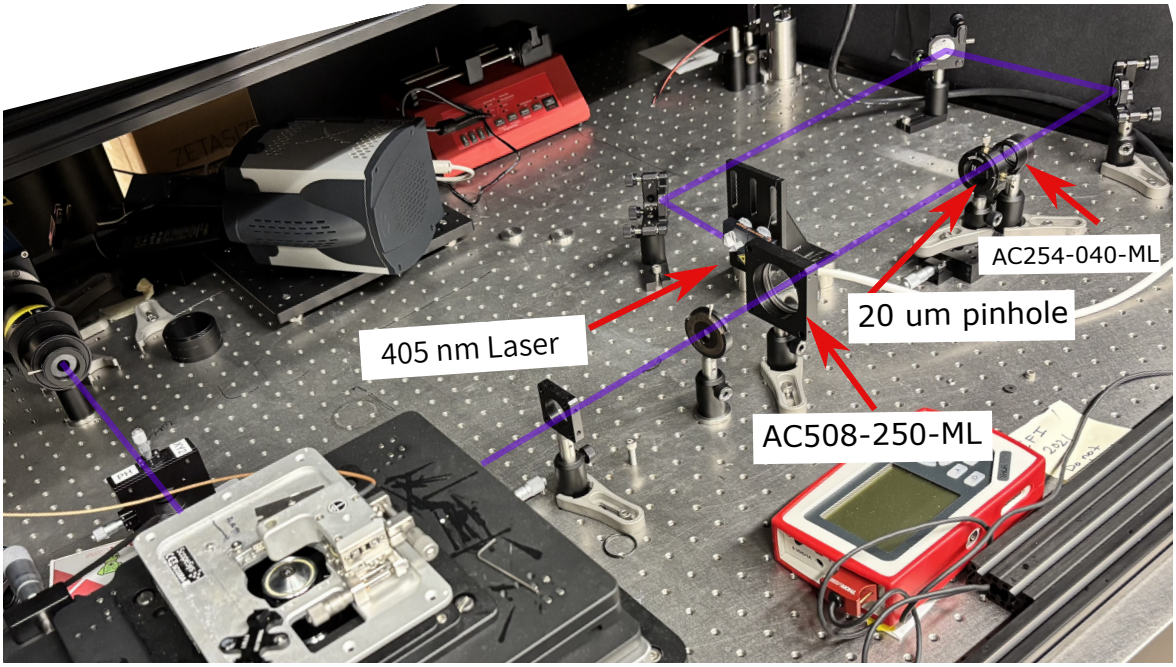


Figure 5.2: Optical table for the iSCAT microscope. Photographed at the Leslie lab, UBC.

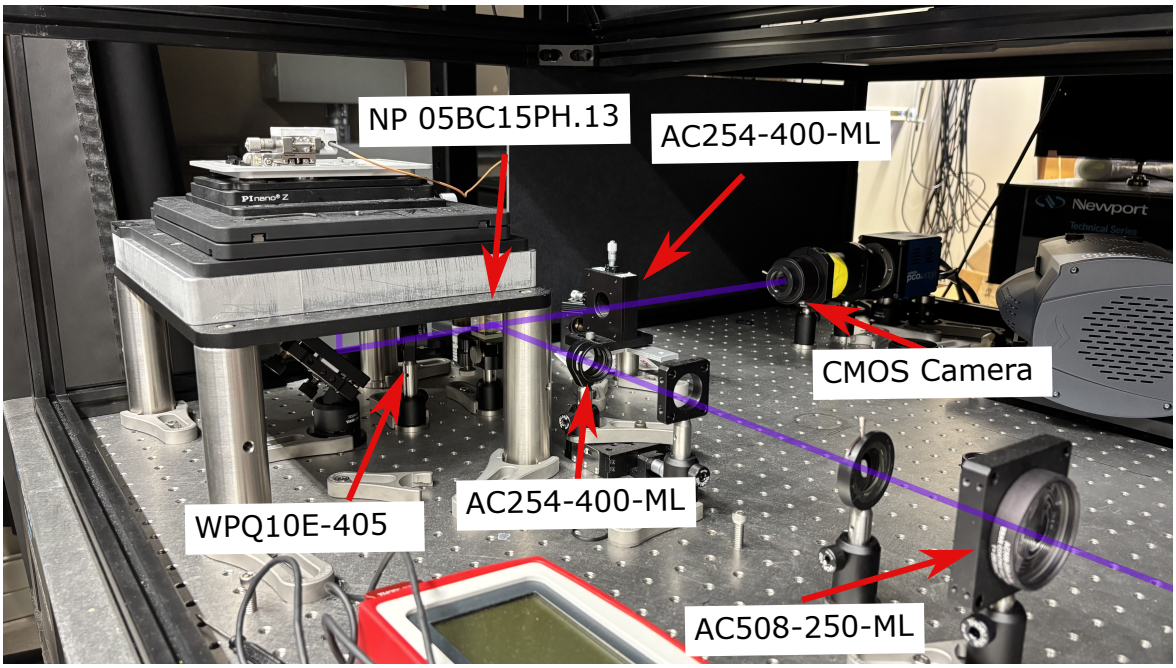


Figure 5.3: Optical table for the iSCAT microscope. Photographed at the Leslie lab, UBC.

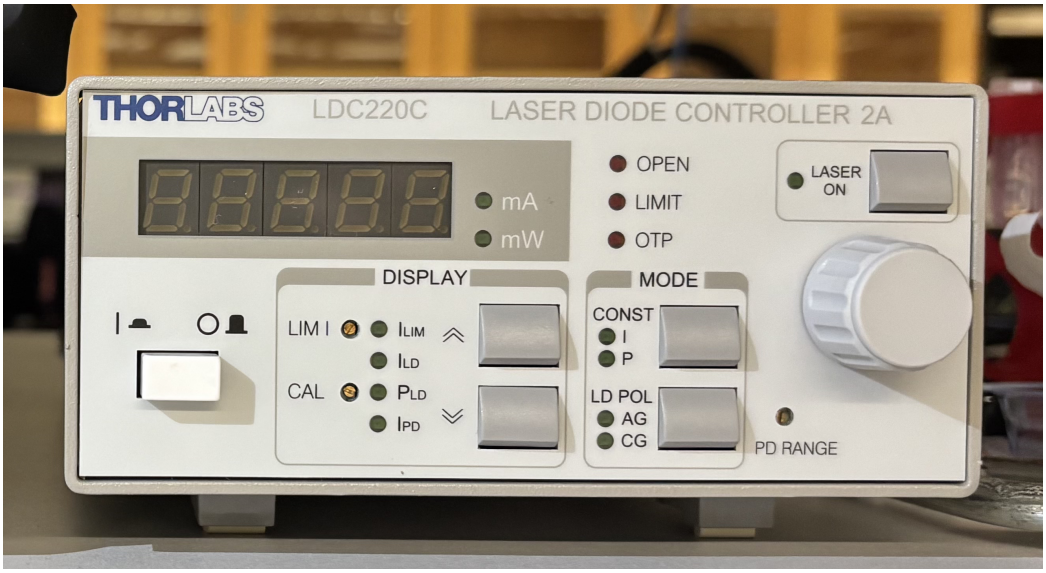


Figure 5.4: Laser Driver for the 405 nm

5.3 System Parameters

The optical system parameters consist of technical specifications that are used to compare and contrast optical systems. These parameters are listed in Tab. 5.2.

Quantity	**Symbol**	**Value**
Wavelength	λ	405 nm
Power at Source	I_{Input}	240 mW
Power into QWP	I_{Out}	120 mW
Illumination Angle	θ_{ill}	45°
Objective magnification	M_{Obj}	60 ×
Objective numerical aperture	NA	1.4
Tube lens focal length	f_{TL}	40 mm
CMOS camera array length	l_{px}	6.5 µm
Digital pixel length	l_{dg}	55 nm
Camera frame-rate	fps	$40 - 1000$ fps
CMOS array type	—	sCMOS
Array ROI	ROI	2048×2048
Exposure time	τ	0.0001 sec
Temporal resolution	fps · ROI	$(401 \cdot 250) \cdot 1000$

Table 5.2: System Parameters for iSCAT Illumination, objective, and camera settings.

The laser power measured at the objective is sufficient. The contrast between the background and the particle signal is a function of the exposure time and laser power. The current laser power allows for clear contrast between the particles and background at a low exposure time, allowing for a high frame rate.

The speed of the camera is sufficient. For a large ROI, 401×450, the frame-rate is 400 fps. For smaller ROI, 201×250, the frame-rate is 1000 fps. The mean step length of a 200 nm particle in water at these conditions is ~ 100 nm. For axial explorations, this frame-rate is sufficient. For transient measurements, the viscosity can be added to reduce this step length by a factor of $10 - 100\times$. This frame-rate allows for resolutions of ~ 1 nm.

The pixel size of this setup is sufficient for scattering data. Since the scattering pattern is much larger than the particle, clear iPSF images can be recovered.

5.4 Alignment Procedure

The system's alignment is divided into three portions, the laser input, objective illumination, and the camera detection.

The alignment of the illumination does not need to be adjusted once aligned. The system is aligned to a spatial filter, which consists of a 20 µm pinhole. This pinhole constrains the position

and angle of the laser beam. The alignment is thus easy to diagnose as a misaligned laser beam at this stage would significantly drop the laser power into the objective.

The alignment of the objective is quite stable, however, requires maintenance when significantly altering the objective positions. The mirror directing the laser beam into the objective is fixed with screws and is placed 1 cm from the optical table, minimizing thermal expansion.

The alignment of the quarter wave-plate is stable and can be regularly altered to adjust for on-the-fly measurements. Specifically, to adjust the reflectance into the camera, the QWP is angularly adjusted and spatially rotated during measurements. Once in place, the QWP does not need to be adjusted. Thus the QWP is often adjusted during the start of measurement to optimize the SNR.

5.5 Future Improvements

Future additions and improvements can be made to optimize the usability and frame-rate. The camera frame-rate, although sufficient for work done in this thesis, can be improved upon to obtain transient information in water. To do this, the cameras can be replaced to faster frame-rate models. In other methods, more cameras could be added and synced to have a frame-rate offset that allows for sequential image capture. This additional camera acquisition would effectively double the frame-rate, which would significantly improve the effective temporal resolution of the microscope system.

Chapter 6

Simulations of Diffusion of Nanoparticles in Double-Layer Walls

Langevin dynamics are a framework for computational simulations that model the model of particles by accounting for both random thermal fluctuations arising from surrounding environment and deterministic forces such as external fields or interactions with other particles.

This chapter describes a simulation model of nanoparticle brownian motion within a confined space subject to electrostatic field generated by two parallel charged surfaces.

Python software was written based on prior Langevin python implementation published on Github [1]. Langevin algorithms were implemented and parameterized to account for physical electrostatic forces and charge quantities.

Using the software, statistical averages of the particle motion was calculating for a range of electrostatic screenings length presented in the sections below.

6.1 Simulation Equations

The general Langevin equation is generally written as

$$m\ddot{\vec{x}}(t) = -\lambda\dot{\vec{x}}(t) + \vec{F}(t) + \Gamma\vec{W}(t), \tag{6.1}$$

where λ is a velocity dependent friction coefficient, Γ is the magnitude of fluctuation, $\vec{F}(t)$ is a deterministic force, and $\vec{W}(t)$ is a vector random variable.

The Langevin equation programmed into the software is described as

$$m\ddot{\vec{x}}(t) = -\gamma(z)\dot{\vec{x}}(t) + \vec{F}(\vec{x}(t)) + \sqrt{2k_bT\gamma(z)}\vec{W}(t), \tag{6.2}$$

where physical magnitudes are implemented; $\gamma(z)$ is an axially dependent hydrodynamic friction depending on how close the particle is to a surface. The diffusion coefficient in an axially dependent friction is written using the Stokes-Einstein relation,

$$D(z) = \frac{k_b T}{\gamma(z)}. \tag{6.3}$$

In over-damped case, where $m\ddot{\vec{x}} \ll 1$, the the equations of motion can be written as

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{dx}{dt} &= \sqrt{2D_x(z)}W_x(t) \\ \frac{dz}{dt} &= \sqrt{2D_z(z)}W_z(t) + \frac{F_z(z)}{\gamma(z)}, \end{aligned} \tag{6.4}$$

as described in Eqn. 7 of Ref. [1]. This model is especially valid for particles of diameter between $10\,\text{nm} - 100\,\mu\text{m}$. This model is valid for particle such as PMMA, carboxylate-modified polystyrene, and similar materials.

Since $\vec{W}(t)$ is a random, non-analytical function, classical ODE methods of time evolution do not apply. To simulate the stochastic portion, the Euler-Maruyama method was used.

Eqn. 6.4 can be written into the Itô form,

$$\begin{aligned} dX_t &= \sqrt{2D_x(z)}dW_x \\ dZ_t &= \sqrt{2D_z(z)}dW_z + \frac{F_z(z)}{\gamma(z)}dt, \end{aligned} \tag{6.5}$$

where stochastic quantities are indicated in capital letters.

In the Itô form, the Euler-Maruyama equations are written as a pair of discrete time-step evolutions. Each equation described a random realization of the position, $\vec{x}(t)$, that depends on the random function, $\vec{W}(t)$. The equations are programmed into the software, referenced to as MJ_LANGEVINSIMULATIONS,

$$\begin{aligned} x_{n+1} &= x_n + \sqrt{2D_x(z_n)}W_{x,n}\Delta t \\ z_{n+1} &= z_n + \left[D_z'(z_n) - \beta D_z(z_n)V'(z_n) + \sqrt{2D_z(z_n)}W_{x,n}\right]\Delta t, \end{aligned} \tag{6.6}$$

where $V(z)$ is the electrostatic potential, $\beta = 1/k_b T$, and Δt is the discretized time.

The software accepts parameters inputted from a generic config file and save results as a HDF5 file using the Python library H5PY.

6.2 Electrostatic Input Parameters

The deterministic portion of the Langevin equation in the simulations are determined by the electrostatic and gravitational forces acting on the particle. In the model of nanoparticles, the gravitational forces are negligible, leaving the electrostatic forces as the driving non-spurious drift. A diagram of the simulation geometry is shown in Fig. 6.1.

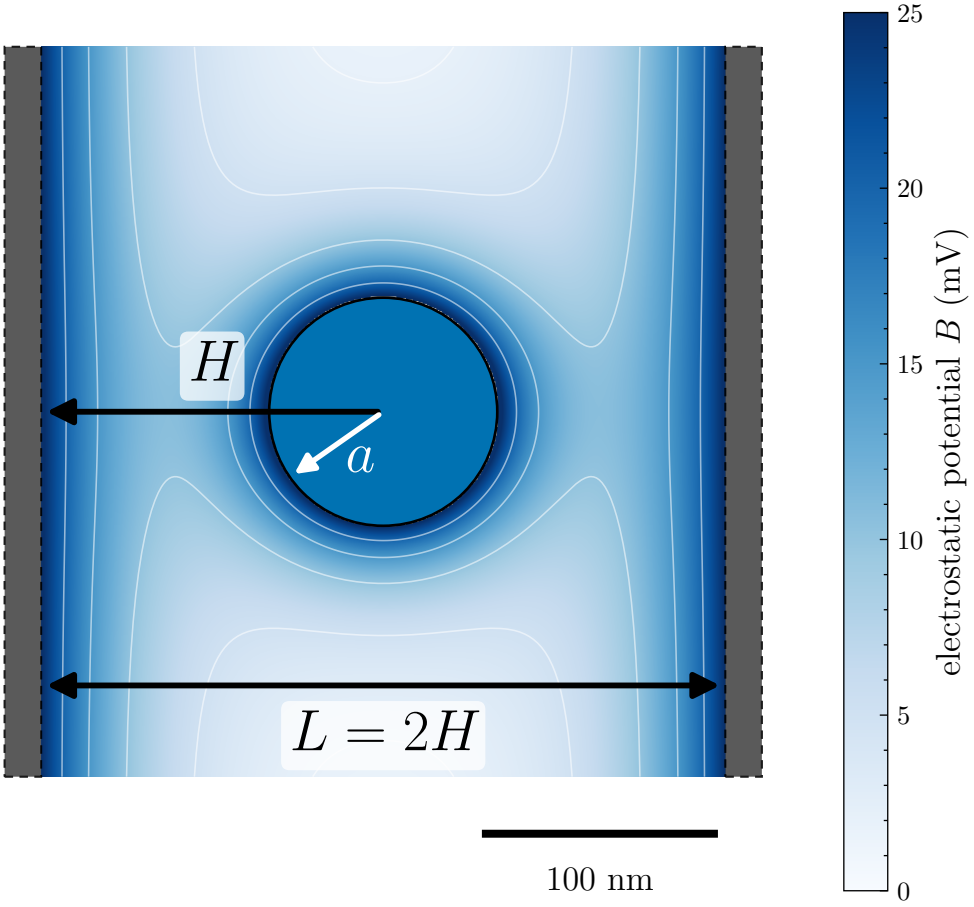


Figure 6.1: Model diagram of simulation geometry. A spherical particle of radius a is modeled between two charged parallel plates. The electrostatic potential, modelled by the Debye-Hückel screened electrostatic interactions, are drawn in a blue gradient.

The electrostatic forces that drive the dynamic motion are described by the following equations,

$$U(z) = B\left[e^{-(H-z)/\lambda_D} - e^{-(H+z)/\lambda_D}\right], \tag{6.7}$$

where the pre-factor, B, is described by the function $f : (\zeta_p, \sigma_w, a, \lambda_D, T)$. To ensure that the equations represents the sample of interest, the electrostatic amplitude is calculated from laboratory measurable quantities. The function is described the by the Guoy-Chapman equations in a linear-superposition approximation of a double-layer potential [43, 47],

$$B = C \cdot \tanh\left(\frac{e_0\zeta_p}{4k_bT}\right) \cdot \tanh\left(\frac{e_0\psi_w}{4k_bT}\right) \tag{6.8}$$

$$C = \frac{64\pi\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r a k_b T}{e_0^2} \tag{6.9}$$

$$\psi_w = \frac{2k_bT}{e_0}\text{asinh}\left[\frac{\sigma_w e_0 \lambda_D}{2\varepsilon_0\varepsilon_r k_b T}\right], \tag{6.10}$$

where ζ_p is the zeta-potential of the particle, ψ_w is the stern-layer potential for the surface walls, a is the particle radius, e_0 is the elementary charge value, and λ_D is the Debye-length of the solution. These equations are physically constrain the electrostatic field amplitude to ensure physical motion during the simulation process.

6.3 Python Simulation Implementation

The Langevin equations are implemented using PYTHON. The PYTHON version used for simulations was 3.13.5. The libraries NUMPY version 2.4.6, SCIPY version 1.18.0, and NUMBA version 0.99.0 were used as the main drivers for the simulations [7, 85, 86].

Since NUMBA uses a pre-compiled set of functions, it was more CPU efficient to write a parameter class and a simulator class separately.

The parameters class, PARAM holds the main parameters of the simulation. These parameters are shown in Tab. 6.2

Quantity	**Symbol**	**Default Value**
Particle Radius	a	50×10^{-9} m
Confinement Length	L	225×10^{-9} m
Debye Length	λ_D	10 nm
Electrostatic Amplitude	B	30
Temperature	T	300 K
Viscosity	η	1.0×10^{-3} Pa·s
Particle Permittivity	ε_r	80
Particle Density Difference	$\Delta\rho$	50 kg/m^3
Boltzmann Length	ℓ_B	None
Time Step	Δt	None

Table 6.1: Variables stored in the PARAM class.

This PARAM class has functions that calculates the current viscosity and forces based on some input z. These functions are described by the confined mobility relations and Debye-Hückel electrostatic forces in Chap 2.

Quantity	**Symbol**	**Input parameters**
Transverse Viscosity	γ_x	a, L, η, z
Axial Viscosity	γ_z	a, L, η, z
Transverse Diffusion coefficient	D_x	T, γ_x
Axial Diffusion coefficient	D_z	T, γ_z
Derivative of Axial Diffusion coefficient	D_z'	T, z, η, a
Gravitational Force	F_g	$z, a, l_B, \Delta\rho$
Electrostatic Force	F_{elec}	B, z, λ_D, T

Table 6.2: Methods of the PARAM class.

To iterate the simulation in time, a STEPTRAJ function is written that operates on elements of the PARAMS class. This is done to utilize NUMBA's pre-compiled library of functions. This function, which is written in a NUMBA JIT decorator, takes in elements from PARAMS class, the current axial position z, the number of sub-steps and a NUMPY randomizer seed for reproducibility. The function loops over the number of sub-steps.

First, the viscosities, spurious forces, and external force magnitudes are calculated in both the transverse and axial directions. The Euler-Maruyama equation is then calculated and the position of the particle is updated in both axises. The returned parameters are the time array and the axial and transverse positions as indexed by the time array.

The time complexity of this function is $\mathcal{O}(n)$, where n is the number of time steps. The number of simultaneous trajectories, M, does not affect time-complexity in applications used in this thesis. The time complexity of the model for one single trajectory of length τ is measured in Fig. 6.2. To illustrate this further, the case of two parallel trajectories are computed in Fig. 6.3.

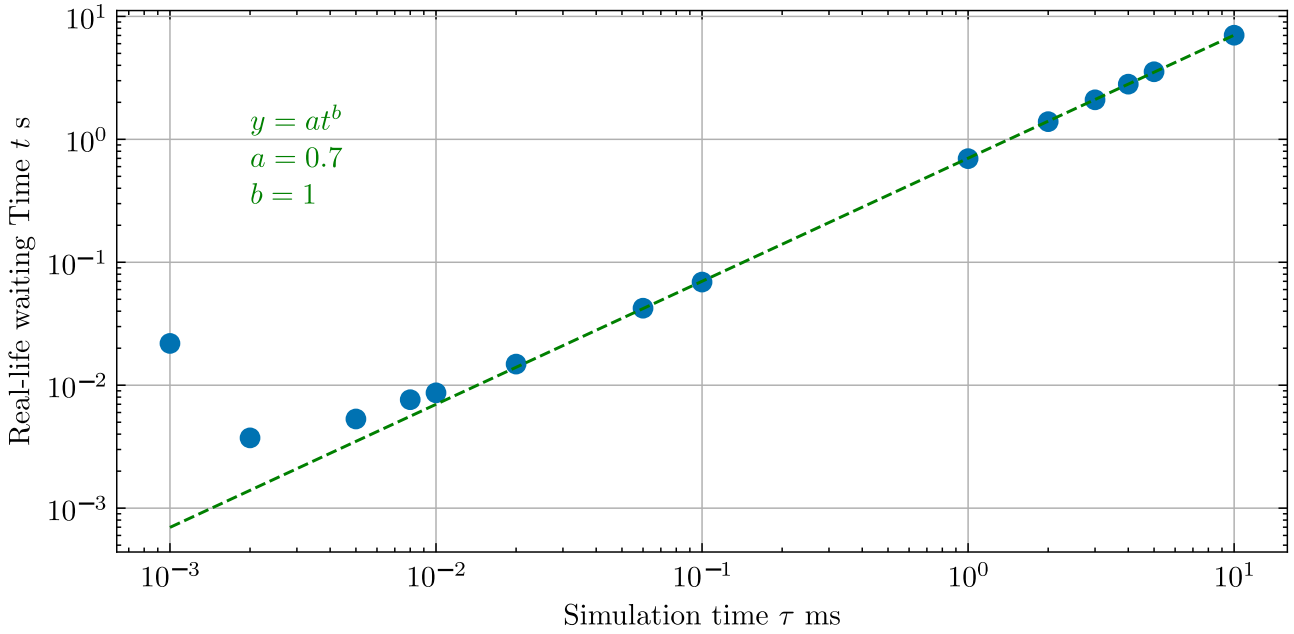


Figure 6.2: Langevin simulation function StepTraj time complexity. Simulation parameters are set as default with $dt = 2 \cdot 10^{-7}$. The number of simultaneous particles is 1, and the number of recorded positions consists of all of the points in the trajectory. In big-O notation, the time complexity is $\mathcal{O}(n^1)$. Simulations performed on a 2020 MacBook Pro with ARM M1 processor.

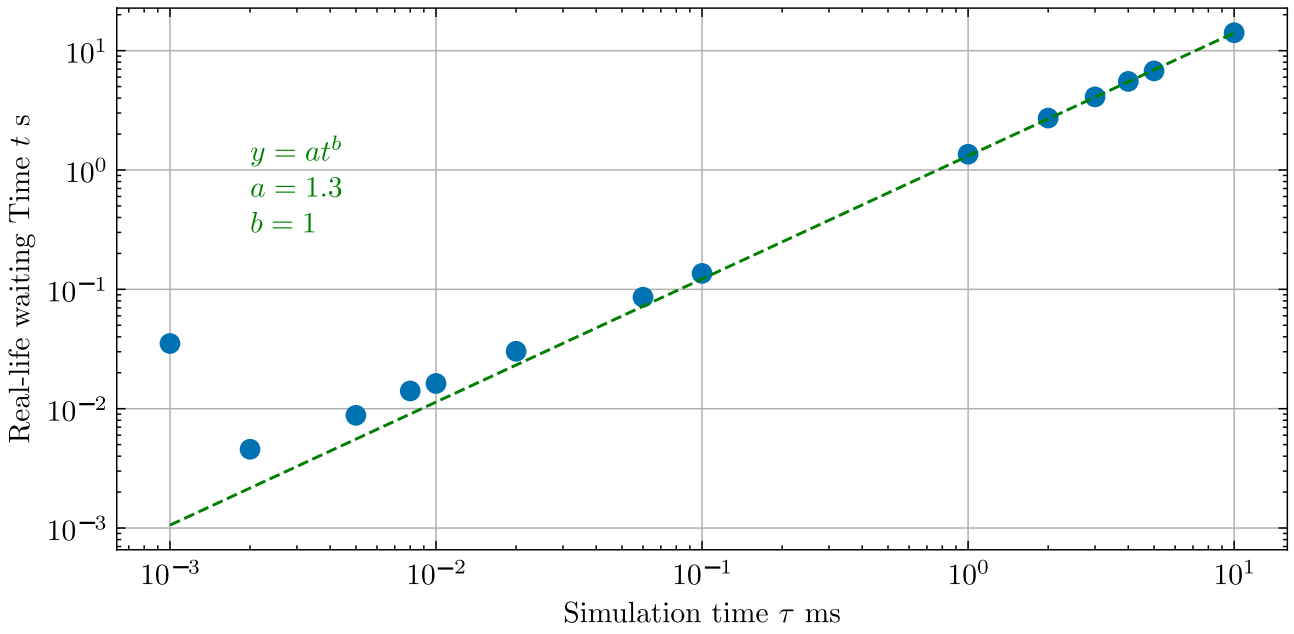
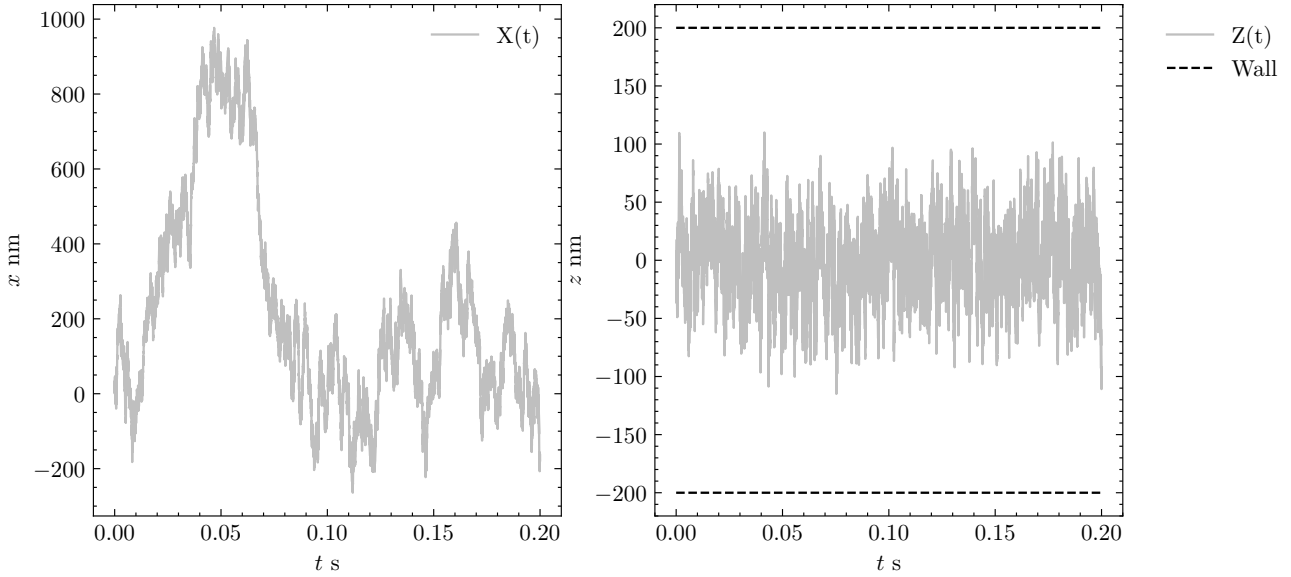


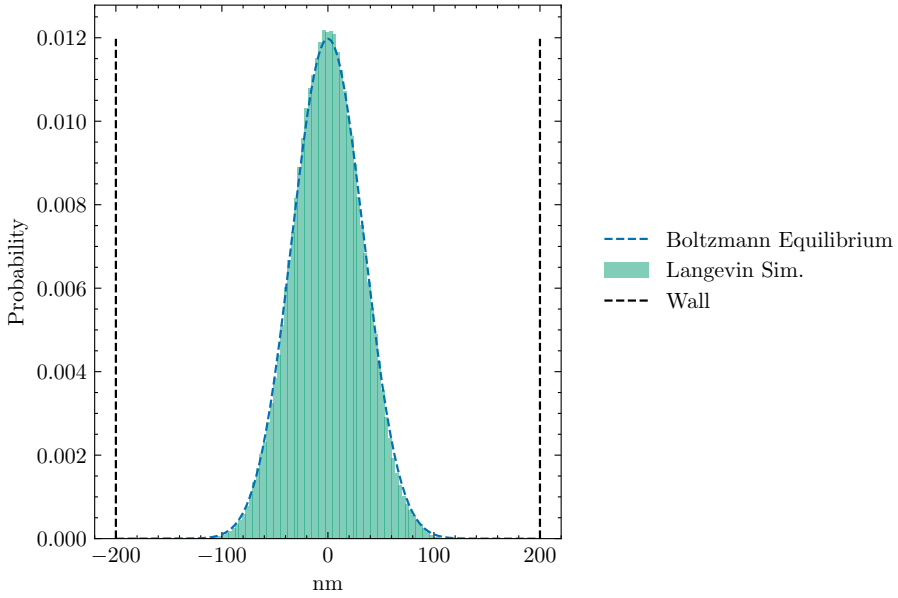
Figure 6.3: Langevin simulation function StepTraj time complexity. Simulation parameters are set as Fig. 6.2 with two parallel simulations.

6.4 Mean-Squared Displacement in Confinement

The simulation results provide three-dimensional trajectories of particles. From the trajectories, the mean-squared displacement can be calculated. The typical output of a simulation is shown in Fig. 6.4. The plot on the left depicts the transverse motion, $X(t)$. The plot on the right depicts the axial motion with respect to the confined walls. The plot in Fig. 6.4.



(a) Trajectories of transverse and axial motion during single realization of Langevin simulations.



(b) Histogram of position over time.

Figure 6.4: Confined Brownian Particle realization of z diffusion in electrostatic potential. The step-histogram is plotted in green. Simulation input parameters are $a = 50\,\text{nm}, \zeta_p = -3.5\,\text{mV}, \sigma_w = -2\,\text{mC/m}^2, L = 225\,\text{nm}, \lambda_D = 100\,\text{nm}, T = 300\,\text{K}, \eta = 1\,\text{mPa s}$.

For each simulated particle trajectory, the MSD can be found. The results are statistically inferred parameters that can be compared to the baseline inputs.

The size of a particle can be measured from the mean-squared displacement. In confinement, an addition correction must be applied due to the axial friction. In the case an electrostatic field, this correction is not applicable due to the fact that the not known.

To quantify the confinement length changes as a function of the electrostatic field, the MSD of the axial and transverse trajectories are compared in two cases. One case is a highly negatively charged paricle, and the second for a neutrally charged particle. This is shown in Fig. 6.5.

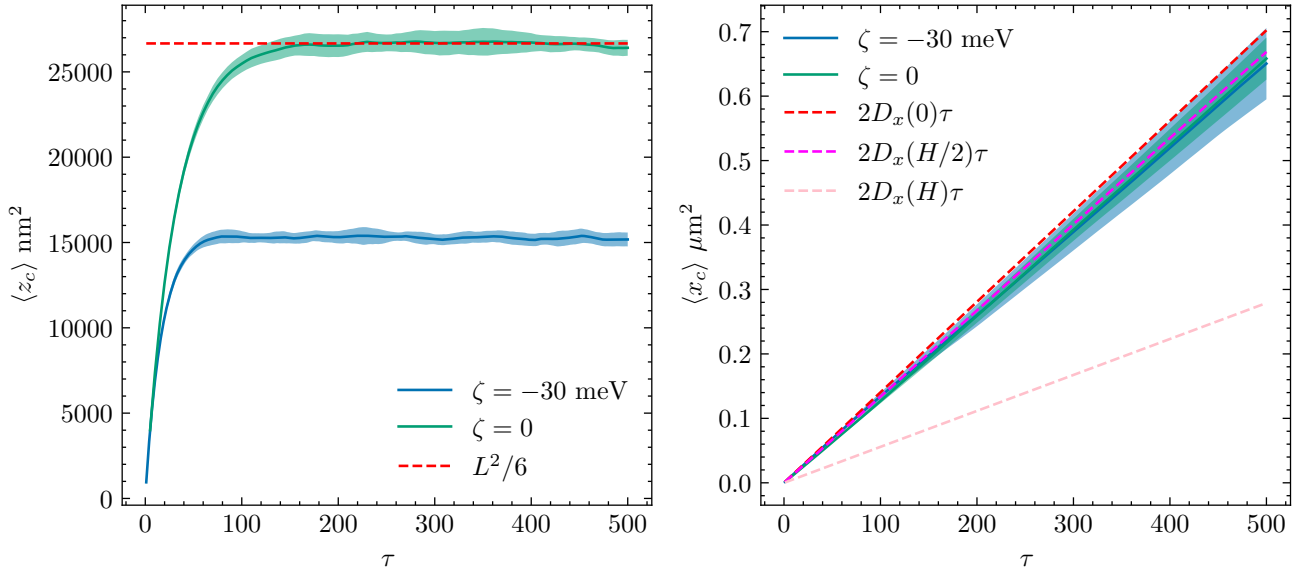


Figure 6.5: Comparison between MSD curves of two different charged particles. The green trace represents a neutrally charged particle with a maximal MSD of $\sim 26\,000\,\text{nm}^2$. The blue trace represents a negatively charged particle with a maximal MSD of $\sim 15\,000\,\text{nm}^2$. The chart on the right shows the transverse MSD of the two particles. Each unit of τ consists of on exposure time of 200 µs. The debye-length was fixed to $\lambda_D = 10\,\text{nm}$.

The simulations demonstrated that as the particle charge becomes greater in magnitude, there is a large apparent change in the MSD plateau. This phenomena is expected, as the electrostatic field focuses the particle into the center of the two plates. This relationship is a function of the zeta-potential of the particle and can be explained using Coulomb's law as explained in Chap. 2.

The effects of the electrostatic field interaction on the confinement length can be investigated by solving the mathematical relations analytically, or explored using simulations developed for this purpose. The theoretical MSD function can be mathematically determined if one solves the Fokker-Planck equation in the presence of a Debye-Hückel potential. This combination of equations in confinement does not have an analytical solution. Thus, simulation approaches must be taken.

6.5 Simulation Results

Using the developed software, the relationship between the effective confinement length can be numerically determined as the software numerically approximates the system. In order to find correlation to laboratory experiment, the electrostatic field must be varied as the zeta-potential of the particle is constant. In the simulation, the electrostatic field can be easily manipulated and in the laboratory experiment, same can be achieved by varying the ionic concentration of the solution. Changing the electrostatic amplitude in laboratory experiments is possible as changing the Debye-length is inversely proportional to the changing, ionic concentration;

$$\lambda_D \propto \frac{1}{\sqrt{C}}, \tag{6.11}$$

where C is the ionic concentration of a dilute electrolyte compound.

The simulation for the geometry described above was conducted for various Debye-lengths. The conditions of the simulation are such that the zeta potential of the particle and glass are chosen to resemble glass and a polystyrene bead. The particle parameters were chosen to be $a = 50\,\text{nm}, \zeta = -30\,\text{mV}$. The geometric conditions are: $\sigma_w = -2\,\text{mC/m}^2, L = 500\,\text{nm}, T = 300\,\text{K}, \Delta t_i = 0.2\,\mu\text{s}, \tau = 200\,\mu\text{s}, \eta = 1\,\text{mPa s}$. The simulation results are shown in Fig. 6.6

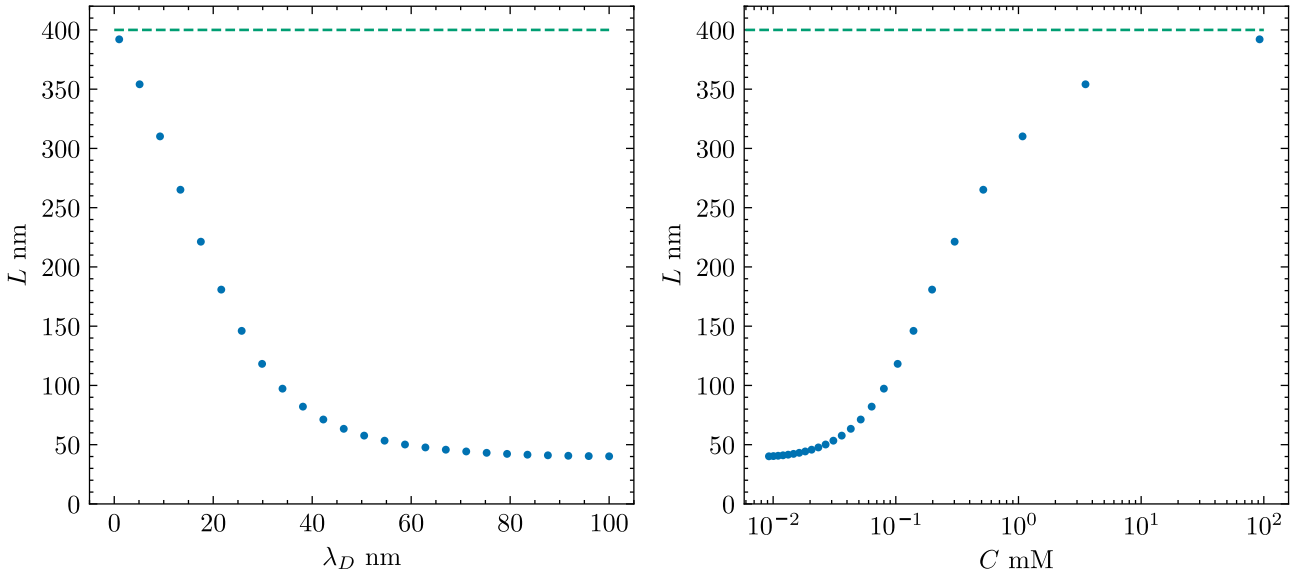


Figure 6.6: Effective confinement length L, or the minimum and maximum trajectory axial position, plotted against the solution's debye-length λ_D and expressed in terms of ion concentration C.

The figure obtained from the simulation shows that as the Debye-length increases, the confinement length decreases. When the ion concentration increases, the particle is less screened which allows it to move closer to the walls. With increased concentration of the ions, the particles can more easily explore the volume. Once the concentration reaches a sufficient saturation, the

particle move from wall to wall, or a distance of L. As the ionic concentration approaches 0, the confinement length approaches a minimum of $\sim 50\,\text{nm}$. Theoretically, this should reach 0 nm, however, due to simulation artifacts it doesn't. The extra motion is attributed to having a finite time-step during the evolution of the Langevin equation, adding extra force. In the limit of an infinite time step, the minimum confinement should approach 0 nm.

As a result from the changing effective confinement length, the diffusion coefficient changes as a function of ionic concentration. Since diffusion is dependent on the axial position of the particle with respect to the wall, there is a relative diffusion decrease with addition of ions. The exact relationship can be investigated using the developed simulations.

Using the simulated trajectories in Fig. 6.6, the diffusion coefficient of the particle is be measured from the first 15 points of the MSD slope by fitting to a line as performed in optical experiments. The resulting diffusion coefficient is then compared to the baseline input parameter. This is plotted in Fig. 6.7.

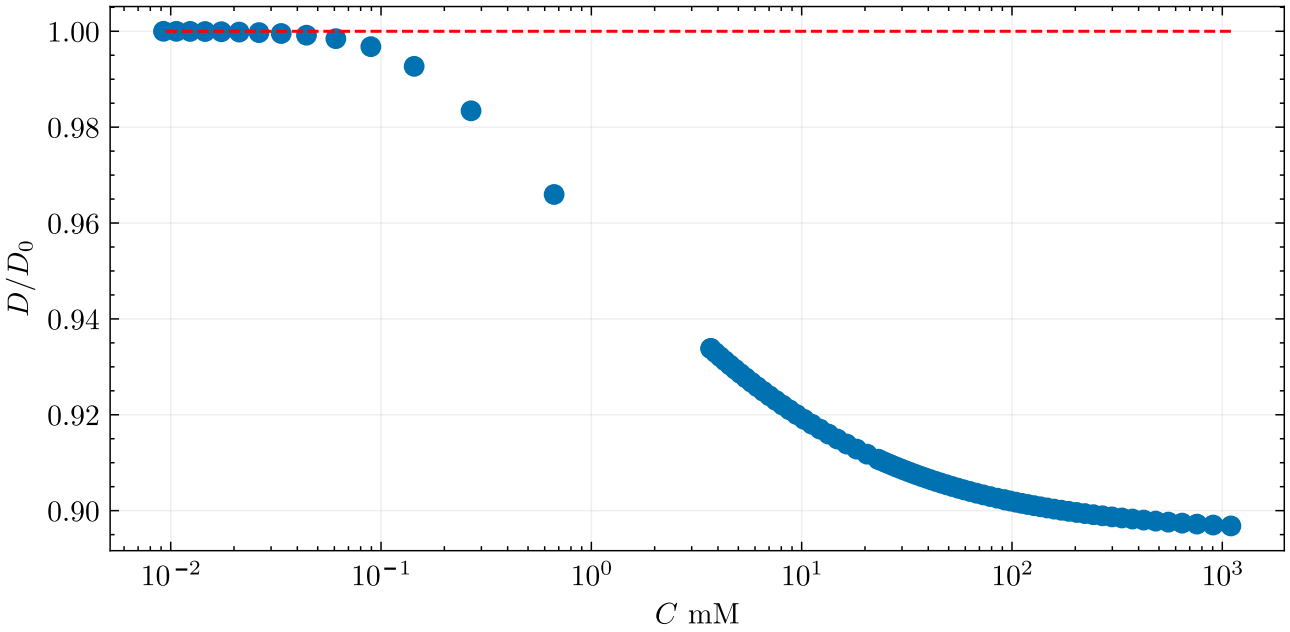


Figure 6.7: Effective diffusion D/D_0, or the measure diffusion coefficient compared to the input diffusion, plotted against the solution's Debye length expressed as concentration C of ions.

The above results that the presented simulations can be used to distinguish between classes of particles. This is because the relationship between the effective confinement length and the relationship between diffusion and ion concentration is established. There is a notable 10% drop in the diffusion coefficient at high concentrations of ions. This is attributed to the particle being closer to the walls for a longer peroid of time.

By doing more simulation cases, this relationship can be further investigated.

The effective confinement length compared to the zeta-potential of a particle at various Debye-

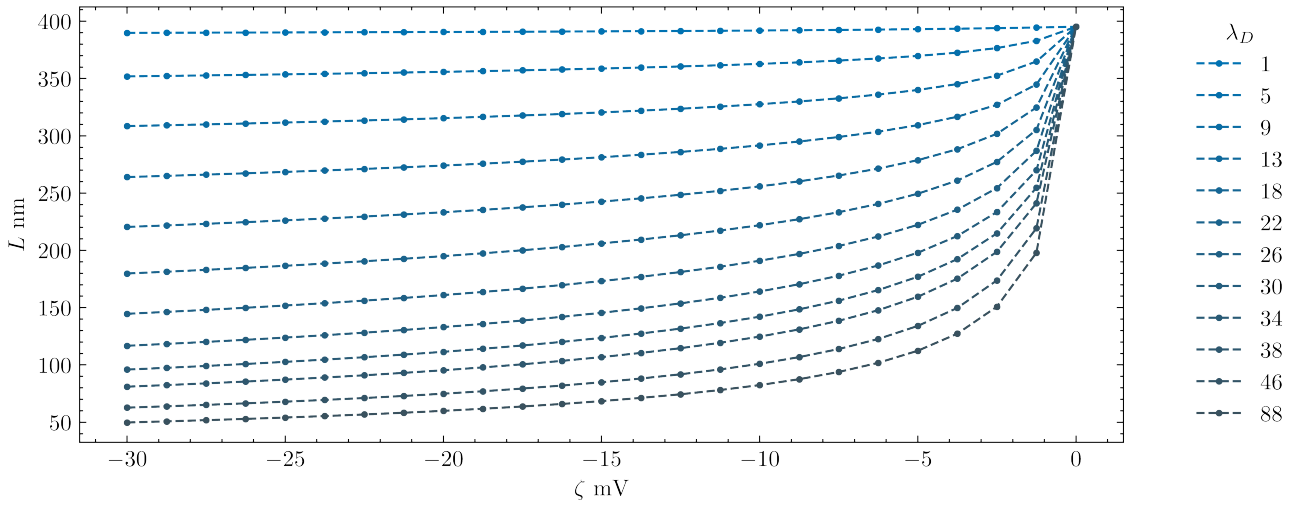


Figure 6.8: Effective confinement plotted against the particle's zeta-potential.

lengths is simulated in the same geometric conditions as Fig. 6.6. This is plotted in Fig. 6.8.

Fig. 6.8 presents the relationship between L, ζ, and the Debye-length, λ_D. Each curve shows the relationship between the values for a different ionic concentration.

At high concentration, there is little to no effect on the confinement length, while at low concentration, there is a steep dependency near $\zeta \to 0$. As the particle becomes more negatively charged, the confinement length decreases towards the confinement length minima. When the particle becomes more neutral, the confinement length approaches the gap length between the two walls.

6.6 Surface Charge estimation

The surface charge of the confinement walls can be estimated based on the electrostatic potential. Since the electrostatic force determines the drift coefficient, the drift amplitude can be statistically recovered using a maximum likelihood estimator function.

Although the SDE MLE equation is already known, the solution was specifically applied for the purpose of this thesis in the form presented in Eqn. 6.12. A detailed derivation is presented in Appendix. A;

$$\hat{B} = \frac{\sum_n \phi(z)\left[\Delta z - D'(z)\Delta t\right]}{\sum_n D(z)\phi^2(z)\Delta t}, \quad \mathbb{V}[\hat{B}] = \frac{1}{2}\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \beta^2 D(z)\phi^2(z), \tag{6.12}$$

where Δz is the random variable assigned to step displacement, $D(z)$ is the diffusion coefficient,

and $\phi(z)$ is the gradient of the potential,

$$\phi(z) = e^{-\frac{H}{\lambda_D}} \sinh\left(\frac{z}{\lambda_D}\right). \tag{6.13}$$

This estimator assumes that gravitational contributions are negligible.

If the amplitude of the electrostatic interactions is known, one can invert the amplitude using relations in Eqn. 6.8. This inversion requires at least the zeta-potential, ζ, of the particle, the radius, a, and Debye-length, λ_D.

The particle's exploration, demonstrated in Fig. 6.4, showed a clear dependence on a drift due to the electrostatics. This drift is a useful estimator of the particle-wall charge relationship. Using the aforementioned amplitude maximum-likelihood estimator function, the drift estimator can be extracted into meaningful, physical information.

To determine the effective accuracy of the MLE function, simulations are performed using the developed software.

The Langevin simulation was ran for 20 ms with time-step of 0.2 µs. In this histogram there are 50 simulations with seeds set to $S_{\text{eed}} = i * 10 + 1$ for $i \in \{0, 49\}$ using the *numpy* seed parameter. $a = 50\,\text{nm}, L = 500\,\text{nm}, T = 300\,\text{K}, \Delta t_i = 0.2\,\mu\text{s}, \tau = 200\,\mu\text{s}, \eta = 1\,\text{mPa}\,\text{s}, \lambda_D = 10\,\text{nm}$ The surface charge is fixed at $\sigma_w = -2\,\text{mC/m}^2$. The distribution of the MLE is shown in Fig 6.9.

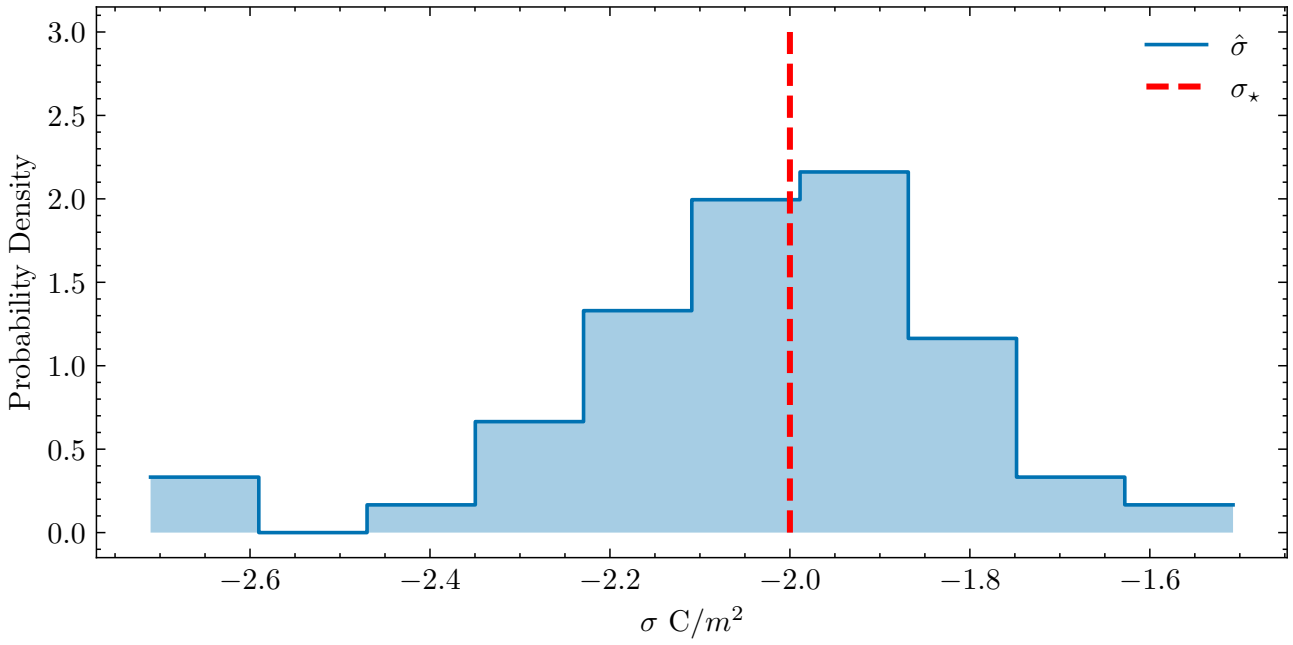


Figure 6.9: Distribution of $\hat{B}$ Re-parameterized for the surface charge. $\hat{\sigma} = 1/(A \cdot C)^2 \hat{B}$ where A, C are properly defined in 6.8.

Chapter 7

iSCAT Axial Inference

This section presents a computational method for determining the axial (z-axis) position of a nanoparticle from iSCAT imaging data. The proposed approach is based on principles of light-scattering in the Rayleigh approximation, which govern the inference pattern as the nanoparticle moves along the optical axis.

In order to evaluate the accuracy and performance of the proposed method, Mie-theory simulations are used for for determining the an ideal nanoparticle's z-axis position. The precision and limitations are discussed in the context of recovering three-dimensional particle trajectories.

The raw images are acquired from a CMOS camera according the optical schematic illustrated in Figures 5.1 and 8.1. Each image consists of a two-dimensional interference recorded at a specific focal position z_{focus}, defined as the distance between the objective's focal distance and the objects in the field of view.

7.1 Method Overview

The method described in this section is based on computational image processing on images acquired using a CMOS camera. The camera has an array of 2048×2048 pixels. To acquire images at higher frame rates, only a portion of the CMOS array is used. This is set during the experimental details. Typical sizes used are 600×450 at 400 fps however, other fields of view can be used for specific experimental purposes. The highest frame-rate possible with this camera is 1000 fps at a FOV of 200×250.

The object sample is imaged through an oil-immersion objective lens. The optical system provides a magnification of $60\times$, with a tube lens of magnification $2\times$. The remaining is an digital zoom with a final resolution of 55 nm per pixel. The final magnification is then the ratio of the CMOS array length divided by the pixel size.

The image-processing workflow used to determine three-dimensional trajectory is shown in Fig.

7.1. The diagram summarized the sequence of image processing steps to extract each coordinate position.

1. **Acquisition** — raw image captured on camera.
2. **Background subtraction** — conversion of raw image to an iSCAT contrast image.
3. **Lateral tracking** — transverse particle position, (x, y), located in each frame.
4. **Angular integration** — extraction of the scattering data per frame.
5. **Nuisance-parameter estimation** — Fix iSCAT Amplitude, microscope decay parameter.
6. **Linking** — axial candidates, $z_{\min}$, joined by the 2D Viterbi algorithm.
7. **Output** — the three-dimensional trajectory $\big[x(t), y(t), z(t)\big]$.

Figure 7.1: Outline of the 3D particle-tracking pipeline.

7.2 Raw image background subtraction

To obtain high-contrast interference signal from raw camera data, a post-processing background subtraction routine is introduced. This background subtraction measured a temporally averaged background using a window-filter and Fourier filtering. An example of this process is shown in Fig.7.2.

The full algorithm is presented in Alg. 1. The overview of the algorithm is to subtract the background noise in order to minimize Poisson, and electronic noise.

To reduce the contribution of the static background, the mean background is subtracted from each frame. Since the background illumination originates from the gaussian illumination beam, which has a constant mean intensity over the acquisition period, this stationary background removes the background offset while preserving dynamic iSCAT signal. This just requires a good estimation of the background in order not to remove any iSCAT signal. The remaining shot noise, which follows Poisson statistics is reduced by temporal averaging during background estimation.

In order to suppress electronic noise from data-transfer, a row-wise averaging scheme is applied. Row-wise means are taken and normalized with respect to their row as the data-transfer from CMOS to computer is by horizontal lines. Thus, to ensure all lines are equally weighted, they are normalized with respect to their entire row. This is implemented as per prior iSCAT normalization methods by the Sandoghar laboratory[87].

The set of images, which consist of matrices of pixel-values of shape $F \times H \times W$, or F number of frames, W pixels wide, H pixels tall.

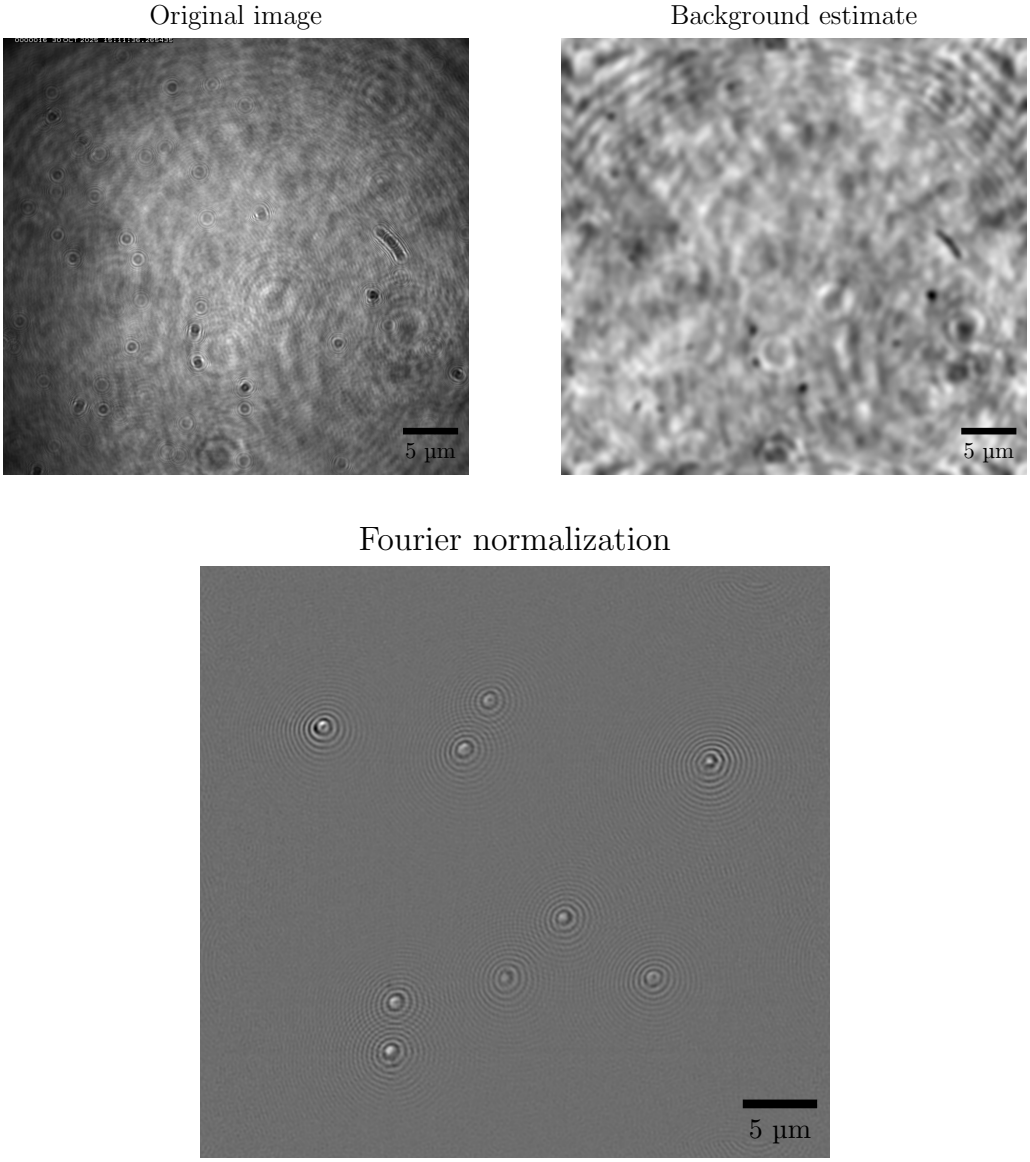


Figure 7.2: Raw image captured on camera to background subtracted iSCAT image. Single particles are tracked and extracted for further analysis.

Before processing begins, the parameters of the Fourier-band-pass filter are determined from the image dimensions. The filter consists of an annular, donut mask of inner radius equal to 1% if the larger image dimension and outer radius equal to 25% of the larger image dimension, corresponding to $r_i = \max(H, W)/100, r_o = \max(H, W)/4$.

To minimize edge artifacts, a binary mask is applied to each frame. Pixels within 20 pixels of the boundary are assigned a value of 0 using a mask filter. On the interior pixels, the mask is set to 1, while on the pixels less than 20 pixels away from the edge are set to 0. This mask is used during normalization to prevent edge effects from biasing the inner statistics.

For each frame in the stack, the image is first normalized using a row-wise normalization function. The function, titled AmpNorm in Alg. 1, first obtains the masked-image. The global normalized

mean is stored. For each row, the mean is taken and the row of the global-mean is adjusted by the row-wise mean. The final image is the global mean divided by the row-mean for each row.

Once normalized, the background of the image is calculated by taking the forward and backward ΔL frames spaced by a spacer of Δf frames and taking the AmpNorm of these frames.

The iSCAT image then consists of a background subtraction between the normalized image and the background. Finally, once background subtracted, the image is Fourier-filtered using the pre-allocated band-pass filter. This process is demonstrated in Fig. 7.2

7.3 iSCAT (x, y) Tracking

To determine the transverse positions of any particles detected in the iSCAT method, the radial variance transform algorithm is used [88]. The original algorithm is briefly outlined below for completeness. The full code is written by the Sandoghdar group and can be found in Ref [88]. A demonstration of this method is presented in the Fig. 7.3.

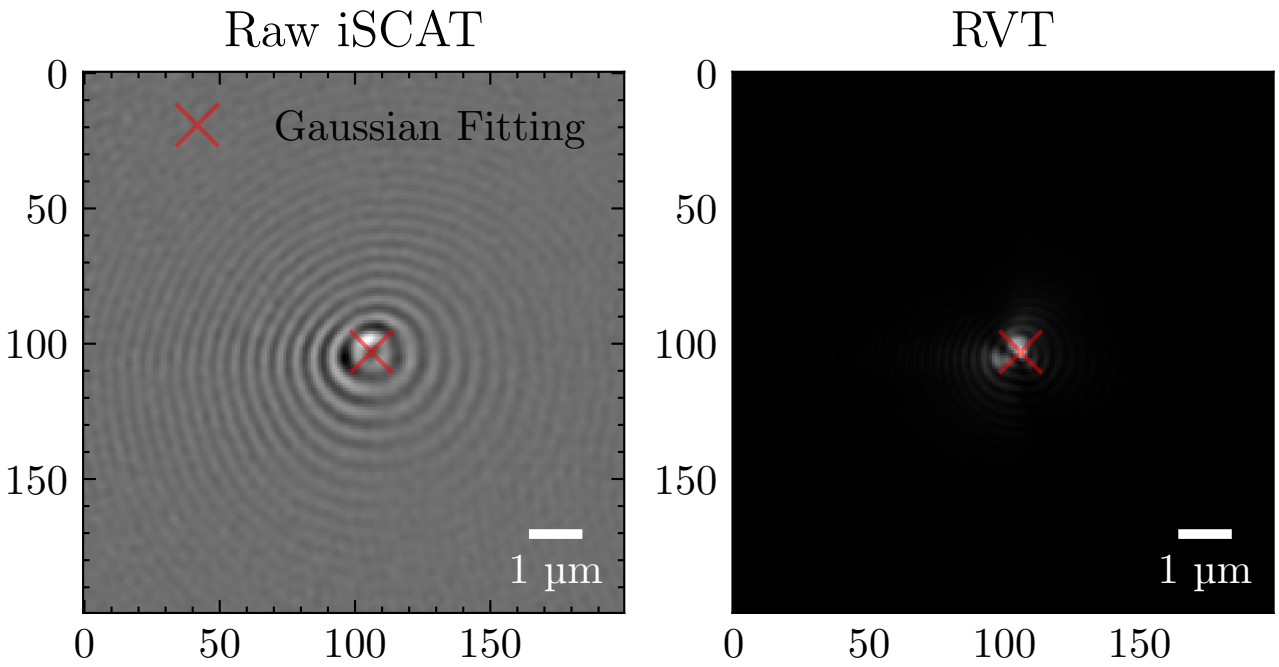


Figure 7.3: Raw image to RVT. Gaussian fitting of the RVT is shown on both plots.

The transverse localization algorithm, referenced as TransverseLocalization in 2 consists of transformations onto the iSCAT image from the previous section.

The input image stack is first loaded and assumed to consist of radially symmetric interference fringes. The image is first transformed using the Radial Variance Transform [88]. This function converts a radial-fringe pattern into a point-like delta function when a radial symmetry is acted upon it.

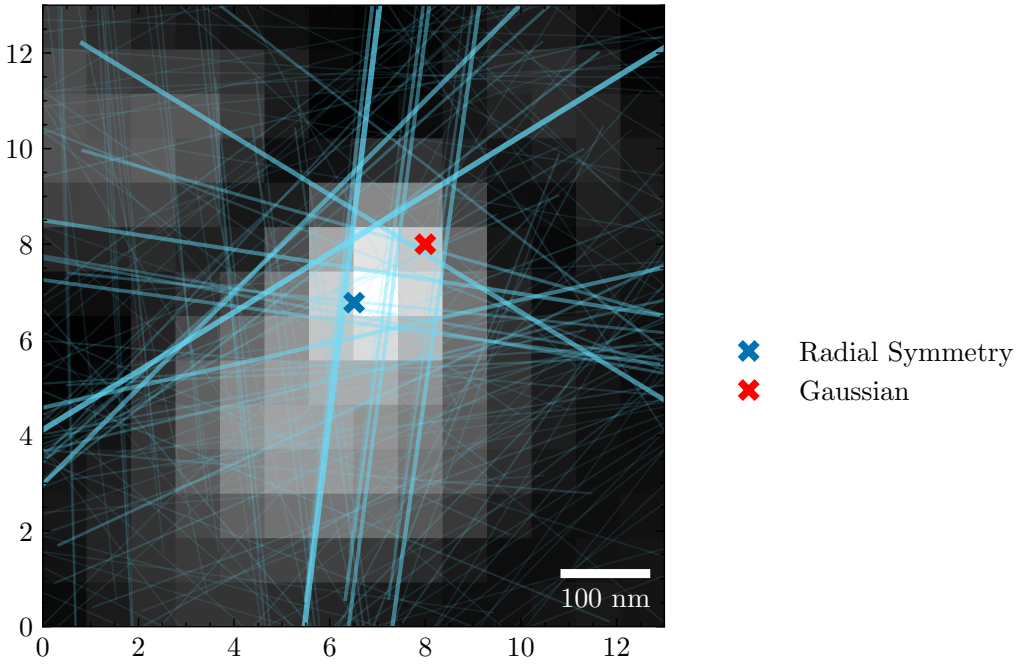


Figure 7.4: Demonstration of the Radial Symmetry method applied onto RVT of iSCAT data. Implemented from [89]. Figure adapted from [89].

Before proceeding, a frame-independent parameter for threshold SNR amplitude, number of pixels, and ROI cropping parameters are inputted. for a particle to be detected, the SNR of the RVT should be roughly 90% of the max iSCAT amplitude. An estimate of particle number is assumed, which acts as a prior for top n detections. Lastly, ROI for sub-pixel estimation is chosen.

For each frame, the iSCAT image is dilated. Particle positions that are considered maxima if the dilated image is equal to the RVT and the RVT is above the threshold for detection.

Once candidates are chosen, a NL-LS gaussian fitting to the RVT is performed to acquire higher-accuracy localization. To improve this to sub-pixel, a crop is done around each RVT gaussian fitted point and a radial-symmetry algorithm is performed as per [89].

To ensure accurate linking, an implementation of the Munkres algorithm is used. Briefly, a cost-matrix of distances is constructed and minimized in time to ensure that optimal displacements are chosen. This algorithm has limitations in cases where particles overlap. Ideally, experimental measure are taken to minimize this occurring. One such measure is to lower the concentration of particle in the recorded images.

7.4 Angular Integral

Image data will have background misalignment due to iSCAT hardware setup. To optimize for fitting speed and misalignment property, radial scattering profile are assumed as in the Rayleigh

regime model is symmetric. The radial integration method is described in Alg 3.

The discrete angular integral consists of summing angular terms on a radial grid. Mathematically, the output array obtained is described by the relation

$$g_t(\rho) \cong \frac{1}{\Delta\theta} \int_{\theta_0}^{\theta_0+\Delta\theta} I_t(\rho, \theta) d\theta, \tag{7.1}$$

where θ_0 is a constant, $\Delta\theta$ is the width of integration, $I_t(\rho, \theta)$ is the iSCAT image.

First, the cartesian image is Re-parameterized into polar coordinates using a change of basis transformation on the index grid of the image. Then, for each ring of indices, the image coordinates are summed up on this ring. The final array is an angular average that is indexed at radius r for some upper radial bound. This process is illustrated in Fig. 7.5.

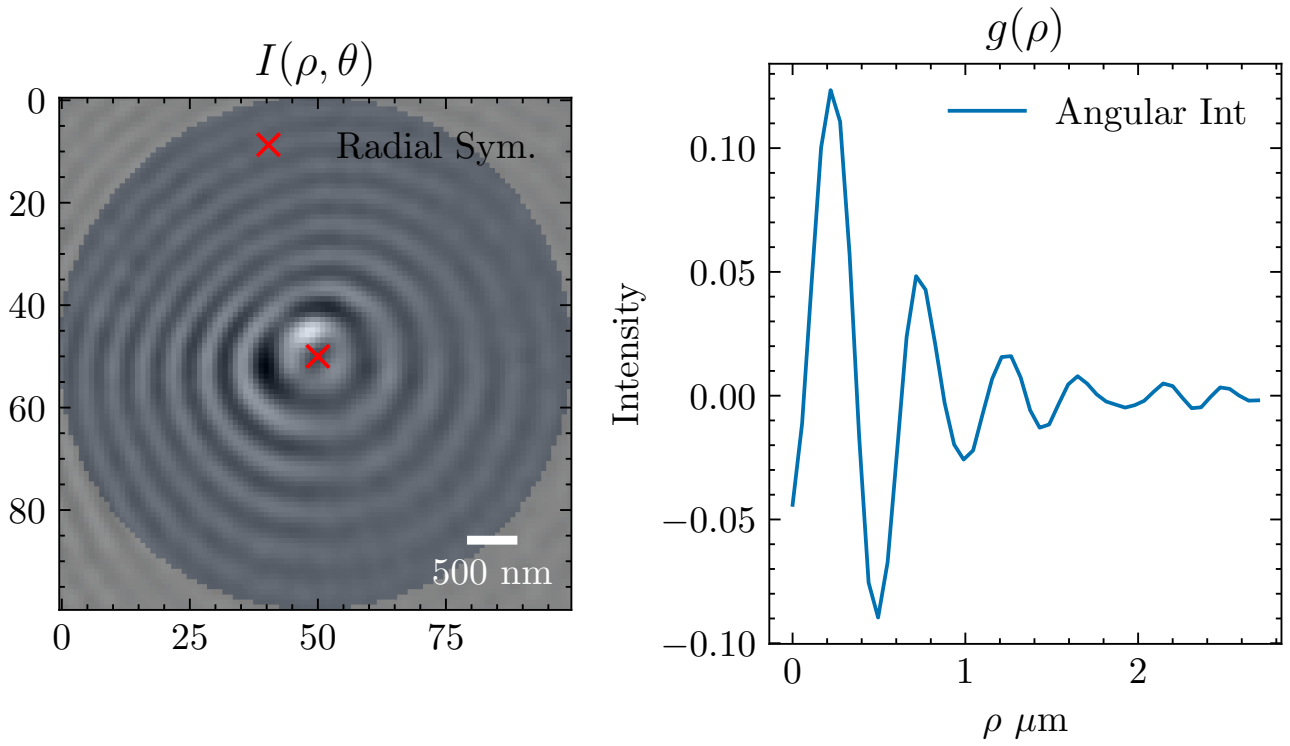


Figure 7.5: Angular Integral demonstration on experimental polystyrene image. The polar distance, ρ is plotted here where the red $\times$ symbol denotes the center of the image.

7.5 Nuisance parameter Estimation

In order to speed up computation and produce a more statistically relevant result, the method aims to fix the model parameters which should theoretically stay constant. These, for example, are the particle mass signal and optical aberration coefficients. These parameters, known as nuisance parameters, should be fixed before fitting to the more sensitive parameter of interest, the relative z position.

To obtain accurate estimation of the z position relative to nearby frames, nuisance estimation is done to focus on z fitting. To do this, L-BFGS-B Fitting is performed. alongside amplitude fitting. The theory of nuisance parameter estimation is described in [90].

The nuisance parameter method works on the premise of a model function. The iPSF model described in 4 is used as a weight function to compare to the data. First, bounds are placed for physical values of each parameter.

Here, it is important to note that the amplitude of the signal is proportional to the mass. The spatial decay of the aberration is modeled as a decaying exponential.

For each candidate decay parameter, the weighted correlation function is calculated. Let g be the radial profile, and G the theoretical iPSF model. The inner product of these two arrays, weighted in some integral of radiuses, is defined by $\langle G, g\rangle_w$. The correlation function is then written as

$$\rho(z,\gamma) = \frac{\langle G, g\rangle_w}{\sqrt{\langle G, G\rangle_w + \langle g, g\rangle_w + \varepsilon}}, \tag{7.2}$$

where ε is a small number to prevent division by 0.

The best-fit amplitude function here is analytical, given by the expression

$$\hat{E_0} = \frac{\langle G, g\rangle_w}{\langle G, G\rangle_w}. \tag{7.3}$$

The loss-function, $\mathcal{L}$, given the correlation, is given by the subtraction of ρ^2,

$$\mathcal{L} = 1 - \rho^2(z,\gamma). \tag{7.4}$$

Once a fitted $\gamma_0, \hat{E_0}$ are chosen, the optimal z for each frame is given by a non-linear bounded least squares which are acquired using the L-BFGS-B method with a Huber Loss ($\delta = 1/2$).

When computed for each frame in the stack, one has F optimally chosen γ_0, E_0. To obtain the optimal parameter, a fit to distributions, inferred by [2], is used. These fits include a Gamma distribution for E_0 and a LogNorm distribution for γ. Together, these form nuisance estimation for E_0, γ_0.

7.6 2D Chain-link

Given an estimation of the nuisance parameters, a grid-search of the optimal z is simple. The physically best z position is a mean-squared error loss minima of the model subtracted with the data. However, due to the periodic nature of the data, there are up to 3 candidates for the optimal z position based on $\lambda/4$ having a high degree of similarity. Thus, to resolve this, a

z-linking method was implemented to find the most likely trace based on diffusion probabilities.

To link consequent positions in space, a dynamic programming algorithm is used. The algorithm is known as the Viterbi method and is described in Alg. 5.

First, all minima for every frame must be collected. These are the candidate positions that trajectories are constructed from. The losses of these positions are also stored to ensure no spurious candidates are chosen.

For each position, the forward pass compares all chains moving in time. The loss is accumulated by a weighted Euclidean transition cost,

$$d_i(i,j) = \sqrt{w_x^2(x_{t-1}^i - x_t^j)^2 + w_y^2(y_{t-1}^i - y_t^j)^2}, \tag{7.5}$$

where x denote z motion, and y denotes the loss difference. This matrix compares all weighted transitions. The optimal transition $\pi_t(j)$ is then chosen to minimize this transition, and any prior transitions.

For each following forward pass, the cost is accumulated with a memory of 2 frames. The memory is chosen to ensure that an incorrect transition in a given frame is not penalized later on.

Thus linking method is thus a search algorithm for the shortest math based on the weighted Euclidean method. A short toy-model is shown in Fig. 7.6 to visualize the procedure.

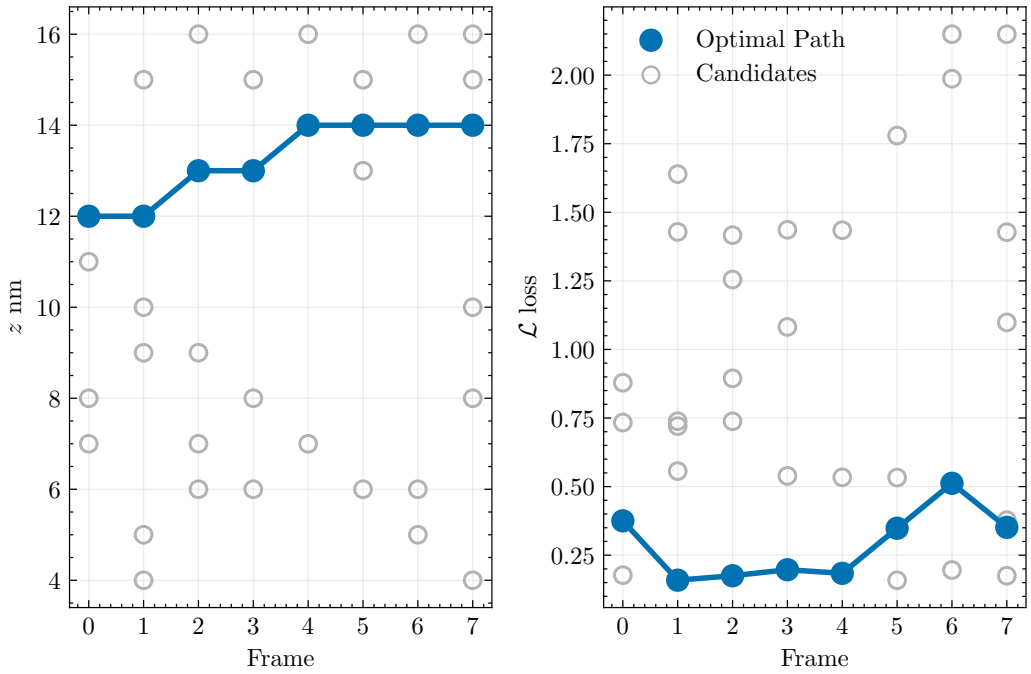


Figure 7.6: Viterbi Search algorithm toy example. Optimal path is chosen based on z similarity and lowest loss.

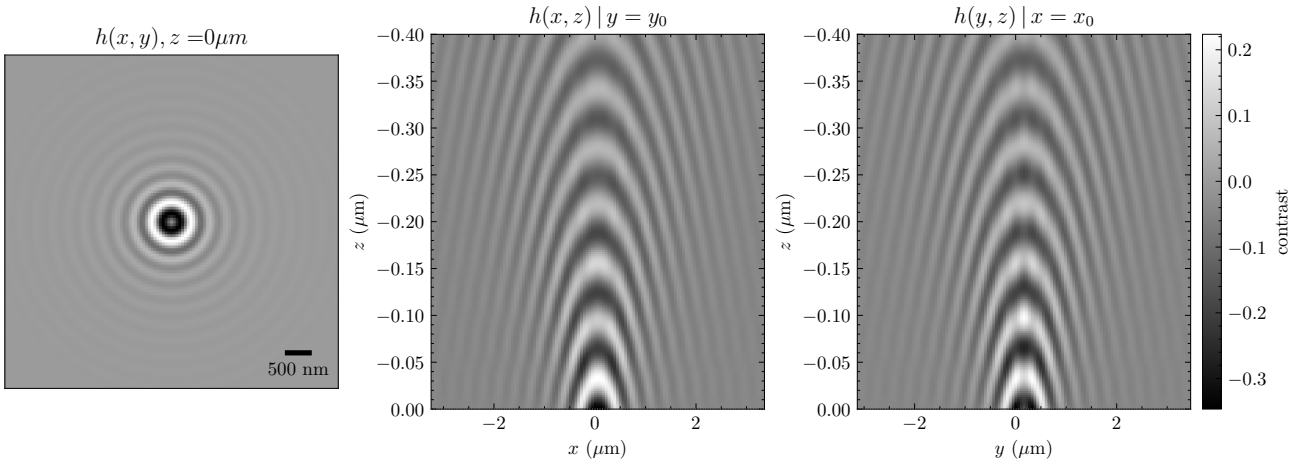


Figure 7.7: Simulated iPSF. Left. Projection of in-focus plane. Middle. x, z projection. Right. y, z projection. Focal scan is over 400 nm. pixel size is 55 nm/pixel. $\lambda = 405$ nm. Assumed particle radius $a = 50$ nm.

7.7 Simulated iPSF localization

To validate the proposed method, one performs simulated axial-estimation. Simulated iSCAT point spread functions were generated using the PySCAT library for $\lambda = 405$ nm. The iPSF was generated for the focal range $z_f \in [-1000, 0]$. The assumed particle is spherical with radius $a = 50$ nm. The iPSF is shown in Fig. 7.7

As mentioned, the localization pipeline utilizes a weighting scheme to account for objective aberration and misalignments to non-modeled regions of the data, such as the central fringe. This is accounted for by using a binary weighting array, $\mathbf{w}$. In the case of these idealized simulations, the effect of changing the weighting scheme is demonstrated. This demonstrates a loss of absolute precision, however, maintains the relative precision, which is that of interest in measurements of axial trajectory.

7.8 3-parameter Estimation

As a reminder, the model for the iPSF is a multivariate function iPSF : $(z, E_0, \gamma) \to \mathbb{R}^2$. It has been shown that the statistical model of iPSF takes;

$$\begin{aligned} \hat{E_0} &\sim \text{Gamma}(\mu_{E_0}, \sigma_{E_0}) \\ \hat{\gamma} &\sim \text{logNorm}(\mu_\gamma, \sigma_\gamma) \end{aligned} \tag{7.6}$$

The so-called 3-parameter estimation is a sampling of nuisance parameters in the model. The nuisance parameters here are $\hat{E_0}, \hat{\gamma}$, where $\hat{E_0}$ is an amplitude factor, and γ is an exponential decay factor used to account for spatial decay in signal. The amplitude factor can be analytically solved for using a grid-search sweep along z. The γ factor is fitted to using the L-BFGS-B

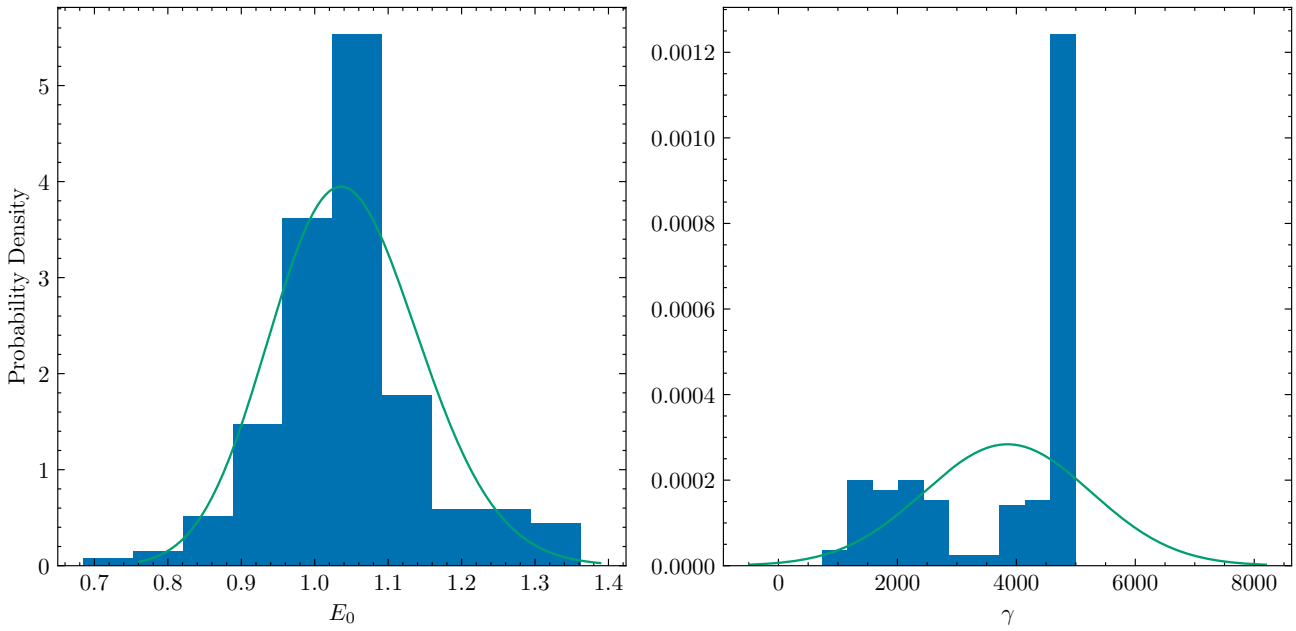


Figure 7.8: Nuisance Parameter estimation for iPSF fits. Left. Amplitude factor. right. exponential decay factor. The exponential decay is not of utmost importance as it often is very small. it is kept for stability purposes.

minimization algorithm. This nuisance parameter fit is shown in the histograms of these two parameters shown in Fig. 7.8.

7.8.1 Grid-Search Estimation

Once the nuisance parameters are chosen, a grid-search with a dynamic linking is performed. Each frame is assumed to have a maximal diffusion time. This is in place to optimize for noise and have coherent, physical traces without outliers. The grid search takes the difference between the data and a scan over the model with the nuisance parameters in place. The best loss is chosen. In the case of linking, the minimal loss over the path is chosen. The full algorithm is discussed elsewhere. the residuals of this using no fitting are shown in Fig. 7.9.

7.9 Conclusions

In conclusion, the pseudocode for the method was outlined explicitly. The methodology was tested on simulation data with a high degree of accuracy. The method shows an accuracy of $\pm 1\,\mathrm{nm}$ with a forward bias of $1\,\mathrm{nm}$.

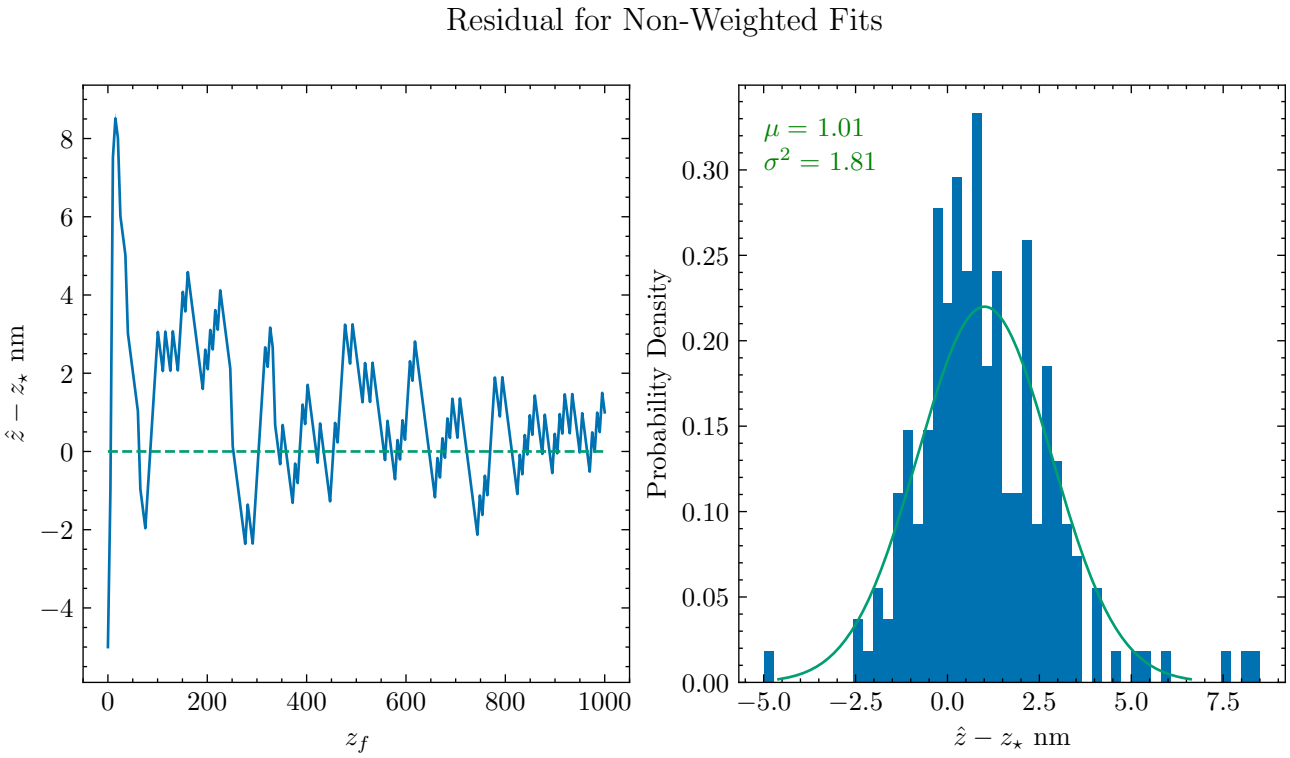


Figure 7.9: Fit residuals using no weighting scheme. reporting an absolute bias of 1 nm with variance of 2 nanometers.

Chapter 8

Experimental Results

To validate the iSCAT imaging technique and computational methods described in previous sections, three major groups of experiments were conducted. One group focused on performing validation of confined diffusion of electrostatic motion of polystyrene beads. The second was investigating the transient mean-squared displacement behavior. The third was done using lipid-nanoparticles in a PEG-passivated environment to observe diffusion in biologically-relevant conditions.

The effects of electrostatic interaction of nanoparticle diffusion were investigated in various ionic concentrations. The salt concentration regulates the particle's effective confinement length[1]. The change in confinement length directly affects how size-inferencing is performed due to the change in particle mobility near confinement boundaries [20].

The transient behavior and confined mean-squared displacement relations were performed on polystyrene bead diffusion by adding a glycerol solution to slow down the step-length of the particle's motion. Glycerol was chosen as the viscous reagent as the water-glycerol relation is well defined [91] and has a lipid-membrane permeability [92, 93].

To apply the theoretical models and statistical tools to a current, applicable biological system, the diffusion of lipid-nanoparticles was investigated within glass flow-cells. The effects of flow-cell poly-ethylene glycol passivation were measured. LNP size measurement techniques were compared and contrasted. LNP transient behavior was measured using glycerol. The complete list of samples used, as well as number of video and trajectories obtained from the data, is listed in Tab. 8.1.

[1] As shown in Chap. 6.

Sample	Buffer	Gap Length	N_{vid}	N_{traj}
Polystyrene Beads	PBS 0.1%	225 nm	10	8
Polystyrene Beads	45% Glycerol, PBS 0.1%	225 nm	3	7
Polystyrene Beads	PBS 0.01%	225 nm	10	53
Polystyrene Beads	PBS 0.001%	225 nm	6	13
Polystyrene Beads	PBS 0.00001%	225 nm	10	62
LNP - Liposomal	1× PBS	225 nm	10	low-signal
LNP - Liposomal	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	low-signal
LNP - Onpattro - Standard - 25 mM NaOAc	1× PBS	225 nm	10	14
LNP - Onpattro - Standard - 25 mM NaOAc	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	3
LNP - Onpattro - Bleb-like - 300 mM NaOAc	1× PBS	225 nm	10	7
LNP - Onpattro - Bleb-like - 300 mM NaOAc	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	2

Table 8.1: List of samples used in experiments for this thesis.

8.1 Experimental Setup

The experiments described in this chapter were conducted using the wide-field iSCAT optical system as described in Chap. 5. The samples were placed within two planar glass coverslips to create a flow-cell. The confinement system, convex-lens induced confinement, was used to control the height between the two coverslips. The experimental schematics and apparatuses are described below.

8.1.1 Optical System Schematic

The schematic of the optical system used in the laboratory experimentation is shown in Fig. 8.1. To illuminate the samples, an illumination laser with wavelength of 405 nm was used. This wavelength laser was selected to have the lowest cost and provide illumination within the visible light spectrum. The optical power of the laser was 240 mW. The optical filter drops after the spatial filter to 120 mW which is ∼50% of the initial laser output.

The microscope objective was oil based with a 100× optical magnification[2]. The images were captured by a sCMOS camera[3]. The system was controlled by a custom computer software written in the LabView programming language. The complete parts list of the optical system was presented in Tab. 5.1.

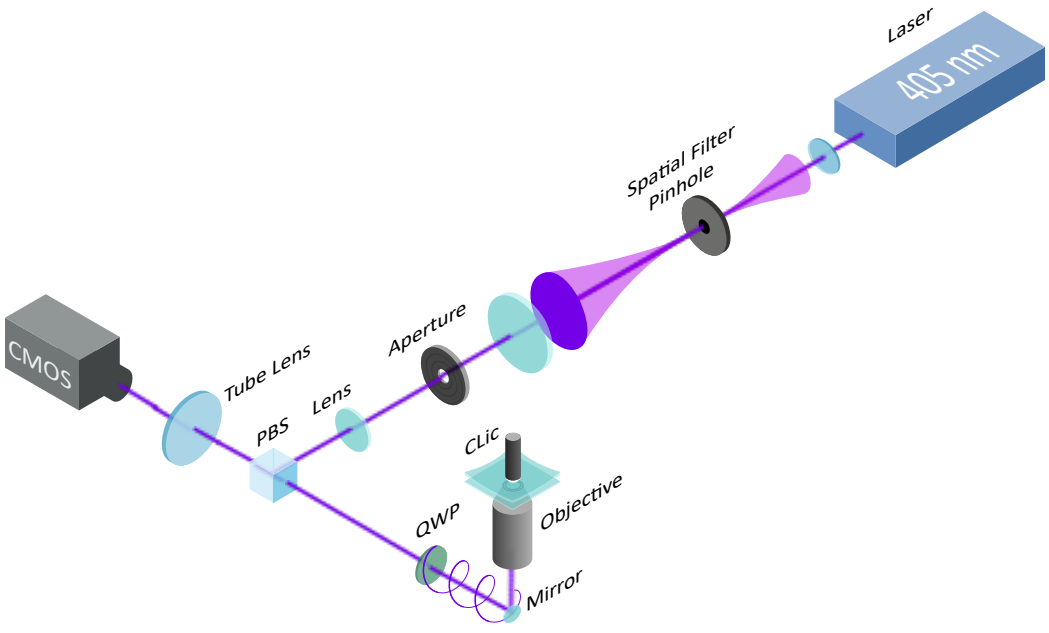


Figure 8.1: Schematic of iSCAT system from Chap. 5. See 5.1 for details.

[2](Nikon, Apochromat TIRF 100× oil immersion objective N.A. 1.49, W.D. 0.12 mm, F.O.V 22 mm)
[3](PCO.EDGE 4.2)

8.1.2 Glass Flow-cell Preparation

The sample flow-cell device consisted of two glass borosilicate substrates [4], separated by a 30 µm thick, double-sided adhesive spacer [5] as shown in Fig. 8.2. The bottom coverslip has no etched features, while the top coverslip contains two 1 mm holes at opposite corners for fluidic injection through the chip.

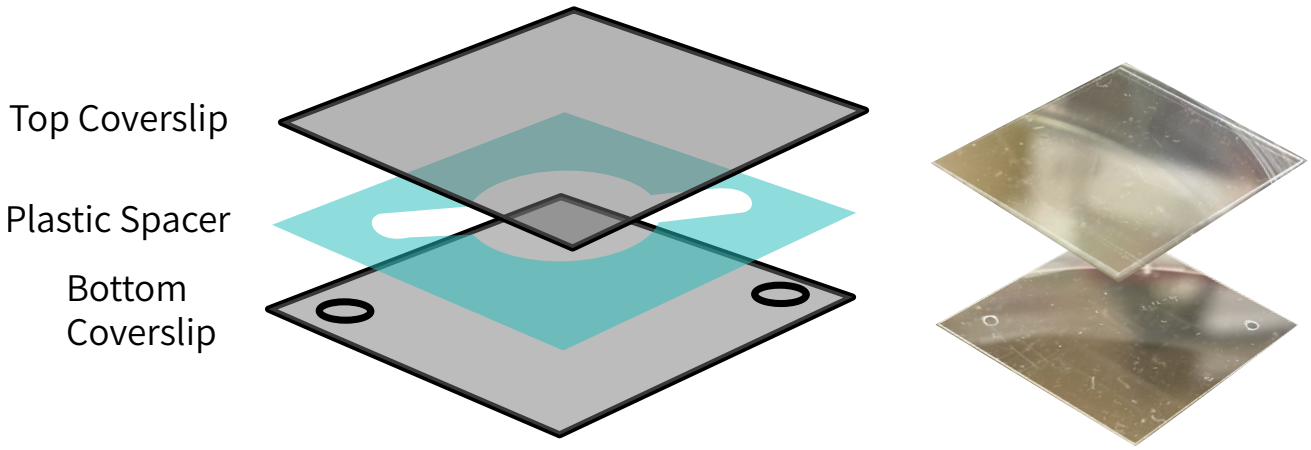


Figure 8.2: Flow cell schematic. Left, diagram of flow-cell with sticker. Right, top and bottom coverslips of the flow cell separated.

The flow-cell is held in place by a metal plate holder and an acrylic chuck. The chuck had a printed shape which contained two fluidic inlets, screw holes that mounted overtop the metal chuck, and a central hole for the viewing. The metal chuck has a groove for the coverslip, as well as tapped holes for the mounted plastic chuck. The flow-cell is assembled using two M5 screws. The assembled system is shown in Fig. 8.3.

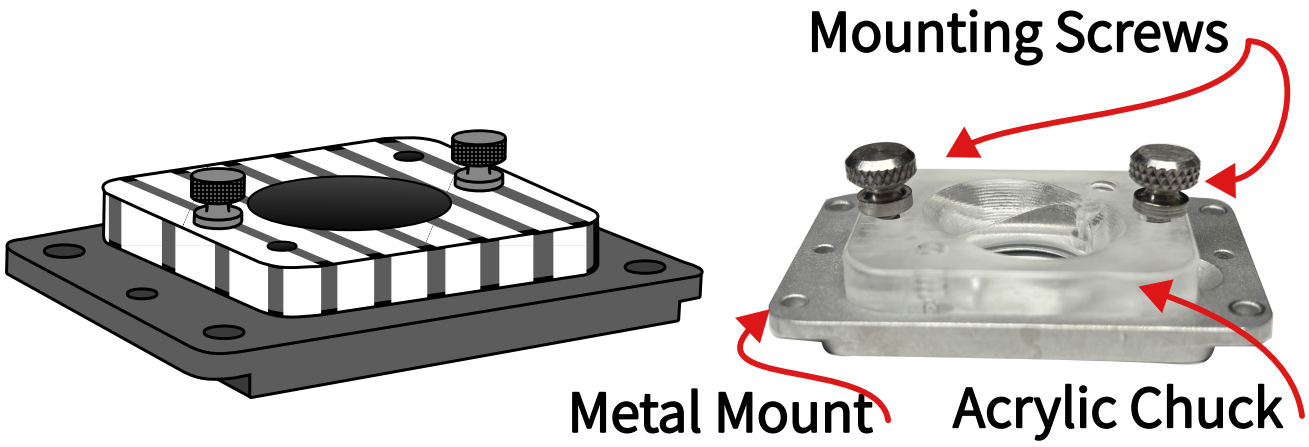


Figure 8.3: flow-cell schematic and assembled flow-cell photograph.

To prepare the glass coverslips, the cover-glass was first cleaned of organic matter with piranha

[4](Ted-Pella, product no.260372, 145 ± 15 µm thick, 25×25 mm cover glass)
[5](Nitto-Denko, product no. 5603)

solution. The solution consisted of a 7 : 3 sulfuric acid [6], hydrogen peroxide [7] mixture. Prior to piranha solution exposure, the cover-glass was exposed to toluene to rinse off excess organic compounds. An isopropyl alcohol soak was used to remove excess toluene film. Alternatively, an acetone soak followed by a Hellmanex detergent could be used in the place of toluene. Before exposure to piranha, the glass was washed with de-ionized water three consecutive times, or until the solution was without bubbles from the detergent. The cover-glass was soaked in the piranha for 1 hour. For experiments where PEG passivation was not performed, the cover-glass was assembled within 12 hours of piranha cleaning and using in imaging.

The passivation technique used for lipid-nanoparticle measurements was the 5 kDa PEG passivation as per [24]. After the piranha cleaning, the cover-glass was etched in 1M KOH for 30 min at room temperature. The cover-glass was placed into a desiccator together with an APTES[8] solution. The vacuum desiccator was set to 1.5 Torr for 30 min at room temperature. The cover-glass was removed and placed on a hotplate set to 120 °C. The cover-glass was then exposed to succinimidyl-valerate (SVA) functionalized methoxy-PEG-valeric acid [9] in a 0.9 M sodium sulfate [10] solution for 30 min. Before imaging, the coverslips were thoroughly rinsed with deionized (DI) water and dried with high-purity nitrogen gas. Pegylated cover-glass was assembled and stored at −80 °C for up to 2 months.

8.1.3 Convex-lens Induced Confinement

To confine the nanoparticles within the field of view of the objective, a convex-lens induced confinement, referred to as CLiC, was used. This method was developed by the Leslie Lab, described in detail in the seminal publication referenced as per [65].

A convex pusher lens is used together with a piezo linear actuator to displace the top coverslip of the flow-cell in a parabolic displacement. The piezo actuator is manually controlled during imaging and set to a specific, controlled height. The height is determined using the inference fringes of Newton's rings. The full method outline is visualized in Fig. 8.4.

8.1.4 Sample Preparation Steps

To obtain experimental results, samples must be prepared for imaging. In the electrostatic and transient diffusion experiments, carboxylate modified polystyrene beads were used. They were obtained from Thermofisher company[11]. The polystyrene beads had a bulk-average size estimate of 0.1 µm. The polystyrene beads were fluorescently labelled of 500 µm. The beads were measured

[6](H2SO4, CAS: 7664-93-9, Thermo Fisher Scientific)
[7](H2O2, CAS: 7722-84-1, Thermo Fisher Scientific)
[8]((3-aminopropyl)-triethoxysilane, CAS: 919-30-2, ThermoFisher Scientific)
[9](5K mPEGSVA, Laysan Bio)
[10](Na2SO4, CAS: 7757-82-6, Thermo Fisher Scientific)
[11](0.1 µm FluoSpheres™carboxylate-modified microspheres, Catalog No. F8799)

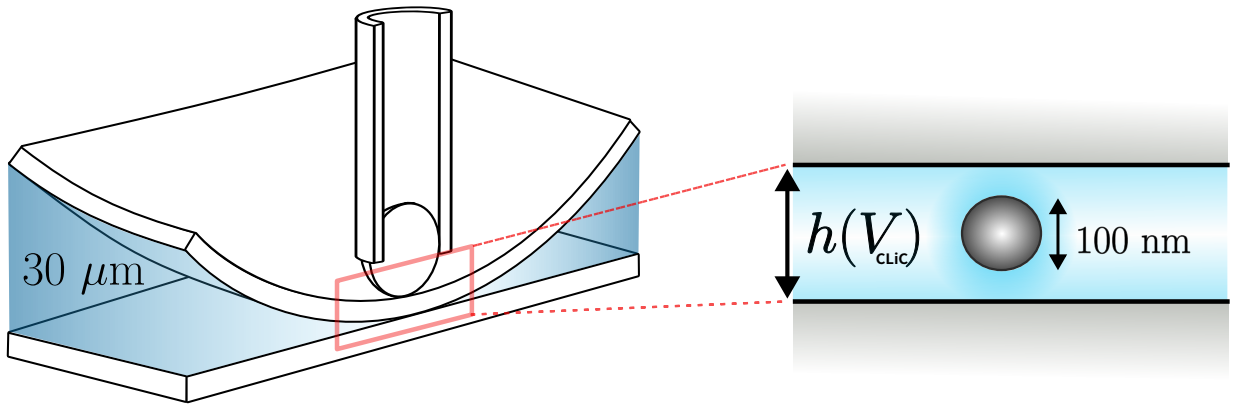


Figure 8.4: Convex-lens induced confinement schematic. Two glass coverslips, separated by a 30 µm spacer are confined with a convex-lens pusher. The height between the coverslips is voltage-regulated to nanometer precision. Nanoparticle of radius 50 nm pictured for reference.

in de-ionized water[12] as well as a concentration series of phosphate-buffered saline. Fluorescent labelled was not used during the experiments.

The polystyrene bead bulk-size was experimentally verified using dynamic light scattering measurements using the Malvern DLS[13]. The bulk size and zeta potential were characterized, as shown in Fig. 8.5 and Tab. 8.2.

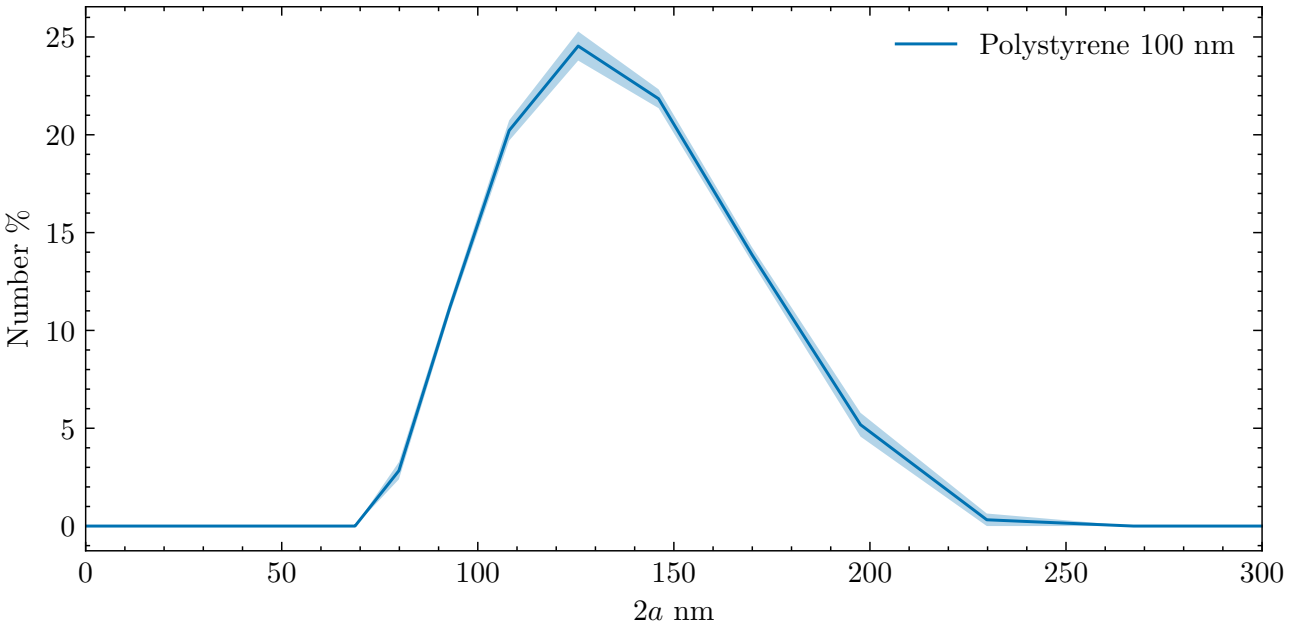


Figure 8.5: DLS results for Polystyrene beads in MilliQ water.

The figure shows the bulk-average size to be around $2a = 120\,\text{nm}$ with a log-normal distribution.

[12](MilliQ)
[13](Malvern Panalytical Ltd., Malvern, UK; $\lambda = 633\,\text{nm}$, $\theta = 173^{\circ}$ backscatter)

Sample	$\langle\zeta\rangle$ (mV)	σ_ζ (mV)	RSD (%)	$\zeta_{\min}$ (mV)	$\zeta_{\max}$ (mV)
DLS Standard -40	-42.695	0.000	0.00	-42.695	-42.695
Polystyrene Beads	-36.863	2.065	5.602	-39.246	-35.612

Table 8.2: Electrophoretic zeta-potential statistics from three consecutive measurements per sample. The average zeta-potential $\langle\zeta\rangle$, standard deviation σ_ζ, relative standard deviation RSD, minimum $\zeta_{\min}$, and maximum values $\zeta_{\max}$ are displayed for each sample.

For the lipid nanoparticle motion experiments, the lipid-nanoparticles were formulated by the Cullis lab as referenced in [41, 94]. The lipid nanoparticle formulations used were of the liposomal type, Onpattro oil-core type, and the Onpattro bleb-like type. The liposomal formulation used contained 20% norMC3 lipids. The Onpattro formulation consisted of 50% norMC3 lipids. The standard oil-core was dialyzed with 25 mM NaOAc. The bleb-like was dialyzed with 300 mM NaOAc.

8.2 Electrostatics Effects on Polystyrene Bead Diffusion in PBS

The effect of electrostatic interaction on particle diffusion was investigated. The experiments performed and presented in this section are shown in Tab. 8.3.

Sample	Buffer	Gap Length	N_{vid}	N_{traj}
Polystyrene Beads $a = 50\,\text{nm}$	PBS 0.1%	225 nm	10	8
Polystyrene Beads $a = 50\,\text{nm}$	PBS 0.01%	225 nm	10	53
Polystyrene Beads $a = 50\,\text{nm}$	PBS 0.001%	225 nm	6	13
Polystyrene Beads $a = 50\,\text{nm}$	PBS 0.00001%	225 nm	10	62

Table 8.3: List of experiments.

For each experiment, a video was obtained and analyzed to get the three-dimensional trajectories using Python software, described in 7. The videos are stored in binary format and had around $\sim 30\,\text{GB}$ each. The output from each video was a collection of trajectories of particle diffusion. From the data, the three-dimensional trajectories were reconstructed, as shown in the density plot in Fig. 8.6.

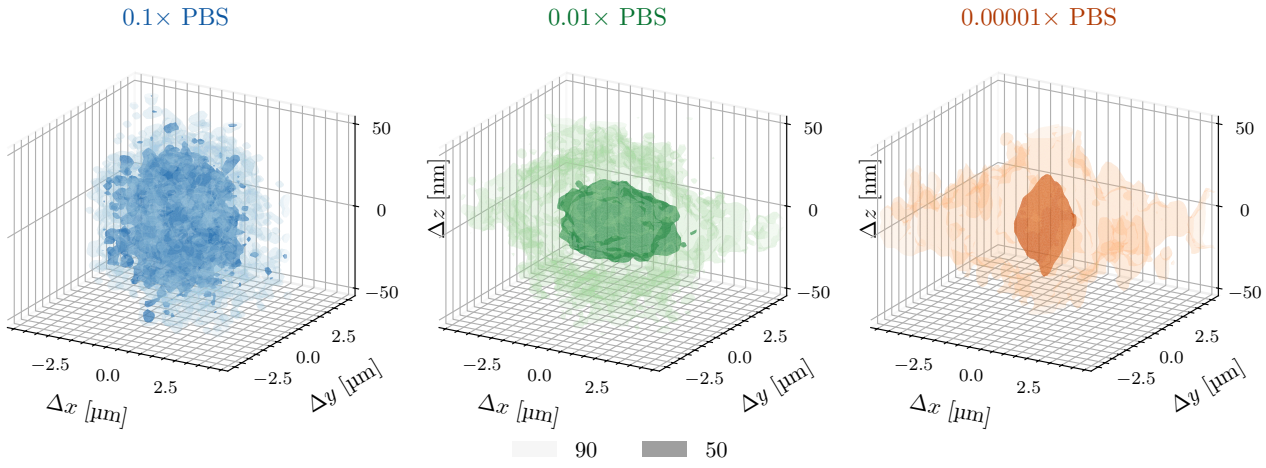


Figure 8.6: Spatial density of the average trajectory of particles.

The figure shows that for high concentration of PBS, the trajectory is contained in the largest space, which indicates large transverse movement. As the concentration decreases, the trajectory is confined into a smaller space.

These effects were captured by the spatial probability density for the three different concentrations of PBS. The positional probability density of particle motion is shown in Fig. 8.7.

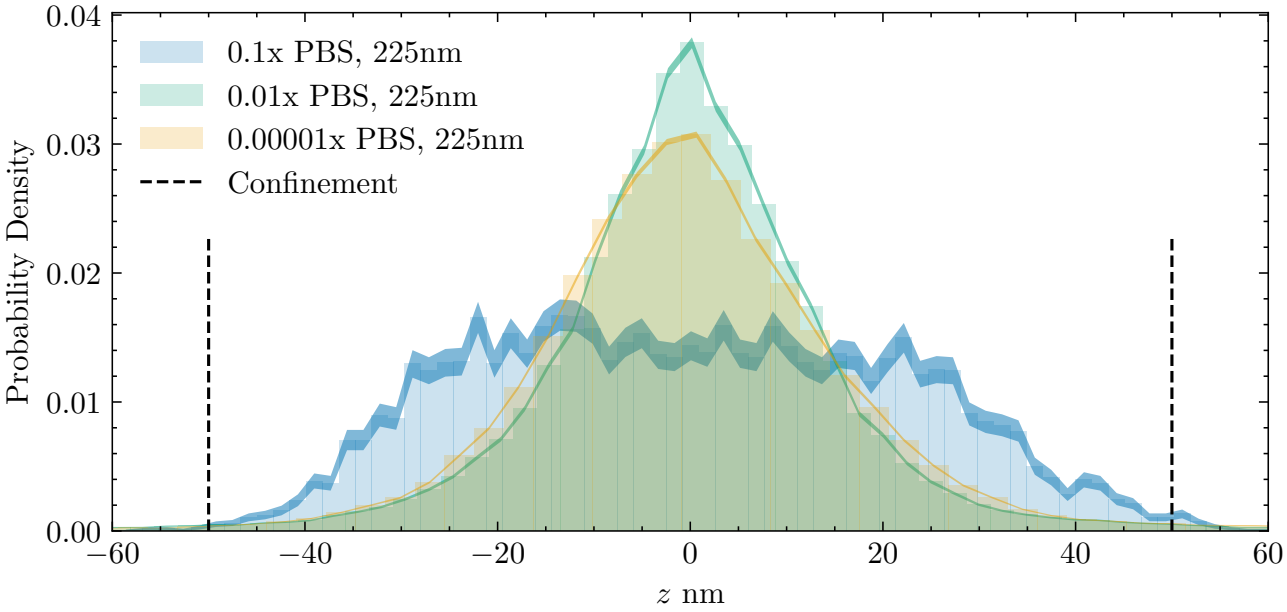


Figure 8.7: Probability density for three different concentrations of PBS. The blue line has a concentration of 0.1% PBS, green has a concentration of 0.01% PBS, and orange has a concentration of 0.00001% PBS. The horizontal axis is the z-axis position of the particle. The vertical axis is the frequency of position measurement.

The probability density of 0.01× and 0.00001× appear to follow same distribution. The difference between peaks is a normalization artifact. The probability density of 0.1× does not follow the same distribution, but rather has a flat-top profile. The electrostatic effects in 0.01× and 0.00001× are highly present, where the particle does not explore the full volume of the well. This is in contrast to 0.1× where it appears the particle explores the full volume. This experiment qualitatively agrees with the simulation results performed previously presented in Fig. 6.4.

The individual FWHM of the particle movement probability density is compared to the transverse size measurements as shown in Fig. 8.8.

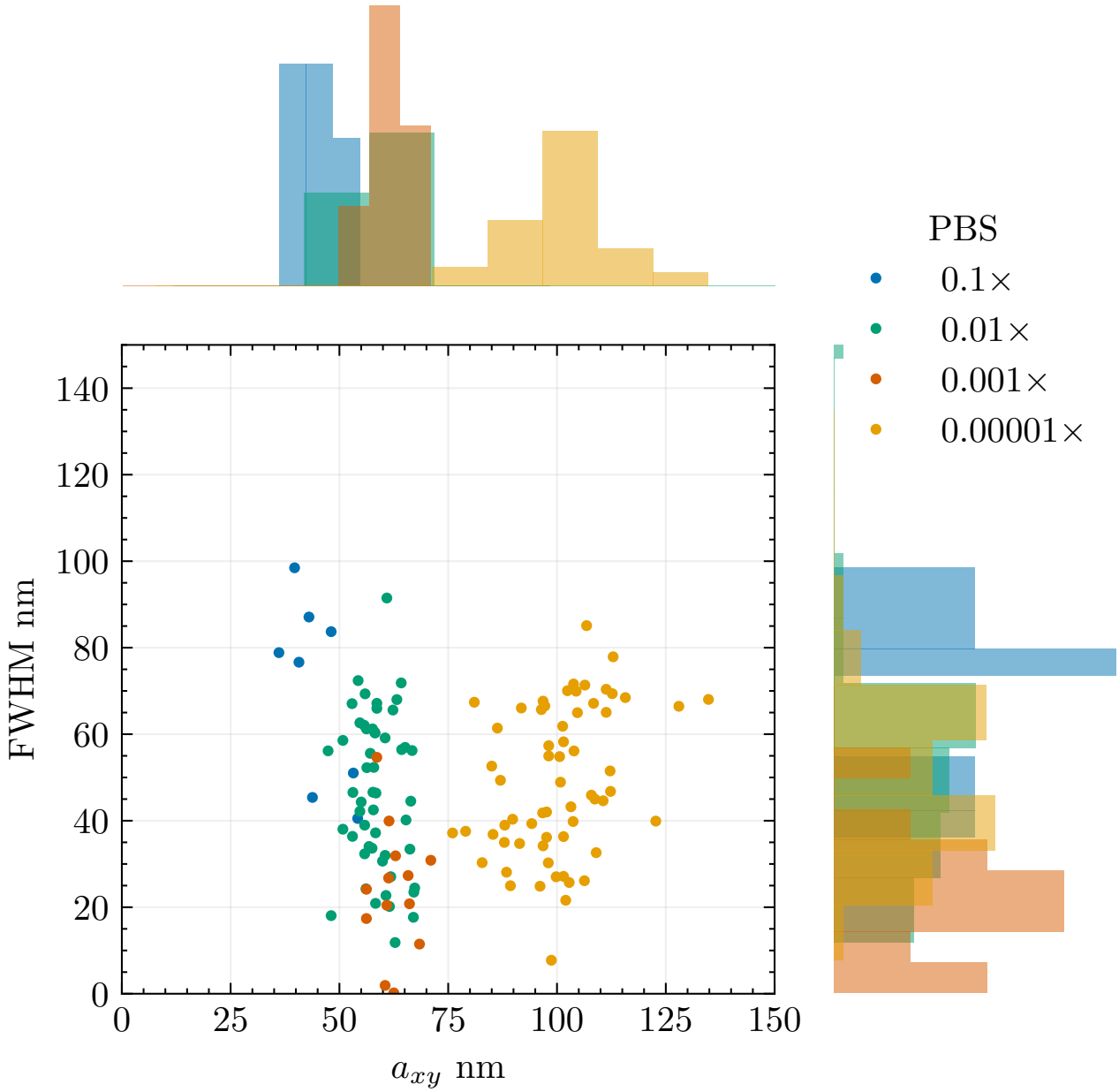


Figure 8.8: Relationship between the FWHM and a_{xy}, where FWHM is the full-width half maximum of the positional histogram, and a_{xy} is the particle radius.

The figure shows the relationship between the width of the probability distribution, quantized by the full-width half maximum, and the radius measured by the transverse trajectory for four different PBS concentrations. It can be seen that for concentrations larger than 0.00001× the particle radius distribution appears to be centered just over 50 nm. For the particles in the 0.00001× concentration, the size estimate appears to be double the expected size. The FWHM appears to be larger in the 0.1× case than compared to the lower concentrations.

The transverse diffusion measurements were constructed using the MSD of the first 15 points. The confinement coefficient was determined using the self-consistency relation.

Since the particle is a sphere and is contained between a known height, the radius of the particle can be extracted from the axial MSD plateau of the trajectory. This size estimate, labelled as a_z was compared to the size estimate from transverse diffusion estimation. This relationship is shown in Fig. 8.9.

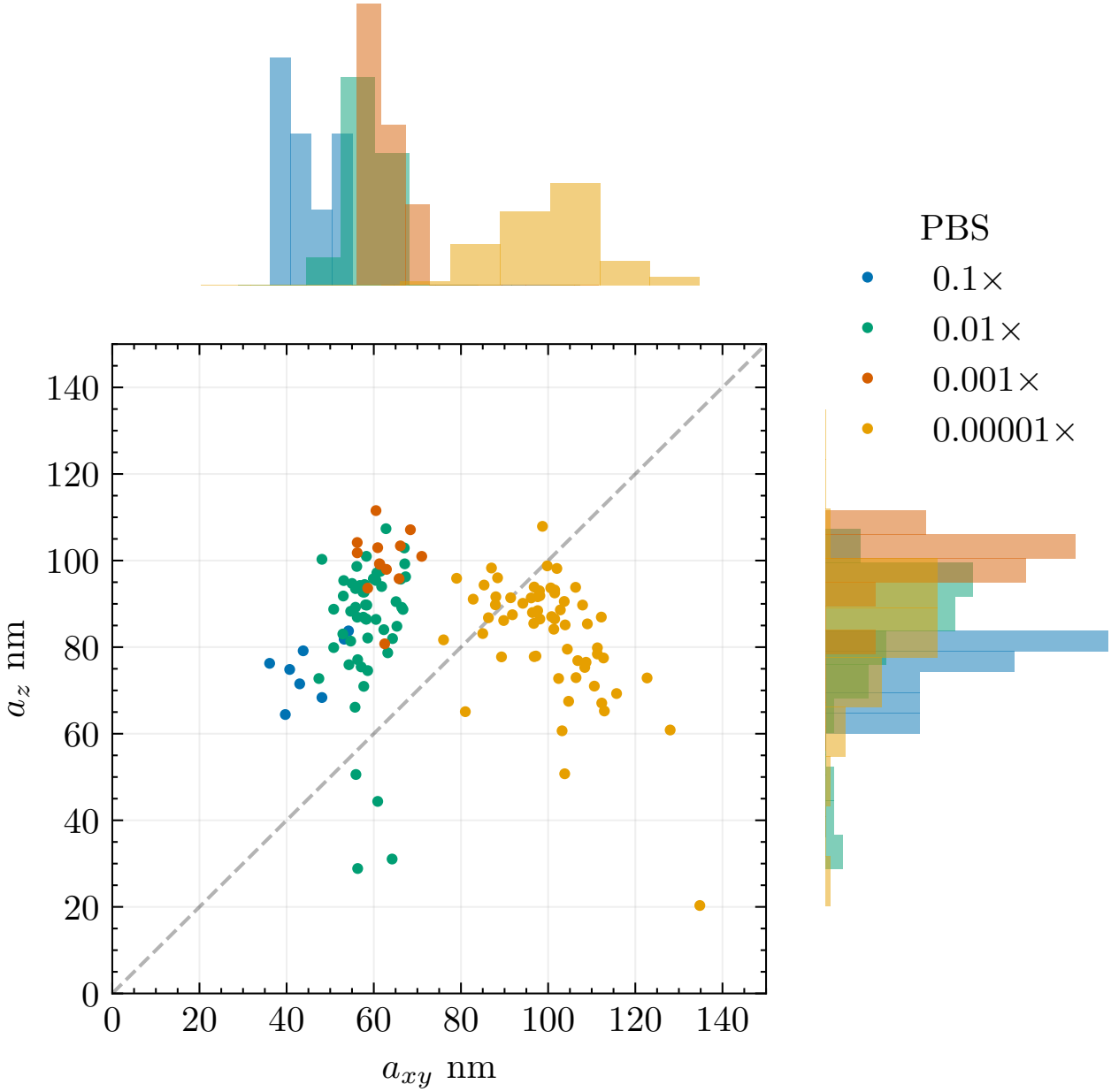


Figure 8.9: Plotted is the radius estimated by axial exploration compared to inferred transverse size of particles for various ionic concentrations.

The dotted line shows the $a_z = a_{xy}$ plane, where both methods obtain measure the same particle radius. For all concentrations, the axial method measures a consistent size estimate. As shown in the previous figure, the transverse estimation overestimates the size of the 0.00001× concentration.

For the case of 0.00001× PBS, the surface charge of the glass was measured using the relation derived in 2. The zeta-potential used in surface charge inference was measured by the zeta-sizer shown in Tab. 8.2. The surface charge of the walls is estimated by Eqn. 6.12 and the distribution for 62 particles traces is shown in Fig. 8.10.

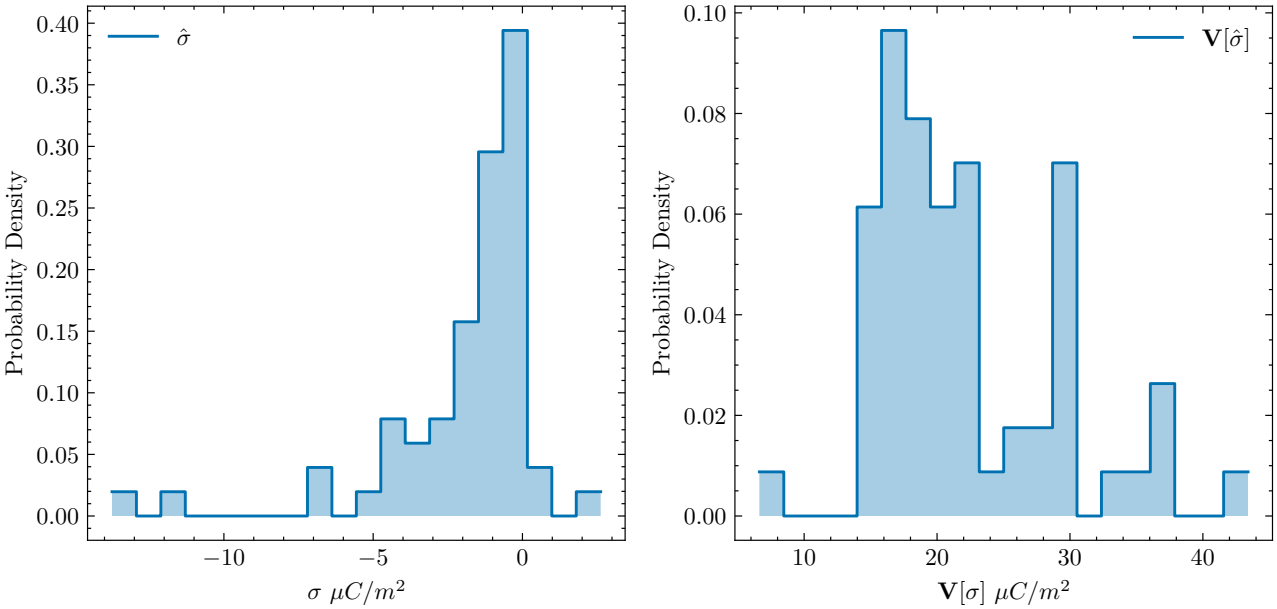


Figure 8.10: Surface charge estimation via MLE of 100 nm polystyrene beads in 0.00001% PBS solution. Imaging conducted at 400 fps.

The left plot shows the distribution of charge densities obtained from the MLE. The right plot shows the distribution of the variances as calculated by the MLE. The surface charge appears to be greatly underestimated with a mean around $-2\,\mu C/m^2$. The literature presents the surface charge for piranha-cleaned glass at around $-2\,C/m^2$ [95].

8.3 Polystyrene Transient Diffusion

To measure the transient diffusion in laboratory experiments, the experimental results for the samples listed in the table below were performed.

Sample	Buffer	Gap Length	N_{vid}	N_{traj}
Polystyrene Beads	45% Glycerol, PBS 1×	225 nm	3	7

Table 8.4: List of samples.

To obtain transient diffusion trajectories, the beads were suspended in 45% glycerol and 1× phosphate-buffered saline solutions. Three videos, of length 10000 frames each, were obtained according to the method described in 8.1.

The glycerol solution was adjusted to ensure that the diffusion coefficient was around 10× smaller than the previous experiment. The mean step length was $\sim 10\,\text{nm}$. the concentration of the solution was obtained by the relationship presented in Fig. 8.11.

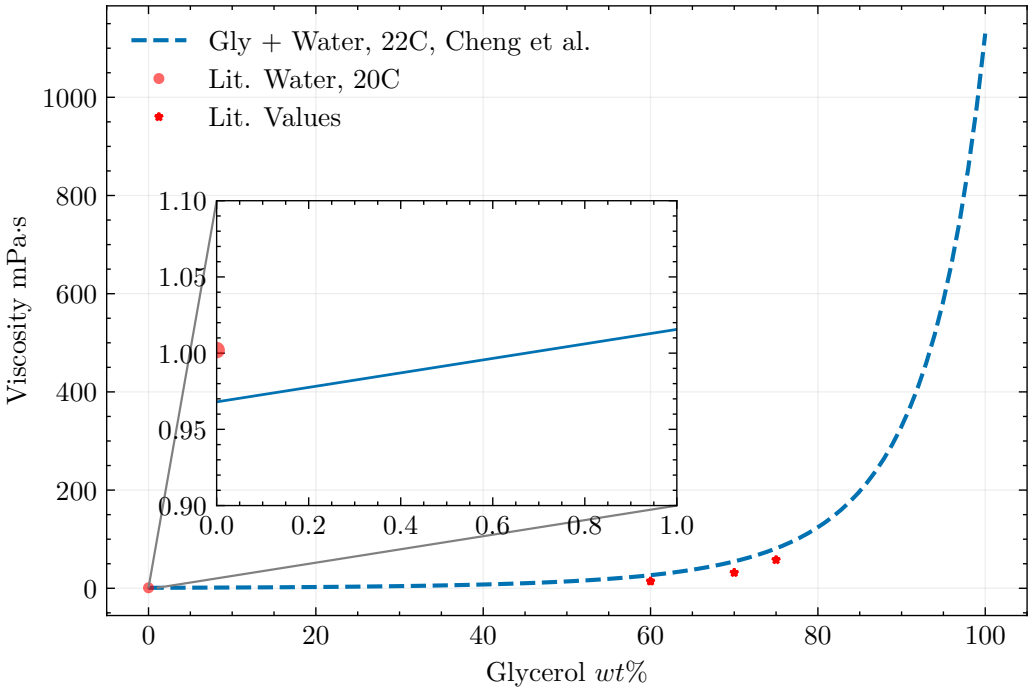


Figure 8.11: Glycerol-water curve. The theoretical line plotted is used from Cheng et al. [91].

The dotted blue line presents the empirically determined equation for the viscosity of a glycerol-water solution obtained from Ref. [91]. The red dots are the literature values for the viscosities. The inset frame shows the magnified region near 0, where the approximation is very close.

The experiment was performed with the parameters listed in Tab. 8.4 and the video was captured. From the video, a long-range trajectory was obtained. This trajectory is shown in Fig. 8.12

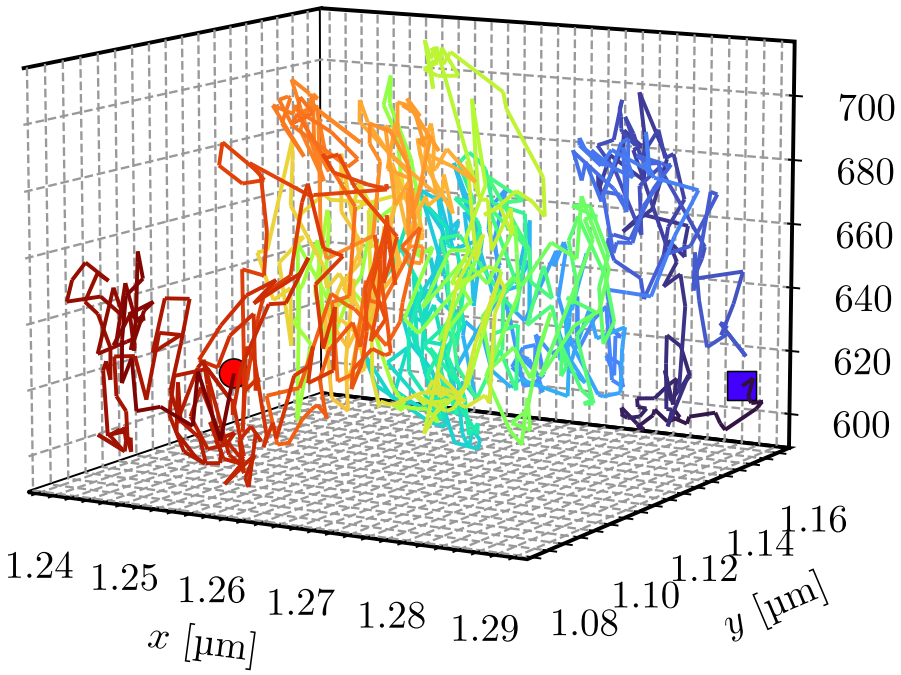


Figure 8.12: Trajectory of a polystrene bead in glycerol. The red dot and blue square show the initial and final position respectfully.

From this trajectory, the mean-squared displacement of the transverse and axial motion is plotted in Fig. 8.13.

The figure on the left shows the transverse mean squared displacement as a function of the lag-time between frames. The dotted line is the ensemble mean MSD between the 7 trajectories, while the filled area is the standard deviation. The figure on the right shows the axial mean squared displacement as a function of the lag-time between frames. The dotted green line shows the ensemble mean, while the filled green shows the standard deviation. The horizontal red lines show the theoretical plateau values for confined diffusion of various radii, a, particles between a 220 nm slit. The MSD of both trajectories appear within a narrow range of each other.

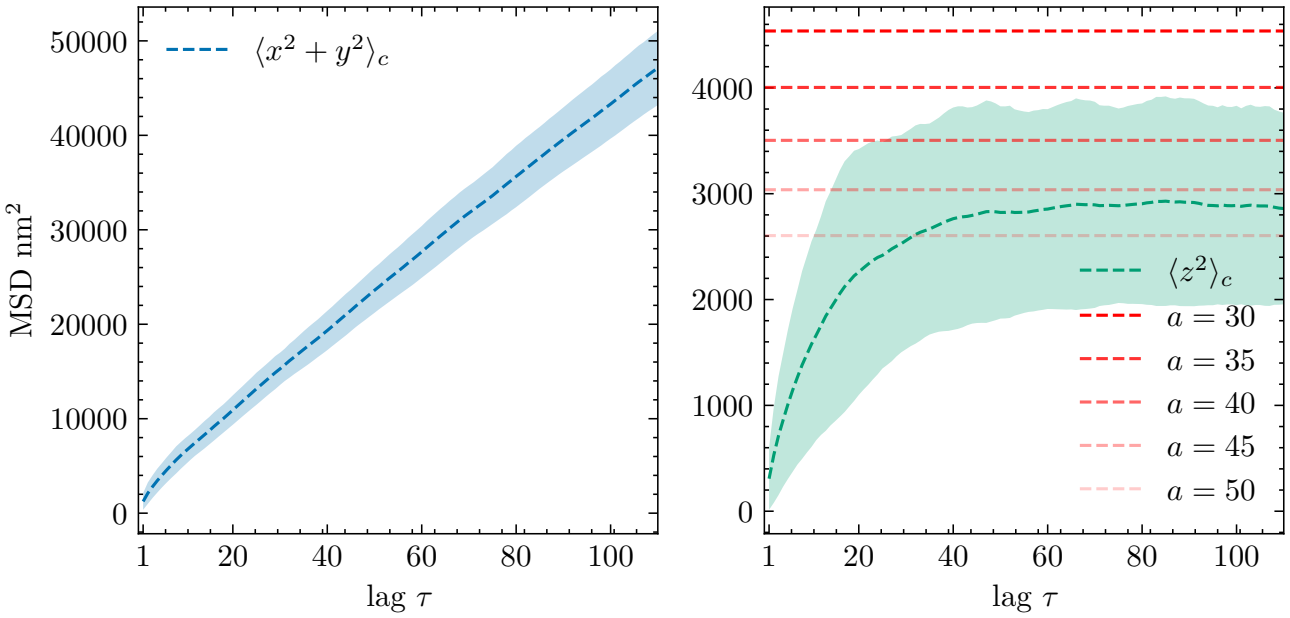


Figure 8.13: Mean-squared displacement of glycerol-slowed polystyrene beads. Axial MSD is clearly convergent to the confinement length. The confinement length is fixed at 225 nm and the particle's estimated size is $a = 50\,\text{nm}$. The lag time, τ is plotted in frame indices. Each unit of τ represents one frame at 580 fps.

In addition to these curves, the diffusivity across the confinement channel can be recovered by partitioning the trajectory into axially separated slices. The trajectory was converted into diffusivity values utilizing the first two points of the MSD and was plotted as a function of the axial position, as shown in Fig. 8.14.

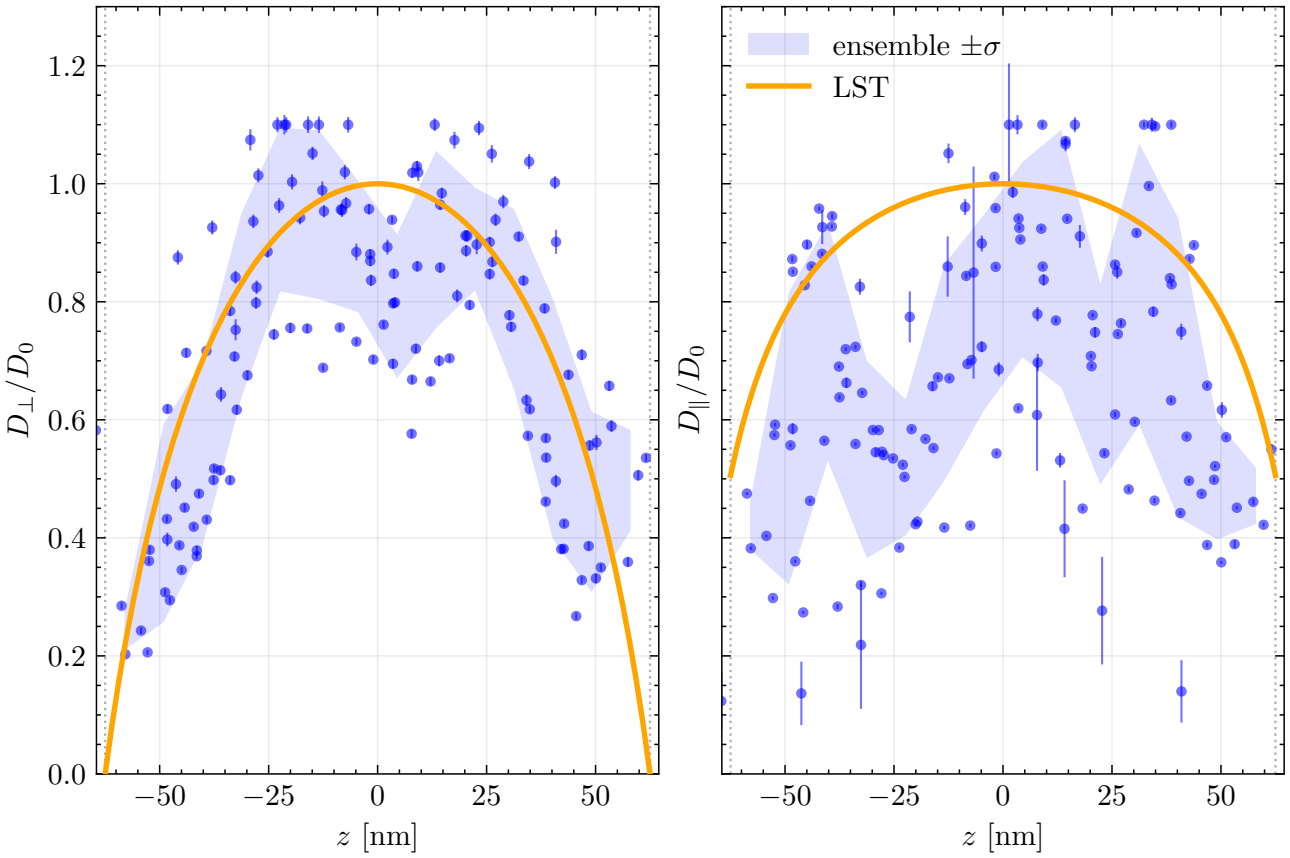


Figure 8.14: Theoretical diffusivity shown in orange using the linear-superposition theory (LST). Measured diffusivity of 7 particle traces are plotted in blue. Each point is a portion of a single trajectory. The ensemble distribution is plotted in light blue.

The left plot shows the theoretical diffusivity curve for axial movement in a 220 nm slit plotted in solid orange. The measured axial diffusivity values are shown with error bars in solid blue. The ensemble standard deviation is shown in light blue. The right plot presents the theoretical diffusivity curve for transverse movement in a 220 nm slit plotted in solid orange. The measured axial diffusivity values are shown with error bars in solid blue. The ensemble standard deviation is shown in light blue.

The left hand side plot follows the theoretical expected value, while the data on the right hand side is not. This is because of an increased uncertainty obtained from the video trajectories.

8.4 LNP Axial Diffusion

The lab experiments to characterize the diffusion of lipid nanoparticles were conducted for three LNP species to evaluate the electrostatic and transient motion. The electrostatic motion was obtained using a setup as described previously with the exception of utilizing a PEG-passivation. The test conditions are listed in the Tab. 8.5.

Sample	Buffer	Gap Length	N_{vid}	N_{traj}
LNP - Liposomal	1× PBS	225 nm	10	low-signal
LNP - Liposomal	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	low-signal
LNP - Onpattro - Standard - 25 mM NaOAc	1× PBS	225 nm	10	14
LNP - Onpattro - Standard - 25 mM NaOAc	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	3
LNP - Onpattro - Bleb-like - 300 mM NaOAc	1× PBS	225 nm	10	7
LNP - Onpattro - Bleb-like - 300 mM NaOAc	75% Glycerol, 1× PBS	225 nm	10	2

Table 8.5: List of LNP species

For each LNP species, the bulk-average size and zeta-potential were characterized using the Malvern DLS and zeta-sizer. The experimental size distribution is plotted in Fig. 8.15. The experimental zeta-potential measurements are summarized in Tab. 8.6.

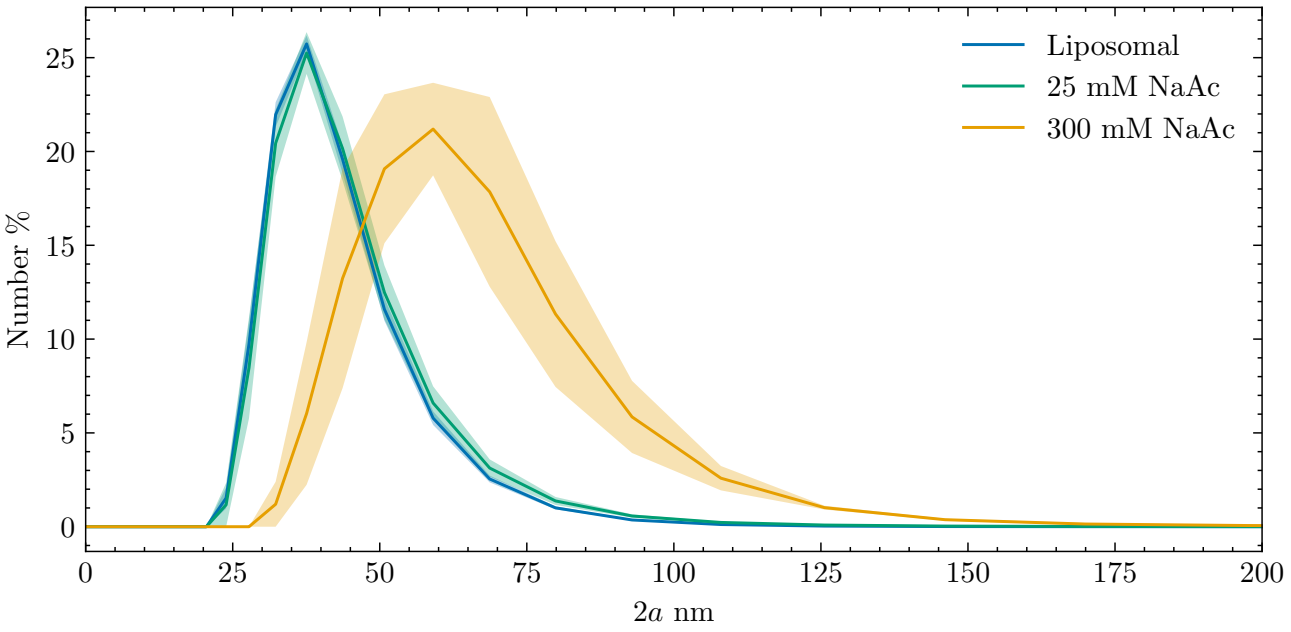


Figure 8.15: DLS measurements of LNP samples. The blue, green and orange plot denote the liposomal, 25mM NaAC, and 300mM NaAC LNP formulations respectfully.

The liposomal and oil-core LNPs, shown in the blue and green solid lines, have similar bulk-average size distributions centered around 40 nm with a log-normal distribution. The bleb-like LNP, shown in the orange solid line, is centered around 60 nm with a log-normal distribution. All three are below the size of 125 nm.

Sample	$\langle\zeta\rangle$ (mV)	σ_ζ (mV)	RSD (%)	$\zeta_{\min}$ (mV)	$\zeta_{\max}$ (mV)
DLS Standard -40	−42.695	0.000	0.00	−42.695	−42.695
Liposomal LNP	−7.739	0.089	1.153	−7.816	−7.642
25 mM NaAc Onpattro	−6.425	0.466	7.25	−6.906	−5.976
300 mM NaAc Onpattro	−6.569	1.414	21.52	−7.423	−4.938

Table 8.6: Electrophoretic zeta-potential statistics from three consecutive measurements per sample. The average zeta-potential $\langle\zeta\rangle$, standard deviation σ_ζ, relative standard deviation RSD, minimum $\zeta_{\min}$, and maximum values $\zeta_{\max}$ are displayed for each sample.

The zeta-potentials of all three LNP species have a similar mean zeta-potential around −7 mV. The size and the negative charge produce results that are consistent with movement within the full confinement.

The experimental data consisted of videos of LNPs diffusing in a 220 nm slit. The particle positions were measured using the iSCAT optical system and the trajectories were calculated from the video data. The spatial probability density histogram is shown in Fig. 8.16.

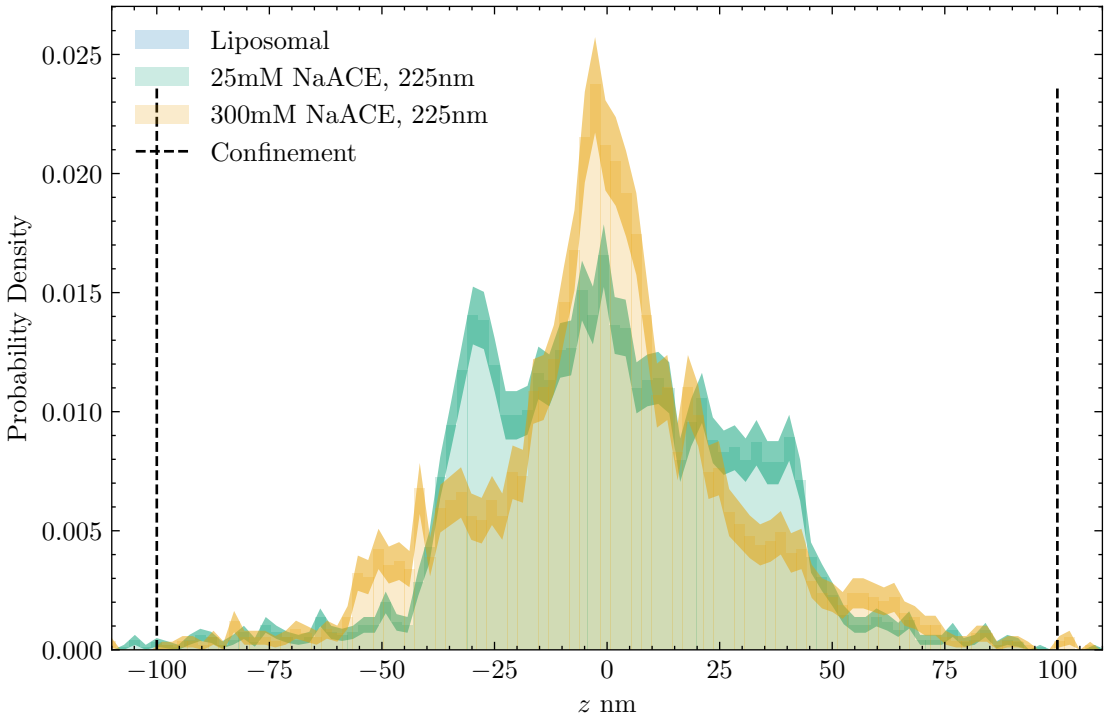


Figure 8.16: Probability histogram of LNP axial position. Plotted in green and orange are the 25mM NaAC, and 300mM NaAC LNP formulations respectfully. The liposomal, LNPs were too small to be tracked over a long-range and are hence omitted.

The liposomal LNPs were not consistently detectable to allow for 2D tracking. The low detectability of the data may be related to the smaller size and index of refraction being closely related to that of the solution. The oil-core and bleb-like LNPs had enough detectability to calculate trajectory information. The probability density of the oil-core resembles a flat-top distribution indicating motion across the whole channel. The bleb-like lNPs appear to have a flat-top with a secondary central peak in the distribution indicating motion across the channel with a potential secondary interaction.

To characterize the transient behavior, the LNPs were suspended in a 75% glycerol solution and the video from the optical system was obtained. The three samples were imaged and their ensemble MSD was measured. This is shown in Fig. 8.17.

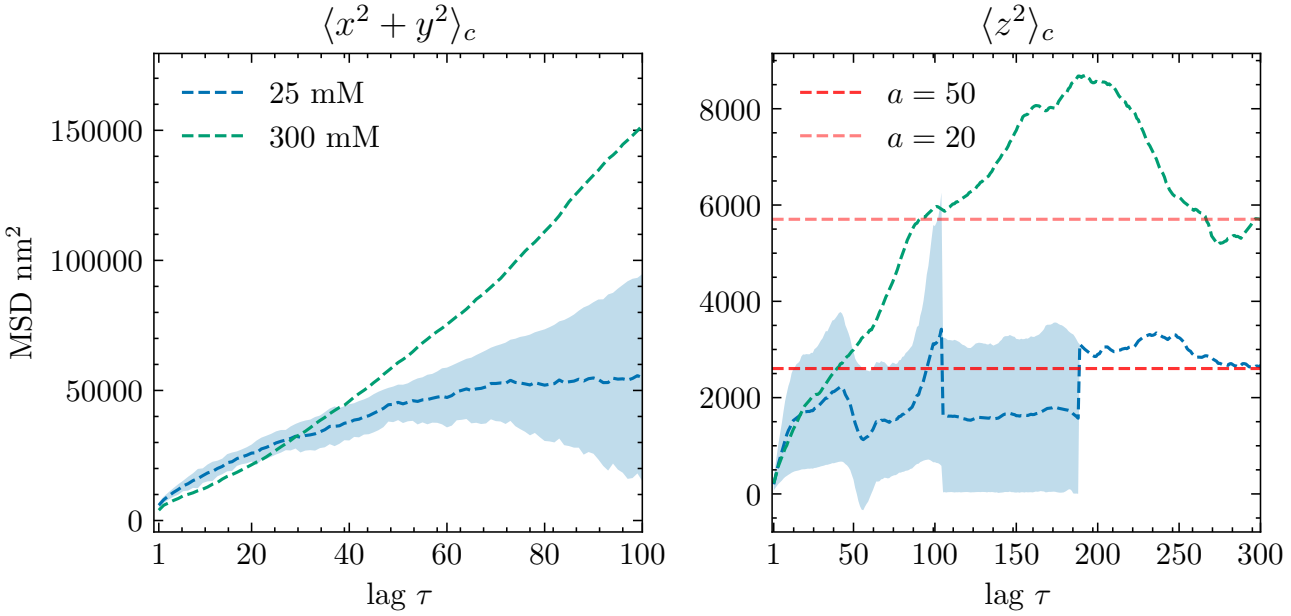


Figure 8.17: Ensemble MSD of LNP formalations. Plotted in blue and green are the 25mM NaAC, and 300mM NaAC LNP formulations respectfully. The lag time, τ is plotted in frame indices. Each unit of τ represents one frame at 400 fps. The red line in the right-plot display the expected MSD plateaus for particles of radius $20, 50$nm in order of increasing boldness. The 25mM NaAC traces contain ensemble information of 3 traces. The 300mM NaAC traces contain ensemble information of 2 traces.

The left plot depicts the transverse MSD of the oil-core and bleb-like LNPs. The dotted blue line shows the oil-core LNP transverse diffusion. The solid light blue indicates the standard deviation. The dotted green line shows the bleb-like LNP transverse diffusion. The solid light green indicates the standard deviation. The right plot depicts the axial MSD of the oil-core and bleb-like LNPs. The dotted blue line shows the oil-core LNP axial diffusion. The solid light blue indicates the standard deviation. The dotted green line shows the bleb-like LNP axial diffusion. The solid light green indicates the standard deviation. The dotted red lines show the theoretical plateau values for particles of radius, a, in a 220 nm slit. The transverse MSD is acceptable as it has a linear form near the first 20 lag-times. The axial MSD, however, contains non-linear

behavior and sporadic jumps. This noise indicates non-accurate axial tracking due to poor image data.

Chapter 9

Conclusion

9.1 Conclusion

This thesis presents the current state of research in the fields of nanoparticle diffusion and single-particle tracking.

The theory of thermal motion was reviewed based on existing research publications, which provides the theoretical foundation for the topics discussed in this thesis. Particular emphasis is placed on Brownian motion, which describes the random motion of larger particles suspended in a fluid as a result of collisions with thermally moving molecules. Brownian motion forms the basis for the analysis of nanoparticle diffusion, as shown in Chapter 2.

As nanoparticles are present in nature almost everywhere, it is of interest to study their behavior. Special interest in nanoparticles existing in biological forms was formed in recent years leading to development of vaccines. Using Brownian motion, properties of biological nanoparticles can be determined as described in Chapter 3.

Interferometric scattering principles for scattering microscopy were presented in Chapter 4 It was demonstrated that scattering microscopy can be used to reconstruct three-dimensional trajectories of nanoparticles from sequences of images. The trajectories can be used to calculate various properties of nanoparticles.

An interferometric scattering (iSCAT) microscope optical system was constructed to observe diffusion of nanoparticles in real time, as described in Chapter 5 The system was used to perform nanoparticle tracking under laboratory conditions and to obtain experimental data. Three-dimensional particle trajectories were reconstructed from the iSCAT images for nanoparticles of various sizes and fluid concentrations. The statistical parameters obtained from the collected data confirmed that the system was able to achieve the desired results and can be fundamental in further study in this field.

Mathematical description of Brownian motion was used to develop diffusion simulation of nanoparticles in confined spaces. The simulation model is a valuable tool for predicting nanoparticle behavior without the need for conducting lengthy and expensive experiments. The simulation software and results are presented in Chapter 6 The simulations can be conducted on various confinements with inclusion of external influences like electric field.

Analysis of the reconstructed trajectories in three-dimensions allows extraction of important nanoparticle physical parameters, including the mean squared displacement (MSD), diffusion coefficient, drift velocity, interaction forces, particle size, and confinement effects, as described in Chapter 7. The software developed for this purpose was able to analyze large number of videos autonomically and present results in required form. The processing time was in order of hours, which is the area of improvement. Using C++ code instead of Python should be investigated.

Chapter 8 presents the experimental results using the iSCAT imaging technique for specific nanoparticles of interests. Polystyrene beads of 100nm size were used for the characterization of the system. The data shows that the developed technique provides confirmation of the hardware and software correct operation and validate the mathematical framework implemented in the image analysis software. The experimental results demonstrated the accuracy and reliability of the proposed methodology for nanoparticle size estimation. As a final step, lipid nanoparticles were subjected to the experimental characterization. The test results showed that the technique was able to provide information about the electrostatic motion effects and transient motion of the particles. Some limitations were noticed for nanoparticle size of 40 nm as they presented a weak image signal. To improve this, the optical system should be further optimized and more data collected.

Overall, the presented results constitute good foundational method for tracking polystyrene beads and biological nanoparticles of sizes above 60 nm. The passivation methods and chemical solutions used also were validated as they provided good samples for the tests. The system is relatively inexpensive and can be replicated with relative ease.

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Appendix A

Surface Charge Estimator Derivation

This is a section for the derivation of the surface charge estimator used in the axial diffusion estimation.

A.1 $\hat{B}$ Maximum Likelihood Estimator

The Force used in the modeling is given by;

$$V'(z_n) = B\phi(z_n) = B\frac{k_bT}{\lambda_D} \cdot \exp(-H/\lambda_D) \cdot (\exp(-z_n/\lambda_D) - \exp(z_n/\lambda_D)) \tag{A.1}$$

The dynamics are governed by the equation, written in the Itô convention [96],

$$\Delta z = D'(z)\Delta t - \beta D(z)V'(z)\Delta t + \sqrt{2D(z)}W_t. \tag{A.2}$$

Re-writing in terms of drift and diffusion coefficients;

$$\Delta z = \left[D'(z) - \beta BD(z)\phi(z)\right]\Delta t + \sqrt{2D(z)}W_t. \tag{A.3}$$

This is a Markov-process that has a propagator probability from the Onsager-Machlup path integral representation [97, 98],

$$P(z_{n+1}|z) = \frac{1}{4D(z)\Delta t}\exp\left[-\frac{\left(\Delta z_n - D'(z)\Delta t + \beta BD(z)\phi(z)\Delta t\right)^2}{4D(z)\Delta t}\right]. \tag{A.4}$$

To obtain an estimator for B, take the log-likelihood and differentiate, maximizing it.

$$
\begin{aligned}
l(B) &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \left[-\frac{\left(\Delta z_n - D'(z)\Delta t + \beta B D(z)\phi(z)\Delta t\right)^2}{4D(z)\Delta t} \right] + \text{const} \\
&= -\frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{2D(z)\Delta t} \left(\Delta z_n - D'(z)\Delta t + \beta B D(z)\phi(z)\Delta t\right)^2 + \text{const.}
\end{aligned}
$$

Define $r_n = \Delta z_n - D'(z)\Delta t$ and $w_n = \frac{1}{2D(z)}$. Find the maximum of the log-likelihood by taking the derivative of l with respect to B.

$$
l'(B) = -\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w_n}{\Delta t} \left(r_n + \beta B D(z)\phi(z)\Delta t\right) \beta D(z)\phi(z)
$$

Setting this to 0 and solving for $\hat{B}$,

$$
\begin{aligned}
0 &= -\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w_n}{\Delta t} \left(r_n + \beta B D(z)\phi(z)\Delta t\right) \beta D(z)\phi(z) \\
0 &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w_n}{\Delta t} r_n D(z)\phi(z) + \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w_n}{\Delta t} \beta B D^2(z)\phi^2(z)\Delta t \\
\frac{1}{\Delta t} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} w_n r_n D(z)\phi(z) &= -\beta B \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} w_n D^2(z)\phi^2(z) \\
B &= \frac{\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} w_n r_n D(z)\phi(z)}{\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} w_n D^2(z)\phi^2(z)\Delta t}.
\end{aligned}
$$

Simplifying the terms, the estimator is written in the form over a sum of steps z;

$$
\hat{B} = \frac{\sum_n \phi(z) \left[\Delta z - D'(z)\Delta t\right]}{\sum_n D(z)\phi^2(z)\Delta t} \tag{A.5}
$$

A.2 $\hat{B}$ Variance

The variance of this can be found using the fisher information matrix;

$$\begin{aligned}\mathcal{I}(B) &= -l''(B) \\ &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{w_n}{\Delta t} \Delta t \beta^2 D^2(z) \phi^2(z) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \beta^2 D(z) \phi^2(z)\end{aligned}$$

In the univariate case, the variance is proportional to the inverse of the fisher information, which is also proportional to the denominator of the MLE.

$$\mathbb{V}[\hat{B}] = \frac{1}{2} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \beta^2 D(z) \phi^2(z) \tag{A.6}$$

Appendix B

Self-Consistent Diffusion Recovery

The self-consistency relation for confined diffusion assumes that the measured quantity is the confined diffusion in a known height. The measured confined diffusion is self-consistent if the following condition is true,

$$\hat{D}_{\parallel}(\hat{a}) = \mu_{\parallel}(a^*, h) D_0^*(a^*). \tag{B.1}$$

where μ is the Faxén mobility coefficient. Rewriting this equation in terms of the radius:

$$\begin{aligned}
\hat{D}_{\parallel}(\hat{a}) &= \mu_{\parallel}(a^*, h) D_0^*(a^*), \\
\frac{k_b T}{6\pi\eta\hat{a}} &= \mu_{\parallel}(a^*, h) \frac{k_b T}{6\pi\eta a^*}, \\
\frac{1}{\hat{a}} &= \mu_{\parallel}(a^*, h) \frac{1}{a^*}.
\end{aligned}$$

This final relation must be true if $\hat{a} = a^*$. It should be noted here that μ is a monotonic function. This is shown in Fig. 2.1. The monotonicity of this allows to ensure that a minima exists under mean-squared error. However, since μ is an infinite series, it is not-analytical. Thus, one can resort to a truncation of terms and a solution via a means of numerical techniques. An example of this is shown in Fig. 2.2. This thesis utilizes the Newton-Rhapson method due to its computational availability;

$$a^* = \arg\min_{a^*} \left| \hat{a}\mu_{\parallel} - a^* \right|. \tag{B.2}$$

Appendix C

Axial Estimation Algorithm Pseudocode

This section of the appendix lists all detailed algorithms and computational methods presented in the axial-estimation section of this project.

The following algorithms are presented:

Function	Desc.
Raw2iScat:	Camera image to iSCAT contrast stack.
TransverseLocalization:	(x, y) localization function with sub-pixel resolution.
RadialIntegral:	Radial integral function.
Nuisance-parameter:	Search algorithm with a grid-scan and raw-python implemented least-squares for Model.
Axial Chain-Link:	Linking algorithm for axial trajectories. Analogous to Munkre's algorithm in 2D tracking.

Table C.1: List of functions presented in appendix. Function names and descriptions are listed.

Each algorithm is presented in language-general mathematical pseudocode. Verbal explanations are described in chapter 7. The appendix serves as a more-detailed explanation so that the interested reader may implement the software themselves and have exact computational details.

A Python implementation, written by the author and open-source contributions, can be produced upon request.

Algorithm 1 Raw image stack → iSCAT contrast stack

Require: $I_{\text{raw}} \in \mathbb{R}^{F\times H\times W}$ ▷ F frames of $H \times W$ pixels
Ensure: $I_{\text{iSCAT}} \in \mathbb{R}^{F\times H\times W}$

Parameters

$R_1 \leftarrow \max(H,W)/100, \quad R_2 \leftarrow \max(H,W)/4$ ▷ band-pass radii in k-space [px]
$\Delta f \leftarrow 25, \quad \Delta L \leftarrow 15$ ▷ temporal gap; background half-window, empirical for data conditions.
$N \leftarrow$ border width ▷ pixels discarded at the edges

Pre-computation (frame independent)

$(k_x, k_y) \leftarrow \textsc{Meshgrid}\big(\big[-\frac{H}{2}, \frac{H}{2}\big), \big[-\frac{W}{2}, \frac{W}{2}\big)\big)$ ▷ centred spatial frequencies
$h \leftarrow \mathbf{1}\big[\, R_1^2 < k_x^2 + k_y^2 < R_2^2 \,\big]$ ▷ annular band-pass filter
$M_{pq} \leftarrow \mathbf{1}[\, N \le p < H - N \ \wedge \ N \le q < W - N \,]$ ▷ edge mask

function $\textsc{AmpNorm}(I, M)$ ▷ row-wise amplitude normalisation of one frame. Row-wise means to avoid readout noise from the camera. Mean over rows to remove line artifacts. (From Vahid's Method)
    $I^{(1)} \leftarrow I \odot M$ ▷ $\odot$: element-wise (Hadamard) product
    $I^{(2)} \leftarrow I^{(1)} / \langle I^{(1)} \rangle$ ▷ $\langle\cdot\rangle$: mean over all pixels
    for each row $p \in \{0, \dots, H-1\}$ **do**
        $a_p \leftarrow \langle M_{p,:} \rangle / \langle I^{(2)}_{p,:} \rangle$ ▷ row means
        $I^{(3)}_{p,:} \leftarrow I^{(2)}_{p,:} / a_p$
    end for
    return $I^{(3)}$
end function

Main loop

for $i = 0$ **to** $F - 1$ **do**
    $I_0 \leftarrow \textsc{AmpNorm}(I_{\text{raw}}[i],\, M)$ ▷ signal frame

    $\mathcal{B}_i \leftarrow \big[\, i - \Delta f - \Delta L,\ i - \Delta f \,\big] \ \cup \ \big[\, i + \Delta f,\ i + \Delta f + \Delta L \,\big]$ ▷ background frame indices
    $\mathcal{B}_i \leftarrow \mathcal{B}_i \cap [\, 0, F \,)$ ▷ clip at the ends of the stack
    $\bar{B} \leftarrow \dfrac{1}{|\mathcal{B}_i|} \displaystyle\sum_{j \in \mathcal{B}_i} \textsc{AmpNorm}(I_{\text{raw}}[j],\, M)$ ▷ mean background
    assert $\bar{B}$ contains no NaN

    $I_m \leftarrow \big(I_0 \oslash \bar{B}\big) \odot M$ ▷ $\oslash$: element-wise division
    $I_{\text{iSCAT}}[i] \leftarrow \mathcal{F}^{-1}\{h \odot \mathcal{F}\{I_m\}\}$ ▷ band-pass filtering
end for

return I_{iSCAT}

Algorithm 2 Transverse Localization algorithm

Inputs
I_{iSCAT} ▷ from Alg. 1
$I_{\text{RVT}} \leftarrow \text{RVT}[I_{\text{iSCAT}}]$

Pre-computation (frame independent)
$t \leftarrow 0.9 \cdot \max I_{\text{iSCAT}}$ ▷ threshold
$n \leftarrow 30$ ▷ number of particles per frame to assume, empirical
$x_{\text{ROI}}, y_{\text{ROI}} \leftarrow 5$ ▷ ROI cropping for radial symmetry algorithm
Fitting Routine
for $i = 0$ **to** $F - 1$ **do**
$I_{\text{dil}} \leftarrow \textsc{ImDialate}(I_{\text{RVT}}[i])$
$\{x, y\} \leftarrow \textsc{Where}\,[I_{\text{dil}} == I_{\text{RVT}} \wedge I_{\text{RVT}} > t]$ ▷ Candidate Positions
$\{x_1, y_1\}|_n = \textsc{GaussianFit}(x, y)$ ▷ Non-linear least squares fitting, take best n fits
$\{x_\star, y_\star\} = \textsc{RadialSymmetry}(x_1, y_1, x_{\text{ROI}}, y_{\text{ROI}})$ ▷ from [89]
end for
2D Trace Linking
$\text{Traces} \leftarrow \textsc{Munkres}[x_\star, y_\star]$ ▷ Minimization of distance cost-matrix
$\text{ROI} = I_{\text{iSCAT}}[Traces]$ ▷ Cropping of image around every frame for each trace.

Algorithm 3 Discrete radial profile (angular average over a wedge)

Require: $I \in \mathbb{R}^{F\times H\times W}$ ▷ stack of F image ROIs
Require: $\mathbf{c} = (c_p, c_q)$ ▷ ROI centre (may be sub-pixel)
Require: θ_0, $\Delta\theta$ ▷ start angle and angular width of the wedge
Require: R ▷ outer radial bound, in pixels
Ensure: $g \in \mathbb{R}^{F\times R}$, where

$$g_t(\rho) \;\simeq\; \frac{1}{\Delta\theta}\int_{\theta_0}^{\theta_0+\Delta\theta} I_t(\rho,\theta)\,\mathrm{d}\theta$$

is the angular mean of frame t over the wedge, as a function of radius.

Pre-computation (frame independent)

$\rho_{pq} \leftarrow \big\|(p,q)-\mathbf{c}\big\|_2, \quad \theta_{pq} \leftarrow \operatorname{arctan2}\big(p-c_p,\; q-c_q\big) \bmod 2\pi$ ▷ polar coordinates of each pixel

for $r = 0$ **to** $R-1$ **do** ▷ annular-wedge bins
  $\mathcal{A}_r \leftarrow \big\{\,(p,q)\;:\; r \le \rho_{pq} < r+1 \;\wedge\; \big(\theta_{pq}-\theta_0\big) \bmod 2\pi \;<\; \Delta\theta\,\big\}$
  $N_r \leftarrow |\mathcal{A}_r|$ ▷ $N_r \approx (r+\frac{1}{2})\,\Delta\theta$
end for

Main loop

for $t = 0$ **to** $F-1$ **do**
  for $r = 0$ **to** $R-1$ **do**
    if $N_r = 0$ **then**
      $g_t(r) \leftarrow \textsc{NaN}$ ▷ empty bin: undefined, not zero
    else
      $g_t(r) \leftarrow \dfrac{1}{N_r}\displaystyle\sum_{(p,q)\in\mathcal{A}_r} I_t[p,q]$ ▷ angular average at radius r
    end if
  end for
end for

return g

Algorithm 4 Nuisance-parameter estimation by profiled grid search + local refinement

Require: $g \in \mathbb{R}^M$ ▷ radial profile, sampled at radii r_i, $i = 1, \dots, M$
Require: $r \in \mathbb{R}^M$, $w \in \mathbb{R}^M_{\geq 0}$ ▷ radii [nm] and fit weights
Require: $k = 2\pi n_0/\lambda$ ▷ optical wave-vector in the medium
Require: $[z_-, z_+]$, $[E_-, E_+]$, $[\gamma_-, \gamma_+]$ ▷ parameter bounds
Require: $\Delta_\lambda = 32$

iPSF Model

$G_i(z, \gamma) \;=\; \frac{q(r_i,z)}{\varrho(r_i,z)^2} \cdot \cos\big[\, k\,(z + \varrho(r_i, z))\,\big]\, e^{-r_i/\gamma}, \quad \varrho(r, z) = \sqrt{r^2 + z^2}$

$\chi^2(E_0, z, \gamma) \;=\; \big\langle\, g - E_0 G,\; g - E_0 G \,\big\rangle_w, \quad \langle a, b\rangle_w \;\equiv\; \sum_{i=1}^{M} w_i\, a_i\, b_i$

Pre-computation

$\delta_z \leftarrow 2\pi/(k\,\Delta_\lambda)$ ▷ $= (\lambda/n_0)/\Delta_\lambda$: fringe period / Δ_λ

$\mathcal{Z} \leftarrow \{\, z_- + m\,\delta_z \;:\; m = 0, \dots, N_z - 1 \,\}, \quad N_z = \lceil (z_+ - z_-)/\delta_z \rceil$

$\Gamma \leftarrow \{\, \gamma_1, \dots, \gamma_{N_\gamma} \,\} \subset [\gamma_-, \gamma_+]$ ▷ decay-length grid

$\langle g, g\rangle_w \leftarrow \sum_i w_i\, g_i^2$

Profiled grid search

for $\gamma \in \Gamma$ **do**
  for $z \in \mathcal{Z}$ **do**
    $\varrho_i \leftarrow \sqrt{r_i^2 + z^2} \quad \forall\, i$
    $G_i \leftarrow \dfrac{q(r_i, z)}{\varrho_i^2}\, \cos\big[k(z + \varrho_i)\big]\, e^{-r_i/\gamma} \quad \forall\, i$
    $\langle G, G\rangle_w \leftarrow \sum_i w_i\, G_i^2, \quad \langle G, g\rangle_w \leftarrow \sum_i w_i\, G_i\, g_i$
    $\rho(z, \gamma) \leftarrow \dfrac{\langle G, g\rangle_w}{\sqrt{\langle G, G\rangle_w\, \langle g, g\rangle_w \;+\; \varepsilon}}$ ▷ weighted correlation coefficient
    $\hat{E}_0(z, \gamma) \leftarrow \textsc{Clip}\left[\, \dfrac{\langle G, g\rangle_w}{\langle G, G\rangle_w},\; E_-,\; E_+ \right]$ ▷ profiled amplitude
    $\mathcal{L}(z, \gamma) \leftarrow 1 - \rho^2(z, \gamma)$ ▷ $\chi^2_{\min}/\langle g, g\rangle_w$
  end for
end for

Refinement

$(z^\star, \gamma^\star) \leftarrow \underset{(z,\gamma)\,\in\,\mathcal{Z}\times\Gamma}{\arg\min}\; \mathcal{L}(z, \gamma)$ ▷ coarse global minimum

$E_0^\star \leftarrow \hat{E}_0(z^\star, \gamma^\star)$

$(\hat{E}_0, \hat{z}, \hat{\gamma}) \leftarrow$ L-BFGS-B$\big[\, \sum_i \mathcal{H}_\delta\big(g_i - E_0 G_i(z, \gamma)\big);$ init $(E_0^\star, z^\star, \gamma^\star);$ bounds $[E_\pm], [z_\pm], [\gamma_\pm]\,\big]$
▷ Huber loss $\mathcal{H}_\delta$

return $(\hat{E}_0,\, \hat{z},\, \hat{\gamma})$

Algorithm 5 Dynamic program for the optimal 2D chain of candidate points, Viterbi Algorithm

Require: Candidate sets $\mathcal{C}_t = \{\, \mathbf{p}_t^{(i)} = \big(x_t^{(i)},\, y_t^{(i)}\big) \,\}_{i=1}^{n_t},\ t = 0, \ldots, F-1$
where $x_t^{(i)} \equiv \texttt{min_idx}[t][i]$ (position) and $y_t^{(i)} \equiv \texttt{min_vals}[t][i]$ (value)
Require: Weights $\mathbf{W} = \mathrm{diag}(w_x, w_y)$, default $\mathbf{W} = \mathbf{I}$
Require: Maximum step $s_{\max} \in (0, \infty]$ ▷ $s_{\max} = \infty \Rightarrow$ unconstrained
Ensure: Chain $\mathbf{k} = (k_0, \ldots, k_{F-1})$, $k_t \in \{1, \ldots, n_t\}$, minimizing

$$J(\mathbf{k}) \;=\; \sum_{t=1}^{F-1} \big\|\mathbf{W}\big(\mathbf{p}_{t-1}^{(k_{t-1})} - \mathbf{p}_t^{(k_t)}\big)\big\|_2 \qquad \text{s.t.} \quad \big\|\mathbf{W}\big(\mathbf{p}_{t-1}^{(k_{t-1})} - \mathbf{p}_t^{(k_t)}\big)\big\|_2 \le s_{\max}$$

together with the corresponding x- and y-chains.

Forward pass ▷ $C_t(j)$: cost of the best chain ending at $\mathbf{p}_t^{(j)}$

$C_0(i) \leftarrow 0 \quad \forall\, i \in \{1, \ldots, n_0\}$
for $t = 1$ **to** $F-1$ **do**
▷ Weighted Euclidean transition cost, $n_{t-1} \times n_t$
  $d_t(i,j) \leftarrow \sqrt{w_x^2\big(x_{t-1}^{(i)} - x_t^{(j)}\big)^2 + w_y^2\big(y_{t-1}^{(i)} - y_t^{(j)}\big)^2} \quad \forall\,(i,j)$
  $d_t(i,j) \leftarrow \infty$ **if** $d_t(i,j) > s_{\max}$ ▷ forbid over-long steps

▷ Bellman recursion
  $\pi_t(j) \leftarrow \arg\min_i \big[\, C_{t-1}(i) + d_t(i,j) \,\big] \quad \forall\, j \in \{1, \ldots, n_t\}$
  $C_t(j) \leftarrow C_{t-1}\big(\pi_t(j)\big) + d_t\big(\pi_t(j),\, j\big)$

  if $C_t(j) = \infty\ \forall\, j$ **then**
    return $\varnothing$ ▷ no admissible chain survives frame t
  end if
end for

Backtracking
$k_{F-1} \leftarrow \arg\min_j C_{F-1}(j)$ ▷ cheapest terminal node
for $t = F-1$ **down to** 1 **do**
  $k_{t-1} \leftarrow \pi_t(k_t)$
end for

return $\big\{k_t\big\}, \quad \big\{x_t^{(k_t)}\big\}, \quad \big\{y_t^{(k_t)}\big\} \quad$ for $t = 0, \ldots, F-1$